

International
Tourism and Media
Conference Proceedings



Edited by
Warwick Frost, Glen Croy and Sue Beeton

International Tourism and Media Conference Proceedings

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Warwick Frost, Glen Croy and Sue Beeton

Hosted by
La Trobe University, Monash University and University of Otago



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Introduction

The First International Tourism and Media Conference is being held at La Trobe University, Melbourne, from the 24th to 26th of November 2004. It is presented by the School of Sports, Tourism and Hospitality Management, La Trobe University and the Tourism Research Unit, Monash University, in conjunction with the Department of Tourism, University of Otago.

These conference proceedings are divided into two sections. The first contains the refereed papers. These were double-blind refereed and we greatly appreciate the kind assistance of our panel of referees (see below for the list of referees). The second contains abstracts of the working papers.

This conference is branded as the 'First' as we plan to conduct biennial conferences on the theme of Tourism and the Media. The second conference is scheduled for Monash University in November 2006 and the third for the University of Otago in 2008.

The concept of this conference arose from the intersection of two ideas. The first is that we were aware that a growing band of researchers shared our interest in the linkages between tourism and the media. A special session on tourism and the media at the 2004 CAUTHE Conference in Brisbane confirmed both the level of international interest and the diversity of approaches and topics.

The second factor was our belief that when it came to conferences small was best. We had all experienced small conferences and found them highly beneficial for interacting with researchers with like interests. Given our interest in a conference specifically focussing on tourism and the media, a small conference seemed ideal.

The response to our call for papers exceeded our expectations. We received papers on a diverse range of topics. Papers considered different types of media, including film, television (both fictional and documentary), newspapers and other news media, magazines, art, and music. The geographical scope ranged across many countries and from major cities to small towns. The differing effects of media on tourism were both good and bad. Research styles included empirical, conceptual and case studies.

Most importantly, these papers extend our ways of thinking about the relationships between tourism and the media. As paper after paper demonstrates, it is no longer enough, to think in terms of media productions being a 'lucky break' which allows a destination to gain windfall benefits of increased tourist numbers. As some of these papers show, media coverage may result in negative externalities for tourism. As others consider, the impacts of positive media images work in different and complex ways. All these papers send the message that there is much more to explore in this field.

It is our intention that this conference is a beginning. Our hope is that it will stimulate continuing collaboration, co-operation and support networks. In addition to the biennial conference, there are plans for special issues of journals and books.

Warwick Frost, Monash University

Sue Beeton, La Trobe University

Glen Croy, Monash University

Referee Panel

Sue Beeton, Sue Broad, Sasha Buchmann, Shirley Chappel, Glen Coy, Elspeth Frew, Kate Gautier, Maureen Griffiths, Anne-Marie Hede, Jennifer Laing, Christine Lee, Niki Macionis, Kamal Singh, and Liam Smith

International Tourism and Media Conference Refereed Papers

The More Things Change... A Legacy of Film-Induced Tourism

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Abstract

Tourism can influence and change a community, and when it is unplanned, as often is the case with incidental tourism such as film-induced tourism, such changes are rarely considered. This paper looks at the changes that film-induced tourism (in the guise of a popular TV series, *Sea Change*) made to the seaside village of Barwon Heads in Australia. The attitudes of residents and regular visitors towards the influence of film-induced tourism and its relationship with 'reality' are discussed as well as the actual physical changes to the town.

Introduction

Tourism has long been recognised as an agent of change, generally perceived along a positive-negative continuum. Such change is usually noted in terms of socio-cultural, economic and environmental elements. In many cases, the extent of the impact is a direct function of the number of visitors. Simply speaking, more visitors can bring more money, but also create more pressure on the environment (natural and built) and their associated communities.

When a movie or popular television series is filmed on-site in an existing town or region, increased visitation to those sites often follows (Riley, 1994; Riley et. al., 1998; Tooke and Baker, 1996; Beeton, 2001a, 2001b; Busby and Klug, 2001; Croy and Walker, 2001). As with many cases of increased tourism, those film sites that are in fragile environments and communities tend to see the most dramatic changes. Film-induced tourism is of particular interest (and possible concern) in terms of community development, as many of the more popular television and film sites are in small communities, particularly in rural/regional areas. In this paper, one such community in Australia is considered by looking at the physical changes to the town and beliefs held by residents as well as visitors in terms of the overall effect of a popular television series.

Tourism and Communities

Many researchers have contributed to our understanding of the positive and negative impacts of tourism on communities (including Doxey, 1975; Murphy, 1985; Krippendorf, 1987; Pearce et al, 1996; Robinson and Boniface, 1997; Bramwell and Lane, 2000; Hall, 2003; Singh et al, 2003. In

particular, the economic impacts are well documented, however in more recent times the socio-cultural elements are becoming more widely acknowledged (Timothy and Tosun, 2003). Singh et. al. (2003) relate this pattern of change towards tourism and communities in terms of Jafari's (1989) four tourism platforms of advocacy (where, in this case, economic benefits dominate), cautionary (such as considering primarily the negative socio-cultural impacts), adaptancy (pro-community compromise) and knowledge-based (research-focused community development) platforms. This interesting framework has been used to trace the overall trends in community development and tourism, while allowing us to recognise that not all communities have followed the path at the same rate. There remain many communities in both developed and developing countries that appear to remain 'stuck' in the more confrontational advocacy-cautionary range. The presence of these two platforms within community groups can result in significant levels of irreconcilable conflict.

Table 1 summarises the socio-cultural effects of tourism in terms of cultural impacts, tourist-host interactions and tourism development. They have not been identified as either positive or negative, as in many cases such identification is an arbitrary position based on an individual's personal views, circumstances and position in the community. While important to consider, the complexities behind such prescriptive designation is not in the scope of this introductory discussion on tourism and communities.

Table 1: Socio-Cultural Effects of Tourism on Communities

Cultural Impacts	Arts, crafts and local culture revitalized
	Cultural commodification
	Acculturation process likely to occur
	Changing power balance - control moving to newcomers/outsideers
	Crowding
	Meaning/authenticity not necessarily lost
	Increased crime (begging, theft, sex tourism, fraud etc.)
	Cultural exchange/increased understanding and tolerance
	Increased social encounters
	Increasing communication skills
Tourist-Host Interactions	Positive interaction – reciprocal host-guest relationships
	Demonstration effect
	Hosts adopt foreign languages
	Tourists learn some foreign language
	Hosts develop coping behaviour and avoid unnecessary contact
	Modifies the internal structure of the community
	Changes the character of the community
Tourism Development	Divides the community into those who have/have not relationships with tourists
	Has colonialist characteristics
	Employment in tourism offers more opportunities for women
	Improves quality of life through infrastructure development
	Increased pressure on existing infrastructure/ congestion at popular sites
	Increased traffic and noise
	Accelerated community change

Many of these effects are not the sole province of tourism, however as tourism becomes considered more and more a means for regenerating declining communities and responding to some of the consequences communities face from globalisation, building tourism is becoming a significant development strategy. Communities are also faced with many issues surrounding the increasing pace of change. As well as creating specific issues and impacts, tourism also facilitates and even increases rates of change (Murphy and Murphy, forthcoming).

Film-induced tourism has the potential to increase the pace of change, particularly

where such tourism has not been anticipated or planned for. The primary aim of this paper is to examine elements of change by outlining the process undertaken to test the hypothesis that

Film-induced tourism increases the rate of physical change in a community, and to identify the range of attitudes towards change between stakeholders.

The case of the Australian television series, *Sea Change* and the Victorian coastal village of Barwon Heads where it was filmed, provides some evidence of this issue of change and its consequences. In the particular case outlined in this paper, the physical changes are illustrated, followed by an outline of the changes that were noted by residents and regular visitors to the town. Finally, the attitudes of these stakeholders towards such change are considered by looking at one particular development that had initially polarised the community.

The *Sea Change* Story

Over a two year period from 1998 to 2000, three 13 episode series of the Australian comedy-drama *Sea Change* were screened on Australian television (with the first series being repeated immediately prior to the screening of the second). It featured quirky characters and a small (usually) friendly community, tinged with the obligatory 'love interest' (between the lead characters Laura and Diver Dan, and later, Max) and rapacious self-serving developer. The series was extremely popular, with a reach¹ in Australia's five capital cities of 43 percent, the highest being in Melbourne (a few hour's drive from Barwon Heads) at 46.2 percent (ABC, 2000). It continually ranked highly in its timeslot, as shown in Table 2, and won numerous awards such as the Most Outstanding Drama Series for 1999 and 2000 in the Australian TV Week Logie Awards, as well as numerous individual awards for the actors.

¹ "Reach" refers to the percentage of the population who watched a programs for a minimum of 5 minutes.

Table 2: Ranking of Series Two by City and Metro-all for each Episode

Week	Sydney	Melbourne	Brisbane	Adelaide	Perth	Metro-All
1	12	3	25	25	8	6
2	12	5	25	41	9	7
3	9	3	15	25	15	4
4	9	2	15	37	7	5
5	4	2	3	26	19	3
6	11	2	16	37	17	8
7	2	1	16	21	10	1
8	1	1	6	25	6	1
9	4	4	6	21	8	3
10	2	1	7	9	7	1
11	1	2	11	10	8	1
12	1	1	3	9	10	1
13	1	6	3	12	2	2

Source: ABC, 2000

Almost immediately, visitation increased to the small seaside village of Barwon Heads where it was predominantly filmed, known as 'Pearl Bay' in the series (Beeton, 2001a). Barwon Heads is a quintessential Australian holiday seaside village, some 20 km from Geelong, Victoria's largest regional city, and 100km from the state's capital, Melbourne. It has traditionally hosted a high level of family and budget holiday-makers, with visitation levels peaking in the summer holiday month of January (Beeton, 2001b).

The Research Approach

In order to test the hypothesis introduced earlier and to provide some analytical depth, a longitudinal study of Barwon Heads was undertaken over four years, from 1998 to 2001 inclusive. By adopting a qualitative, primarily participant-observation based approach, such changes could be observed and recorded. Personal diary notations and photographs were used to track and record physical changes. In order to ascertain the perceived effects of the physical and attitudinal changes of regular visitors as well as local residents, a series of interviews and surveys were undertaken throughout the period when *Sea Change's* influence was at its greatest – shortly after the series commenced to some 18 months after it finished screening on Australian television. Triangulation was achieved by taking a multi-perspective approach that included surveys and interviews as well as the aforementioned participant-observation.

A self-completion survey was mailed to a random sample of Barwon Heads' residents, as well as further self-completion mail-back questionnaires of visitors that were made available at strategic places in the township

during 1998, 1999 and 2000. Consequently, issues and attitudes from both residents and visitors were identified as they arose. The issues were then developed in follow-up interviews in 2001. These interviews regarding the changes to the town and Park were conducted with people at Barwon Heads during the 2001 Spring school holiday break, resulting in 23 responses from residents and 56 from regular visitors to the town. The questions focused on the impacts of *Sea Change* on the town, the series and opinions of what had become a controversial restaurant development at the site of one of Diver Dan's home, and what they saw as similarities between the town and the fictional series.

Apart from some basic demographic questions, the responses in all of the surveys and interviews were unprompted, allowing for a broad range of responses and a more in-depth qualitative study. Acceptable response levels to open, unprompted questions are dramatically different from that of closed questions. Table 3, cited in Pearce et al (1996) from a Canadian study by Keogh in 1990, compares such rates on responses towards impacts of tourism.

Table 3: Comparison of Percentage of Respondents in Open and Closed Questions

Impacts	Open Questions	Closed Questions
Increased traffic	17	63
Increased noise	9	37
Price inflation	3	28
Change in character of village	9	24
Congestion of services and stores	6	21
Congestion of beach facilities	2	4
Creation of jobs	39	83
Increased incomes	26	61
Increased opportunities for social encounters	11	26
Increased opportunities for cultural exchanges	2	9

Source: Keogh, 1990, cited in P.L. Pearce, G. Moscardo & G.F. Ross, *Tourism Community Relationships*, Elsevier Science Ltd., Oxford, 1996, p. 73

Keogh's study suggests what could be considered a reasonable (or 'interesting') response rate from unprompted open questions as being far fewer than for the closed questions. In addition, the open question provides opportunities for

unexpected responses, which is the essence of research. The study demonstrates that acceptable rates of response to open questions should be considered in terms of the type of question and response given, not merely frequency. This is important for the survey research discussed in this paper, much of which was approached using open questions.

Limitations

Participant-observation, a form of qualitative research, has been criticised as being biased through the influence of the researcher, both during the research and the interpretation of the results. Yin (1994) proposes the use of triangulation in such cases. This has been applied in this study through keeping detailed photographic records along with diaries of the personal observations and, where relevant, community, tourism and business leaders were approached formally and informally. Finally, the series of questionnaires and interviews conducted with residents and visitors provide further triangulation. Nevertheless, as with all research, the interpretation of the findings is based on my own expertise, background and knowledge.

Similarities between Barwon Heads and Pearl Bay

The physical changes to Barwon Heads are outlined and illustrated in the following pages after some consideration of the perceptions of the primary stakeholder groups of residents and regular visitors, regarding perceived any similarities between the fictional series and the actual town. In a survey undertaken in Easter 2001, residents and regular visitors were asked about the similarities between Barwon Heads and the fictional town of Pearl Bay. Their responses to the open question seem to revolve around what they considered to be the particular nature of a small coastal town, which was closely linked to the people and their personalities. This is shown in Table 4 below.

Table 4: Similarities between Barwon Heads and Pearl Bay (percentage)

Similarities	Residence	
	Local	Visitor
None	61	37
People, personalities	13	9
Small coastal town	40	13
Location, scenery	26	28
Atmosphere	17	14

What is most interesting here in the difference between visitors and local residents is where the latter displays a much higher denial rate about any similarities between the series and the town. This is not surprising as much of the participant-observation research showed that there was a general resistance towards being 'pigeon-holed' into a quaint, quirky caricature, especially when the media was striving to do exactly this. A report by ABC TV on a controversy surrounding the development of the restaurant at Diver Dan's home irritated the locals, many of whom felt they were inappropriately represented through inferred links with the characters in the series.

Nevertheless, of those who saw some similarities between the series and Barwon Heads, there was general consensus between the locals and visitors. The only notable discrepancy was the perception from the local residents that it was the small town size that was the most significant similarity between the series and the town.

While being the smallest reported similarity, the characters (people and personalities) portrayed in *Sea Change* have nevertheless remained a strong element of interest in the township. Considering that 61% of locals saw no similarities a third of those residents who acknowledge some similarity is a strong response. This raises the notion that it is the characters as well as the Australian scenery that holds the greatest key to film-induced tourism for this type of program. Such quirky series tend to be character-driven, with these results supporting that notion, compared with than the power of the Australian countryside as seen in movies such as *The Man from Snowy River*, *Crocodile Dundee* and various 'Ned Kelly' movies that tended to use the uniqueness of the bush as a character in its own right (Beeton, 2004). While visitors were still attracted to the site, it can be argued that they are motivated by the stories and characters rather than the scenery. This proposition is discussed further in Beeton

(forthcoming).

In any service industry, and even more so with tourism, the attitudes of the various parties are extremely important as they influence the nature of the exchange and relationship between them all. The perceptions of relevance of the fictional series to the actual town as outlined above is important as it may influence expectations and behaviour of tourists emulating the fictional film. However, it is also important also to determine the actual situation, which is now considered in terms of the physical changes that took place.

How *Sea Change* Changed Barwon Heads

After a state of decline, with many shops and services closing down, followed by a period of stagnation, the physical nature of the town itself experienced rapid change after the commencement of *Sea Change*, evidenced by an increased presence of visitor services such as cafes and restaurants as well as soaring housing prices (Beeton, 2001a). It is difficult to isolate *Sea Change* as the only cause for the most obvious changes, such as those to the main street shopping precinct; however the TV series has been acknowledged by the local community and tourism industry as a major contributor (Beeton, 2001b). There were certainly some physical changes that came about as a direct result of the series, particularly at the Barwon Heads Park camping ground where it was filmed.

Over the first twelve months since the commencement of airing *Sea Change* on television, the main street shopping strip experienced some dramatic changes. In 1998, shops were vacant and closing down, in particular basic residential services such as the green grocer, butcher and baker. While those actual shops did not re-open, as of January 2000 all shop-fronts were occupied. The main shopping precinct now boasted a predominance of tourist services as opposed to the general services that had been lost. In place of a defunct butcher's shop, closed Chinese restaurant and vacant new (and old) shops were now two new cafés, a bar and restaurant, a second-hand book shop, gift shop, Indonesian import shop, an additional fish and chip shop, a take-away chicken shop and a second surf shop. For general services such as banking, hardware supplies, groceries, meat and large

supermarket shopping residents and visitors to the area were required to travel to the neighbouring town of Ocean Grove, some five kilometres away. These changes to the main street of the town is illustrated in Figure 1.



Figure 1: Changes within 12 months of *Sea Change* (Nov 1998 to Sept 1999): 1. Closed butcher becomes a surf shop; 2. Closed Chinese restaurant becomes an up-market restaurant; 3. Empty new shops now fully occupied by a bookshop, gift shop and café

However, it is in the Barwon Heads Park and camping ground where some of the more obvious and, at times, problematic changes have occurred. This area is the site of the most recognisable aspects of *Sea Change*, namely the residences of the main romantic leads, now known as 'Laura's Beach House' and 'Diver Dan's Shed', as well as a further site of the home of second series lead, Max. From Barwon Heads Park, the images of fishing boats, the bridge over the Barwon River (which is central to the narrative) and the tidal views feature significantly in the series, and were more than merely a visual backdrop to much of the action. These aspects are also among the main attractions for campers and other recreational visitors to the Park (Beeton, 2001b).

The prominent signage at the entrance of the park is the first indication of change, and one of the most evident and lasting elements of the *Sea Change* legacy, along with directional signage from the main road. The Barwon Heads Park sign is in Figure 2.



Figure 2: Signage at the entrance to Barwon Heads Park (September 1999)

During an intense period of participant-observation research in Barwon Heads Park, while staying in the cottage used as Laura's residence in the series on a site visit, which is situated in the government-owned and operated camping ground (Barwon Heads Park) with a predominance of caravan and camping sites, so there is no fencing around the cottage. Tourists were continuously taking photos of the cottage, while others ran up onto the veranda to peer through the windows at all times of the day and night. This created a great deal of stress and insecurity, especially at night time, whereas in the past this had never been an issue when I had stayed there, even when being the only resident in the Park.

That this was not a one-off experience was confirmed by the Park Manager, who recounted stories of single women leaving the cottage early due to a strong sense of insecurity. It was at this time that Park Management erected notices that read, "Visitors are requested to respect the privacy of the beach house residents" as illustrated in Figure 3 below.



Figure 3: Placement of privacy notice on Laura's Cottage (September 1999)

Park Management emphasised their concern over these privacy invasions (which continued regardless of the signs), suggesting that the signs may not be sufficient, and they may need to eventually fence off the site. This would restrict public access to the foreshore walk which may contravene regulations surrounding the

management of camping grounds on public land. The increasing number of visitors wishing to view and photograph the cottage and its surrounds was also imposing on campers adjacent to the cottage. Figure 4 shows the context and siting of Laura's Cottage in the caravan park.



Figure 4: The position of Laura's Cottage in the Barwon Heads Park (September 1999)

By mid 2001, a second cottage had been built next to 'Laura's', with plans to build a third. While the threatened fencing had not happened, earthworks and vegetation plantings were added to discourage people from walking right up to the cottages in order to gain some privacy for guests, as shown in Figure 5. I was not able to test their efficacy personally as the cottages were booked out for over six months in advance.



Figure 5: Earthworks developed to keep walkers and sight-seers away from the cottages (September 2001)

A further group of 'Sea Change Cottages' in a different area of the park had also been constructed. They (or the site) had nothing directly to do with the series, yet management saw obvious marketing benefits in using the reference. In an in-depth interview, the manager also explained that the camping site at the end of the park next to the Bluff is now the most popular camping site, as the tea-tree was cleared to provide views of the mouth of the Barwon

River for the shooting of the third series where it was used by the romantic lead who replaced Diver Dan, Max, as his home. Unlike Laura's Cottage and Dan's Shed, which already existed, the actual building in the series was purely temporary (due to the sensitive environmental nature of the site), being constructed out of two shipping containers, which were easily dismantled.

The position of the *Sea Change* film sites is indicated on the map in Figure 6, demonstrating the dominant role that Barwon Heads Park played. The nature of the temporary building for Max's 'home' in the park is also illustrated.

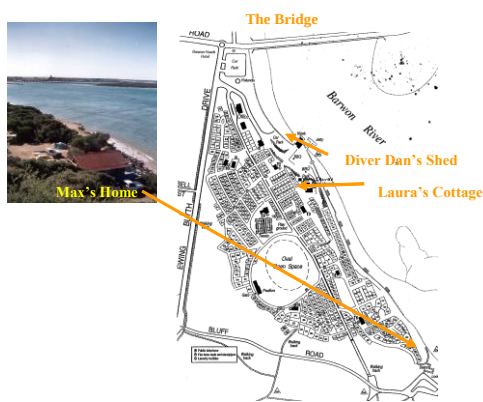


Figure 6: Location of main *Sea Change* sites at Barwon Heads Park

Perceptions of and Attitudes Towards Change

It is recognised that people's attitudes and perceptions can be behind many of the issues of conflict and power relations that arise in relation to community development and change (Hall, 2003). While we often consider attitudes towards the more social elements, the physical changes brought about through tourism in general, and film-induced tourism in particular, tend to be neglected in terms of residents and visitor attitudes. In the case of Barwon Heads, there is a group of regular visitors who have been holidaying in the area for generations. They have a strong sense of ownership and vested interest, however have little or no direct influence over the future of the town (Beeton, 2001b). This group is an important community stakeholder group, and such disenfranchisement and neglect can be disastrous in the long term. It was this group that formed the majority of responses to the interviews conducted in September 2001.

Table 5 outlines the interviewees' comments regarding the impact that they felt the series has had on the town. All but one respondent were aware of the series, so the comments are based on their own personal observations and are the result of open-ended, unprompted questioning. Regardless as to whether they felt that Barwon Heads was similar to Pearl Bay as depicted in the series (27 percent overall saw no similarities), all those interviewed (visitors and residents) believed that it had an effect on the town. This is important as it indicates the level and range of changes the perceived influence of film-induced tourism and the changes it can bring about. Comments were more favourable than negative, indicating that Barwon Heads was not suffering the negative effects seen at towns in the United Kingdom affected by film-induced tourism such as Goathland, the film-site for the UK TV series, *Heartbeat* (see Demetriadi, 1996; Mordue, 1999, 2001; Beeton, forthcoming).

Some of the typical comments from locals and visitors include "Put on to tourist maps – before may not have known where Barwon Heads is" (interview number 1); "It's good for the tourism industry and real estate" (interview number 2); "Always busy; more upmarket shops; helped real estate prices" (interview number 8); "It put it on the map, whereas Ocean Grove used to overpower it. No longer the 'small sister' – has come of age. Good for business" (interview number 78)

Table 5: Perceived Effects of *Sea Change* on Barwon Heads (percentage)

Effect of <i>Sea Change</i>	Residence		
	Local	Visitor	Overall
Positive			
Raised awareness	96	18	41
Real Estate increases - good	48	11	22
More people year round	74	20	35
Good for the economy	26	5	11
Good for tourism	22	7	11
Improved shops, cafes	30	18	22
Neutral			
No effect	9	2	4
Negative			
Loss of small town atmosphere	4	0	1
Price Increases	13	7	9
Real Estate increases - bad	9	4	5
Too much Sea Change signage & promotion	9	2	4
Crowds, lack of parking	9	2	4

With what may be considered as a small sample size of 23 local residents, such a proportion would not be considered significant under a parametric quantitative research paradigm. However, as noted in the section on the research approach, due to these comments being unprompted, they are significant. In addition, in qualitative methodology it is often the exception that is of interest (Jennings, 2001; Carson et al, 2001).

Local residents were particularly aware of the role that *Sea Change* played in raising the awareness of the town as well as the added benefit of spreading visitation throughout the year, away from the peak summer and school holiday times. Real estate price increases were seen more as a positive than negative aspect, even though a relatively small proportion (9 percent) of the residents commented that it was not good, especially for young people trying to purchase a home. Their comments include: "Increase in interest throughout the year – used to be dead in winter" (interview number 14); "Been great for Barwon Heads. All shops are open – weren't a few years ago" (interview number 35), "On our knees before they came... New lease of life – houses now selling for \$100,000 – couldn't

sell at all before then" (interview number 33). There were only a few negative comments from the locals interviewed, primarily along the lines of: "Real estate too high, so local young people can't afford to buy homes" (interview number 40).

Visitors also noted the increase in the number and 'quality' of shops and cafes as well as the increase in year-round visitation, possibly reflecting the time of year of this survey – while it was in a school holiday period, it is still traditionally a quiet time at Barwon Heads. Consequently, they would have been more aware of increased visitation at that time.

Changing Attitudes Towards Change

As noted previously, more important than actual changes are the attitudes towards that change. When visitor interviews were conducted at Easter 2000, a restaurant development that incorporated Diver Dan's Shed was under construction, prompting many negative comments regarding the changes to the site, which was particularly unattractive and fenced off at that stage, just under half wanted the place to be left alone. This was also an issue for locals, evidenced in the survey conducted in April 1999. Results from the September 2001 interviews indicate a more positive outlook to the development, from visitors as well as locals, even though some, especially residents, felt it was too expensive, commercial and tourist-focused, as illustrated by comments such as: "Doesn't entirely meet working class – more for tourists not locals" (interview number 14), "It's too expensive for locals and exclusive – not locally friendly" (interview number 26). This is quantified in Table 6.

Table 6: Attitudes towards the Restaurant at Diver Dan's Shed, 2001 (percentage)

Opinion	Residence		
	Local	Visitor	Overall
Positive			
Good	65	48	53
Originally against, but now support	4	19	8
Neutral			
Indifferent	4	11	9
Negative			
Bad	9	11	10
Commercialised, expensive, for tourists only	26	5	11
Too much change, not like Sea Change	4	2	3

There was also some actual turn-around in opinions, with a small number of locals and a fifth of visitors admitting that they were originally against it, but now support the development. “Originally thought it would never be good, but now think it looks great” (interview number 34); “I was originally against the building – but now don’t mind it. I sit down there a bit” (interview number 2). While small, the direction of the change is worth noting as these were once again unprompted responses and can represent an even greater shift. This shift in attitude of regular visitors is also interesting in that this group, along with newer residents, had been most resistant to change (Beeton, 2000).

The photos of the site in Figure 7 demonstrate the extent of the development and the retention of the shed’s façade which was a region of concern of many protests. The front part of Dan’s shed has been retained and incorporated into the restaurant – it has not been re-painted, rather left with the ‘distressed’ façade that is now so familiar to millions of Australians. These photos show the ‘before and after’ versions of the site development. (The different angle of the shot has excluded the bushes that were in the first one – they are still there!)



Figure 7: Diver Dan’s shed as used in the first series of *Sea Change*, originally Fisherman’s Cooperative (April 1999) and the new, initially controversial, restaurant development (July 2001)

If we take these attitudes and correlate them with Jafari’s (1989) aforementioned platforms, the overall position of the community (residents and visitors) at Barwon Heads is in the second ‘cautionary’ platform. Some ‘adaptancy’ is evident, however the move into a knowledge-base in terms of film-induced tourism and community development is non-existent. For

Barwon Heads to truly embrace and develop in this field, the knowledge of individual groups and stakeholders must be expanded.

When Fiction and Reality Collide: Implications for Community Planners

The elements of the Barwon Heads study outlined in this paper demonstrate the complex nature of film-induced tourism in small communities. Film-induced tourism has significant effects, but they are not easy to isolate due to its integrative nature. Many of the changes seen in Barwon Heads may have occurred without *Sea Change* – the region was experiencing economic recovery after a severe downturn, and buyers who could no longer afford other seaside areas were also moving in. However, *Sea Change* certainly accelerated the pace of change; a point agreed to by tourism and community leaders.

In addition, the perceptions of stakeholders such as residents and regular visitors can change at an uneven rate, making them difficult to predict. Yet, perceptions are important, as they influence the nature of social interactions between and among residents, regular visitors and tourists. Resentment towards visitors and between community members can create an environment that is poor in terms of social capital. This will most likely ultimately translate into economic paucity as the region becomes less and less attractive to visit and live in. However, as demonstrated with the restaurant development, opinions regarding change can alter over time, so careful thought must be applied in these circumstances, particularly when one group may be applying undue influence. Simply bowing to the most prominent opinion may not be appropriate. As noted by Hall (2003), understanding the power relations in a community is crucial to its development.

While not highly evident in this study to date, film-induced tourism that is character-driven has the potential to ‘encourage’ a place and its people to emulate those characters, which may result in an alteration of the nature of that community. There was some indication of a few of the Barwon Heads shopkeepers consciously taking on elements of the characters, however this was quite limited. Ultimately, any change to the community will most likely depend on how long the influence of the series persists, and

in the case outlined in this paper, whether it has encouraged people to make their own 'sea change' to Barwon Heads. Nevertheless, regardless as to whether this does remain in the public consciousness, the impression created by such a popular series will last in some form or other for many years. The *Sea Change* cottages, caravan park signage and restaurant at Diver Dan's remain concrete reminders for visitors and residents.

So, what does all this mean in terms of community planning and development? As it is usually not the primary reason for filming a TV series or movie, film-induced tourism is an incidental/accidental outcome, which is different to most more conscious forms of tourism development. Film directors and producers are primarily concerned with getting their movie or series filmed, not how this will translate into tourism in the future. This, however can change when they are involved in a long-running TV series that will require some goodwill from residents and other stakeholders. In the case of *Sea Change*, the on-site filming of the series was over approximately four blocks of time with extended breaks in between, not a long-term ongoing process as for series such as the UK produced *Heartbeat* that has been regularly filmed at Goathland since 1991 (Beeton, forthcoming). Regardless, the limited understanding by local councils, community developers and destination marketers of some of the intricacies of the legacies of such 'unplanned' tourism can result in under-realised benefits, or at the worst unplanned social and environmental degradation.

Once again, the call goes out for pro-active community planning, not simply reactive responses. Local government in particular must become more aware of not only the potential of tourism, but also the impacts it may have and issues that may arise – attracting visitors is only the start. By the time these issues become apparent, it is often too late to correct them.

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Who Educates the Public About Conservation Issues? Examining the Role of Zoos and the Media

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Abstract

This paper attempts to answer two questions: what are the public education roles of zoos, and have other media sources of information made zoos educationally redundant? The approach taken is to evaluate visitor learning in an Australian zoo and determine if, as a result of a bus tour of the zoo, visitors had learned and were able to recall any information on one topic; threats to animals and/or their habitats. Visitors who could recall such information were also asked if they had previously known the information and if so, where they had seen or heard it before. Results reveal that the commentary on the bus tour is performing an educational or information enhancing role for 40% of visitors, and while the remaining 60% of visitors did not learn any new information, we argue that the zoo may still play an educational role through reinforcement or induced learning. The findings of this study support the literature, which suggests that media and in particular, television and documentaries are an important source of information on threats to animals and / or their habitats. However, we suggest that media and zoos as sources of information should be considered as complementary, rather than one making the other redundant.

Keywords: zoo, public education, learning, media, conservation, environmentally responsible behaviour

Introduction

The increased prevalence of educational material in the media means that the role of zoos in providing education is being called into question. Indeed, there are claims that zoos have become “educationally redundant” (Margodt, 2000:106), given the role of other public communication avenues such as television, newspapers and radio. In particular, several authors claim that wildlife documentaries now play an increasing role in achieving public education of wildlife related issues (Sommer, 1972; Jamieson, 1985; Beckmann, 1991; World Society for the Protection of Animals (WSPA) and The Born Free Foundation, 1994; Markwell, 1998; Margodt, 2000). Therefore the aim of this paper is to examine the role that zoos play in public education. The approach taken is to examine learning that occurs at an Australian zoo, and to determine the role that the zoo plays in providing information, as compared to that learnt from other sources such as documentaries. A case study approach is taken, utilising Werribee Open Range Zoo (WORZ), near Melbourne.

The history and role of zoos

The history of keeping and displaying animals for recreational purposes has received extensive coverage in the literature for many years (e.g. see Conway, 1969; Sommer, 1972; Jamieson, 1985, 1995; Chiszar, Murphy and Iliff, 1990; Preece, 1993; de Courcy, 1995; Hancocks, 1995a, 2001; Mazur, 2001). An examination of this literature reveals that while animals have been kept in captivity for thousands of years, the role of these collections has transformed over time. As Markwell (1998) argues, institutions such as zoos ‘serve to construct and present nature in particular ways according to particular historical and cultural contexts’ (p. 35).

Originally, private animal collections were symbols of the affluence, power and prestige of their owners (Jamieson, 1985; de Courcy, 1995; Hancocks, 2001). While the first modern zoos, which presented animals for public viewing in a park-like setting, were founded in Europe in the 1700’s, it was not until the 1800’s that the appeal of zoos became more widespread, following the opening of the London zoo in 1828

(DeCourcy, 1995; Hancocks, 1995a, 2001). Originally London Zoo was based on a philosophy of scientific interest, whilst also offering recreational experiences. For the Victorian zoogoer, they 'wanted only to satisfy their curiosity and merely look at specimens of exotic wild animals', (Hancocks, 1995a:31) while to the zoologists, these visitors 'were merely the source of the means by which they could pursue their scientific interests' (de Courcy, 1995:11).

Since the 1800's zoological societies such as the Zoological Society of London and the New York Zoological Society have been citing public education, scientific research and species preservation as benefits of having zoos (Jamieson, 1985). However, it was not until the 1950s and 60s, that a reduction in national rivalry and an increase in international cooperation resulted in the formation of the World Zoo Organisation, and a formalised commitment to the objectives of conservation, education, research and recreation (de Courcy, 1995). However, the rise of the animal rights movement in the 1970's meant that the ethics of keeping animals in captivity were given more consideration (Broad & Weiler, 1998), and the debate over the justification for zoos has now been raging for several decades.

The debate over the role of zoos in public education

Sommer (1972) may have been one of the first to question the educational objectives of zoos. However, the foundation of this debate is arguably the publication of Dale Jamieson's (1985) chapter "Against Zoos" in Peter Singer's (1985) book on animal rights, in which Jamieson assesses the achievements of zoos in the same four domains – education, conservation, recreation (which he termed amusement) and research. As the title suggests, Jamieson is particularly critical of zoo practice and sceptical of their achievements and argues that there is no moral justification for the existence of zoos. In response to Jamieson's article, Chiszar et al. (1990) published "For Zoos" which contains a rebuttal of many of Jamieson's arguments and several assertions about the achievements of zoos. Needless to say, Jamieson responded in 1995 and the debate continues until this day but has expanded to include many other commentators.

A result of the academic debate is that zoos have begun to introspectively evaluate their role in society and the service they provide. This internal evaluation has led zoos to reposition themselves to increase and promote their involvement in public education and in-situ conservation (Conway, 2003), because under scrutiny, justifications such as recreation, and ex-situ conservation and related research appear to lack substance (Jamieson, 1985, 1995; Beck, 1995; Hancocks, 1995a, 1995b, 2001; Margodt, 2000; Conway, 2003).

As outlined above, it is generally accepted that education is one of the key roles of the modern zoo. Broad and Weiler's (1998) review of literature concerning the history of zoo education identifies four key objectives or outcomes:

1. an educational experience that is recreational, enjoyable and satisfying;
2. the cognitive learning of facts regarding animals, and about the function and management of the zoo or exhibit;
3. the development of positive attitudes including a concern for and commitment to wildlife conservation; and
4. behavioural outcomes, including appropriate on-site behaviour and long-term environmentally responsible behaviour.

These objectives or outcomes are not necessarily unrelated, as enjoyable learning experiences (objectives 1 and 2) can in fact be designed and delivered in ways that influence attitudes and behaviour (objectives 3 and 4). It is also likely that there is some degree of linearity to these objectives. Indeed, Hungerford and Volk (1990) identify awareness and knowledge of issues as a precursor to environmentally responsible behaviour. This framework has been operationalised by zoos, for instance, by Melbourne Zoo in their design of Trail of the Elephants exhibit (Embury and Hoysted, 2003).

The importance of general zoo education and the more specific educational objective of fostering environmentally responsible behaviour is evidenced by the extent to which the zoo community has embraced this objective at an international, national, and organisational level. Internationally, The World Zoo Conservation Strategy (IDUZG/CBSG [IUCN/SSC], 1993:21) states that conservation education is 'a

specially important element of zoo education'. In Australia, the theme of the 2003 ARAZPA² Conference - 'Education - The Key to Conservation' demonstrates how important this role is to the local zoo community.

However, despite some authors arguing that zoos have, or have the potential to play, a significant role in relation to public education (Kellert, 1987; Maple, 1995; Hancocks, 1995a) and zoos stating that they have a strong focus on education, some people believe zoos have not demonstrated their success in achieving their aims (Sommer, 1972; Jamieson, 1995; Ollason, 1993; Mazur, 2001; Balmford, Leader-Williams, Mace, Manica, Walter, West, Zimmerman, 2004). Consequently, there have been many calls for further research examining the education achievements of zoos (Broad and Weiler, 1998; Woods, 1998; Margodt, 2000; Tribe, 2001).

Furthermore, despite the actual or potential educational benefit that zoos may have, an additional issue is whether zoos' role in public education is necessary given the alternative educational sources that are available through other media. As Hancocks (2001) asserts, the media have been informing the public on threats to wildlife for well over two decades. Likewise, Beckmann (1991) argues that 'interest in wildlife has been fostered by the mass media, particularly television' (p. 11).

Margodt (2000) claims that it is 'often argued that zoos have become educationally redundant because of the many nature programmes on television' (p. 106), whilst other commentators refer to the media more broadly as performing a public education role. For instance, Sommer (1972) contends that before technological media advances, the role that zoos played in providing a visual encounter of, and learning opportunities about animals had merit. However, he goes on to argue that this role has been made redundant by the availability of animal imagery in wildlife documentaries, books and magazines. Similarly, animal welfare organisations WSPA & The Born Free Foundation (1994) examined zoos'

claims to be 'conservation centres' aimed at saving endangered species. Their report concludes that 'most zoos do little to educate people about how the public can help to conserve wild species and that many zoos cause considerable physical and psychological animal suffering' (p. 3). Furthermore, it is argued that zoos have been undermined as a 'source of education and inspiration', because 'high quality information about wild animals and the issues affecting them is widely available from television, video, books and radio (p. 43.)'. In addition, Jamieson (1985) questions whether confining animals is necessary to educate people and wonders whether the same educational outcomes could be achieved through other avenues such as 'films, slides, lectures and so forth' (p. 112). Even some zoo visitors have shown support for claims that zoos may be redundant, as Shackley (1996) found in an empirical study, that 21% of zoo visitors felt that television and radio wildlife programmes do make visits to the zoo redundant.

In contrast to claims that zoos are educationally redundant, Andersen (2003) argues that zoos do provide an important educational role and that documentaries can be misleading. He suggests that with developments in enrichment and exhibit design, the behaviour of animals in zoos has become more natural than that of 10-15 years ago, and concludes that 'the value of zoos as a place to learn has increased enormously' (p. 77). He contends that viewing animals in a zoo context is much more representative than images viewed in documentaries and other media. To demonstrate his point Andersen argues that lions in a zoo rest and sleep for most of the day, as they would in the wild, and therefore visitors observing lions in a zoo see a more realistic representation of lions, than those watching a TV documentary, where lions are shown being active for the majority of the time. Several other distortions in documentaries, such as speed, light, size, and distribution have also been identified by the popular documentary presenter David Attenborough, who acknowledges that 'there is precious little that is natural, in that sense, in any film' (Burgess & Unwin, 1984: 103).

Despite strong arguments both supporting and criticising the educational value of zoos, there is a dearth of empirical research supporting either side. There is also a lack of

² ARAZPA stands for Australasian Regional Association of Zoological Parks and Aquaria. It is a non-profit, conservation organisation committed to helping conserve the world's threatened species and is the peak zoo and aquarium organisation in the Australasian region.

research into the comparative roles of zoos and the media in providing public education. The research reported in this paper forms part of a larger project critically examining the role of zoo education in fostering environmentally responsible behaviour, in the context of captive wildlife attractions, and with particular reference to Zoos Victoria. While the focus of this project is the achievement of both short and long-term environmentally responsible behaviour (the fourth educational objective as outlined above), visitor awareness or knowledge of threats to wildlife and / or their habitats (henceforth called threats) have been identified as an important precursor to visitors undertaking environmentally responsible behaviour (Hungerford and Volk, 1990). Therefore, initial data collection focused on identifying the extent to which visitors to Werribee Open Range Zoo (WORZ) were able to recall hearing information about threats during their zoo visit. Furthermore, due to the debate regarding the educational redundancy of zoos, this study also addressed the abovementioned research gap by examining whether visitors were exposed to new information regarding threats, or information they have already been exposed to from different sources, such as the media.

The Case Study

Three properties are managed by Zoos Victoria; Melbourne Zoo, WORZ and Healesville Sanctuary. WORZ is located approximately 35 kilometres south-west of Melbourne and has an annual visitation of approximately 200,000 people. It first opened to the public in 1983, having originally been established as an agistment property for the Melbourne Zoo. The entry fee to WORZ includes a 50 minute bus tour with personal commentary. The bus tour is the only means of accessing a large proportion of the zoo.

Methodology

Face-to-face structured interviews were administered at the WORZ exit, during a six week period in June and July, 2004. A total of 144 visitor interviews were completed, at a response rate of 85%. A further three visitors were not eligible to undertake an interview as they had not been on a bus tour and the focus of the interview was on information communicated to visitors during the bus tour. A systematic, stratified sample

was used in selecting visitors for interview. Systematic sampling reduced any bias from the researcher in the selection of individuals, by using a next person basis to approach visitors as they neared a predetermined point by the exit to the zoo. Stratified sampling ensured interview times were drawn from a range of strata, with data collected at different times of the day, on weekdays and weekends, and during school holiday and non-holiday weeks. Interviews were undertaken with visitors aged 18 years and older. Interviews were used to collect data relating to visitor demographics and recall.

Visitors were initially asked if they could recall hearing any information on threats as part of their tour, and those that could were subsequently asked what the information was and whether they had already known this information. If they had heard the information before, they were asked about the source of their knowledge, and were encouraged to list as many sources of information as they thought appropriate.

Results

The survey group consisted of 144 respondents (59 males and 89 females). Sixty two respondents (43%) were repeat visitors and 82 (57%) were first time visitors. Of the repeat visitors, the average time since their last visit was 3.8 years however this varied considerably between respondents (S.D. = 3.6). The vast majority of respondents were from Australia (94%) with only eight respondents indicating that they lived overseas (6%). Of the Australian residents, 87% were from the local state of Victoria, with the remainder living in other states, notably Queensland (7%) and New South Wales / Australian Capital Territory (3%).

Respondents were asked if they could recall hearing any information on threats as part of their tour. Of the 144 respondents, 113 (78%) could recall and 31 (22%) couldn't recall hearing such information. There were no differences in ability to recall hearing threats between males and females ($\chi^2(1, N=144) = 0.90, p>0.05$), school holiday and non school holiday visitors ($\chi^2(1, N=144) = 1.77, p>0.05$) and repeat and first time visitors ($\chi^2(1, N=144) = 0.30, p>0.05$).

Those 113 visitors that could recall hearing threats were then asked whether they had known about the threats prior to hearing them on the bus tour. Five different

responses were given, as can be seen in

Figure 1 (A-E).

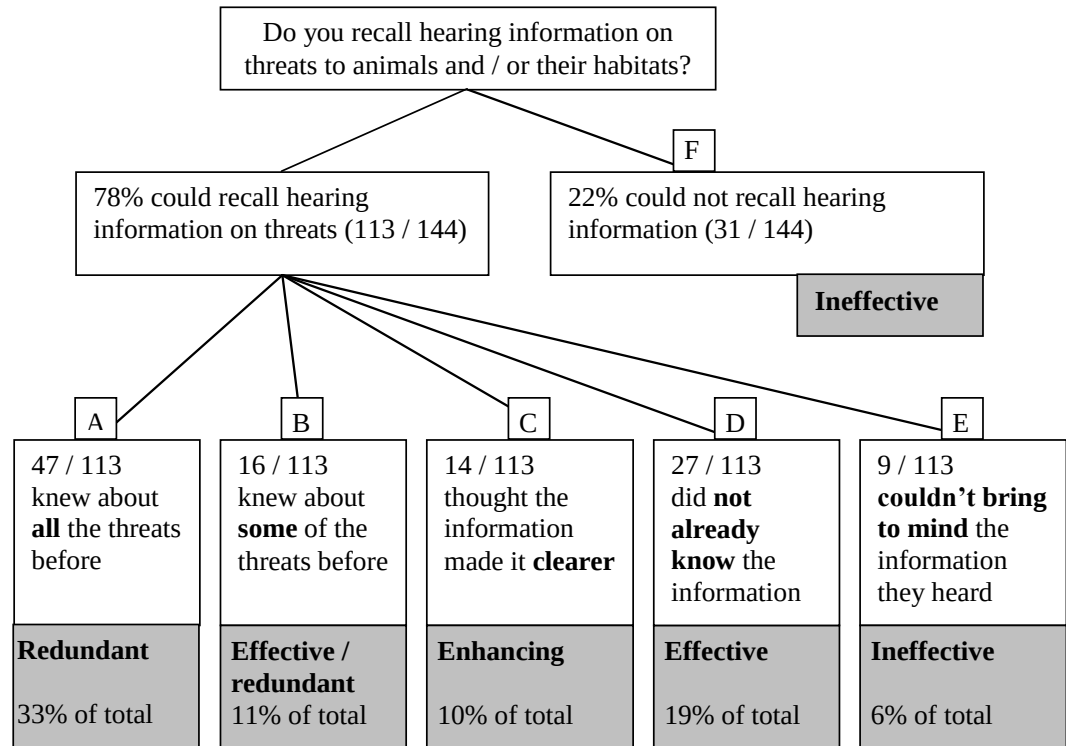


Figure 1. Representation of responses about WORZ role in providing information on threats (N=144)

In each of the five possibilities, the educational role of the zoo is labelled. Four different labels are used:

1. Redundant – where the role of zoos is educationally superfluous because other sources have already fulfilled this role
2. Effective – where the zoo has provided the respondent with new information on threats to animals and / or their habitats that can be recalled
3. Enhancing – where the zoo has clarified or provided more specific details regarding pre-existing information known from other sources
4. Ineffective – where information on threats was not given, was not heard or if it was heard, could not be recalled.

As can be seen in Figure 1, 47 respondents (A) felt that while they had heard information about threats on the bus tour, they had previously known this information,

and so had learned nothing new. Despite stating that they could recall hearing information on threats, a further nine respondents (E) were unable to recall what the information was. Forty three respondents (B and D) felt that they had learned at least some, if not all new information regarding threats on the bus tour. A further 14 respondents (C) indicated that the information provided on the bus tour enhanced their previous understanding rather than providing them with new information.

As can also be seen in Figure 1, a total of 77 respondents (A,B and C) indicated that they had previous knowledge of some or all of the threats they recalled from the bus tour. These 77 were asked to identify the source of their knowledge, and their responses were collated and placed into nine categories that emerged from the data. Table 1 presents a summary of responses.

Table 1: List of sources of previous knowledge on threats to animals and / or their habitats (n=77).

Source	Count	% of respondents
Television (non specific)	32	42
Documentaries, Animal Planet, Discovery Channel*	22	29
Books, newspapers and magazines	16	21
Media (non specific)	13	17
Everywhere, general knowledge, just know	11	14
Previous zoo visits (any zoo)	11	14
School / education	11	14
Radio	1	1
Other non media sources	8	10
TOTAL	125	

Note: The open ended nature of the question allowed for multiple responses.

*Television and documentaries have been kept as separate categories as documentaries may appear in media other than television (such as the cinema / imax). Furthermore, television and documentaries are discussed separately below, as they have been in previous literature.

As can be seen from Table 1, television was mentioned as a source of information on threats by 42% of respondents who indicated that they had previous knowledge of some or all of the threats they recalled from the bus tour. Documentaries, and television channels that almost exclusively run documentaries, accounted for the next highest proportion of respondents with 29%.

In total, general media or specifically identified media sources accounted for 67% of responses. A large proportion of these media sources (65%) were television and wildlife documentaries. Non media sources of information totalled 24% of responses. The remaining 9% of responses were listed in the "Everywhere, general knowledge, just know" category and it is not known how respondents became aware of the information. It is possible that the information could have been derived from media or non media sources or both.

It is also evident that there is some overlap between the nine categories. For instance, it is likely that most documentaries are viewed on television. Similarly, television, radio and published material (such as newspapers and magazines) could be subsets of media.

Discussion

The above results revealed that the educational role of the zoo can be considered redundant for 33% of respondents, effective for 30%, enhancing for 10% and ineffective for 28% in regard to teaching the public about threats. The study also examined the learning sources of those respondents who indicated that they had previous knowledge of some or all of the threats they recalled from the bus tour. Media communication avenues, particularly television and wildlife documentaries were

the main sources of that knowledge. These findings support claims in the literature that wildlife documentaries play a role in achieving public education of wildlife related issues (e.g. Sommer, 1972; Jamieson, 1985; Beckmann, 1991; Markwell, 1998; World Society for the Protection of Animals (WSPA) and The Born Free Foundation, 1994; Margodt, 2000).

The combination of 1) visitors for whom the zoo was educationally redundant with 2) the prevalence of responses indicating that television and wildlife documentaries were sources of previous knowledge, provides some support for the assertions made by Sommer (1972), WSPA and the Born Free Foundation (1994) and Margodt (2000), that television and documentaries are one of the primary sources that negate the educational role of zoos. However, whether the educational role of zoos is in fact redundant for visitors who had previous knowledge of all of the threats they recalled from the bus tour is an issue that can be debated. Although we have labelled the zoo's educational role as being redundant for some visitors, it could be argued that by hearing information again, their existing knowledge was reinforced.

To directly refute the contentions of redundancy, this study has shown that the zoo's educational role was effective or enhancing for 39.6% of respondents. The question might be asked: for zoos to justify their existence on educational grounds, what percentage of visitors must learn new information during their visit, and must learning occur about every issue communicated? Due to the exploratory nature of this study and that only one particular category of information was

examined, it is impossible to state whether this level of effectiveness is adequate. A further question arises as to whether any level of educational benefit is an adequate justification for the existence of zoos. This at least in part a moral evaluation, requiring the benefits of keeping animals in captivity to be compared to any negative impacts on the animals. For Jamieson (1985, 1995), who has a 'moral presumption against keeping wild animals in captivity' (p. 109), it may well be that the perceived benefits, educational or otherwise, will never outweigh the perceived negative impacts. In comparison, for Chiszar et al. (1990) who believes that 'professionally managed zoos and aquariums do not inflict harm upon animals' (p. 7), the issue is that zoos be well managed to ensure there are benefits and no negatives. A third position is that individual animals in zoos can be considered as ambassadors for their species and that any negative impact on the individual animals within zoos is outweighed by the benefits realised by their wild counterparts through conservation and education (Maple, 1995).

Following on from this, the classification of zoo's educational role as ineffective is also debateable. While a visitor may not learn about threats during their zoo visit, it is suggested by Kerr (2004) that a zoo visit may stimulate an interest in wildlife, which leads visitors to watch documentaries or to read articles about wildlife, which they may not have done otherwise. Hence zoo visits may induce learning at a later stage rather than during the zoo visit.

Instead of zoos being considered educationally redundant or ineffective, an alternative view is that their may be a symbiotic relationship between wildlife documentaries and zoos. For example, while not specifically referring to learning, in an empirical study of zoo visitors, Shackley (1996) found that 65% felt that wildlife programmes enhance enjoyment of a zoo visit, and she goes on to suggest that zoo visitors 'want to see animals which have recently featured in television wildlife documentaries' (p. 105). In addition, as was noted above, visitors may be inspired to seek out further information as a result of the zoo visit (Kerr, 2004) or they may have previous knowledge enhanced, as our results have demonstrated.

The role of zoos as reinforcement, enhancement or inducement agents does not

appear to have gained attention in the literature. It may be beneficial for zoos to position themselves as performing these roles. Given the rise of media communication avenues to this point, it seems unlikely that the educational overlap with zoos will decrease and so reinforcement may well be a role that zoos are in a position to undertake. To do this, it may be beneficial to link public education messages to those being conveyed in the media, particularly those found in documentaries and on other television shows.

In addition to the impact that wildlife documentaries may or may not have on the public education role of zoos, several authors claim wildlife documentaries also influence wildlife tourism and ecotourism more broadly (Markwell, 1998; Swarbrooke, 1999; Broad, 2001). Therefore, wildlife documentaries have induced participation in other leisure / tourism pursuits that provide opportunity for learning. For instance, Swarbrooke (1999) claims that the growth in ecotourism is at least partly due to television programmes about wildlife and specific habitats. This raises a final philosophical point: if zoos are considered educationally redundant because of the prevalence of other sources of educational information, then does it follow that other cultural institutions (e.g. botanical gardens and museums) and leisure pursuits (such as wildlife tourism) are also educationally redundant?

Conclusion

This study has largely corroborated assertions that wildlife documentaries and television are providing similar information as zoos. However, assertions made about zoos being educationally redundant due to the media appear to lack substance. Various media / zoo relationships have been posited for the most part arguing that the sources of information should be considered as complimentary. In a world where there is ever increasing pressure on wildlife and their habitats, providing and reinforcing information pertaining to threats could be considered vital to their survival. If providing this information through multiple avenues can reach a wider audience, then all mechanisms should be considered valid. However, to be most educationally beneficial, it would be ideal for zoos and the media to join forces and cooperate in this campaign.

Future research

There appears to be logic in the assertion that in order for people to undertake a sustainable behaviour, they must first be aware of a problem. Therefore the provision of information on threats could be construed as a first step toward visitors taking actions to help reduce threats. In the future, this project aims to explore the link between knowledge of threats and environmentally responsible behaviour.

There also are opportunities for further research examining the role of zoos in public education by using other types of information, such as facts about animals and environmentally responsible actions. Also, in testing for educational redundancy it could be beneficial to conduct research that incorporates respondents from the wider community. In this way, those people who choose not to visit zoos (possibly because they believe zoos are educationally redundant) could be considered. Finally there is now the opportunity for zoos to use these findings as a benchmark. More specifically, WORZ can use these benchmarks to evaluate the impact of training and educational program modifications on their educational outcomes.

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Teaching Tourism, Image and Media Relationships

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Abstract

Image and the media are crucially important aspects of destination management, though aspects that are often underplayed in tourism management education. This paper presents considerations and reflections on the development and implementation of a unit expounding the relationships between tourism, image and the media. The conceptual foundation of the unit was derived from the literature to encompass destination image, image formation, decision-making, the media and media tourism. Pertinent management aspects identified were image management, media management, promoting place with media, and media tourism management. This unit had a functional focus, though was also inclusive of critical facets. Overall, there was a positive reflection on the content, and focus of the unit. The unit had positive educational and practical outcomes and this was supported by positive feedback from students. The relationship between tourism, image and the media needs to be explicitly included in tourism management curriculum, and this paper provides an indication of conceptual foundation, content, structure and assessment to do so.

Introduction

Tourism is an industry very much dependent on discretionary decisions. The trade offs potential tourists are considering can be as diverse as deciding between different destinations, to buying a new television or even house, going to a musical at the local theatre, to saving for retirement. In this environment it is image and perceptions that determine what the choice will be made between, and more importantly what the choice will be. Increasingly noted is the role of the media in providing this image (Stabler, 1985; Butler, 1987; Gunn, 1988; Coates, 1991; Fakeye & Crompton, 1991; Gartner, 1993; Wilson, 1996; Baloglu & McCleary, 1999; Jenkins, 1999; Nielsen, 2001a). This is obviously a very important aspect of tourism, conceptually, and for destination and business management. This paper presents considerations and reflections on the development and implementation of a unit expounding the relationships between tourism, image and the media.

In the presentation of this the conceptual foundation for the relationships will be briefly introduced, followed by the pertinent aspects of the relationships between tourism, image and the media. The structure of the unit will be presented, including assessment outlines, objectives and outcomes. Then a discussion of reflections on the tourism, image and media unit and future undertakings will be presented. Finally considerations, implications and conclusions will be provided.

Conceptual Foundation

The relationship between tourism and image has received a lot of coverage in the tourism literature (Echtner & Ritchie 1991, 1993; Jenkins, 1999; Gallarza, Saura & Garc a, 2002; Pike, 2002). The extensive relationship between image and tourism has been presented in the literature for its role in:

- Creating expectations (Britton, 1979; Pearce, 1982; MacKay & Fesenmaier, 1997; Coshall, 2000);
- Marketing strategy and market segmentation (Crompton, 1979; Calantone, di Benedetto, Hakam & Bojanic, 1989; Urbain, 1989; Reilly, 1990; Chen & Hsu, 2000; Mackay & Fesenmaier, 2000; Sirgy & Chenting, 2000; Baloglu & Mangaloglu, 2001; Smith & MacKay, 2001; Day, Skidmore & Koller, 2002);
- Destination selection (Embacher & Buttle, 1989; Teleisman-Kosuta, 1989; Chon, 1991; Hu & Ritchie, 1993; Walmsley & Jenkins, 1993; Alhemoud & Armstrong, 1996; Walmsley & Young, 1998; Baloglu & McCleary, 1999; Tapachai & Waryszak, 2000; Lawson & Thyne, 2001; Rittichainuwat, Qu & Brown, 2001; Sirakaya, Sonmez & Choi, 2001; Laws, Scott & Parfitt, 2002);
- As a form of consumption (Markwick, 2001);
- Construction and reinforcing images of people and place (Andsager & Drzewiecka, 2002; Ateljevic & Doorne, 2002);

- Effects on prospective markets (LaPage & Cormier, 1977; Echtner & Ritchie, 1993; MacKay & Fesenmaier, 2000), and
- Satisfaction (Joppe, Martin & Waalen, 2001)

Conceptually the investigation of these roles provides great insights into the field of tourism. Additionally there are enormous practical implications of these roles of image. This perspective is very much functional, though it is acknowledged and appreciated that the power of image presentation and interpretation creates or reinforces gazes, and in this there is a critical cultural interpretation and definition of what image is, means and does (Urry, 1990; Andsager & Drzewiecka 2002; Ateljevic & Doorne 2002). To briefly expand and clarify, a functional perspective focuses on the function of image, and especially the importance in marketing and destination selection. This perspective also focuses on the formation of image from the individual's perspective. This initially started in the role for planning and marketing though, as a greater understanding of the significance of destination image has occurred, there has been an orientation towards processes of image formation and building an understanding of the specific parts of image that influence decision-making. It must be noted that the critical cultural perspective related to representation and the cultural, political or social context within which they take place was also included within the unit (Andsager & Drzewiecka, 2002).

Additionally, the literature is identifying the source of image as coming increasingly from the media and particularly the mass media (Stabler, 1985; Butler, 1987; Gunn, 1988; Coates, 1991; Fakeye & Crompton, 1991; Gartner, 1993; Wilson, 1996; Baloglu & McCleary, 1999; Jenkins, 1999; Nielsen, 2001a). Thus, it was concluded that image is a very important conceptual and managerial area of tourism, though this is increasingly being provided and determined by the media. Additionally it was noted that in image formation that the organic and autonomous agents (from a public source) were perceived as the most credible (Gartner, 1993). Nonetheless, there had instead been a predominate focus on real (experiential) agents of destinations, and reference to induced agents within the literature.

Due to the importance image and of the organic agent it was proposed that this was a crucial area, over and above that of tourism or destination marketing (focused on the images that could be controlled by destination managers), for tourism managers to appreciate and understand. This was especially the case as pertinent to the destination manager was the management of destination image. This had been noted as the increased competition not only for maintaining vibrant cities, but also to attract tourists in an increasingly competitive tourism environment (Ind, 1992; Gregory with Wiechmann, 1993; Hall and Hamon, 1996; Goss, 1997; Marconi, 1997; Howard, 1998). For destination managers an inclusive destination management strategy needs to be developed and implemented. Part of this strategy is the management of image. Also important in this process is the potential tourists' source of image, and the decreasing influence destinations have over these images. Overall, the breadth of importance of destination image in tourism is immense, though it has been identified that image's role in the decision making process was most important for destination managers.

In developing the unit there were a number of underpinnings in the relationship between image and the media as derived from the above brief review. This needed to be contextualised within the much broader tourism conceptual foundation. Based on this foundation the pertinent conceptual aspects were identified as destination image, image formation, decision-making, the media and media tourism. Pertinent management aspects identified were image management, media management, promoting place with media, and media tourism management.

Unit Structure

The unit was designed and delivered at Waiariki Institute of Technology, Rotorua, New Zealand. It was designed as an elective third year unit within the Tourism Management degree. Within this programme, all students had completed at least three tourism units, and thus had an introductory understanding to the study of tourism. At Waiariki semesters are 15 weeks. Considering the points above, and the need for the inclusion of pertinent aspects, the following learning objectives were identified:

- On completion of this module the student will be able to:
1. Identify and discuss the relationship between tourism and image
 2. Identify and discuss the formation of destination image
 3. Discuss the role of the media in tourism
 4. Discuss the role of fictional media in tourism
 5. Analyse films' role in tourism

From this the following unit structure was developed (Table 1).

Table 1: Tourism, Image and the Media Unit Structure

	Lecture	Tutorial
1	Course Introduction	<i>A Passage to India</i>
2	Destination Image	Structuring Destination Image: The Image of India
3	The Importance of Destination Image	<i>The Beach</i>
4	Destination Image Formation	Analysing Image Formation: The Image of Thailand
5	Image Management	<i>The Vertical Ray of the Sun</i>
6	The Media	Strategies to Manage Image: The Image of Vietnam
7	Tourism and the Media	Media Strategies for Tourism: The Image of New Zealand
8	Film Tourism	<i>The Lord of the Rings: The Fellowship of the Ring</i>
9	Television Tourism	Managing the Social Impacts of Television Tourism: Australia
10	Literary Tourism	Managing Image of Literary Places: The Image of the Canada
11	Fieldtrip – Hobbiton, Matamata	
12	Promoting Place With Film	<i>The Piano</i>
13	Managing for the Impacts of Film	Developing Attractions: New Zealand
14	Future of Tourism in Film	<i>Total Recall</i>
15	Review	<i>The Fifth Element</i>

The following will briefly outline the main learning achievements of each lecture time. The specific content, learning objectives and tutorial exercises of each class are included in Appendix A. In the first lecture Morgan and Pritchard (1998) was the primary reading and was used to establish the role of image in culture. Within this context, and the foundation of students' previous tourism knowledge, connections were established

between the three explicit elements of tourism, image and the media. The main connection of concern identified was between the tourist and the destination (and industry), and especially how tourists form images (become aware) of destinations through the media; tourist's perception of a destination, positive or negative, is based on these images; tourists form motivations to visit place and expectations about that place through these images; image is the interface between the tourist and the destination; and the media provides this image. A film, *A Passage to India*, was watched for this week. The use of *A Passage to India* had two purposes. First the film was used to present examples of tourism and exemplify the role of media and image in tourism. Second, the film was used for students to consider the sources of images of place, how these may be modified through the media, and to exemplify the connections identified in the lecture. Students also noted their images of India prior to and after watching the film.

The second lecture was to further conceptualise destination image within the framework of previous investigation. Echtner and Ritchie (1991) was used as the primary reading and complemented with Jenkins (1999) and Gallarza, Gil Saura and Garcý'a (2002). Within this class the definition and modelling of destination image were presented as well as creating an appreciation of the role of (destination) image in tourism. Additionally considerations of previous methods to measure destination image were also presented, including what specifically was measured and how it was measured. In this class the lists of image attributes noted before and after watching *A Passage to India* were positioned on Echtner and Ritchie's (1991) model of destination image. The two modelled positions were then compared as discussed as the role of the film in changing the position of attributes and the holistic image.

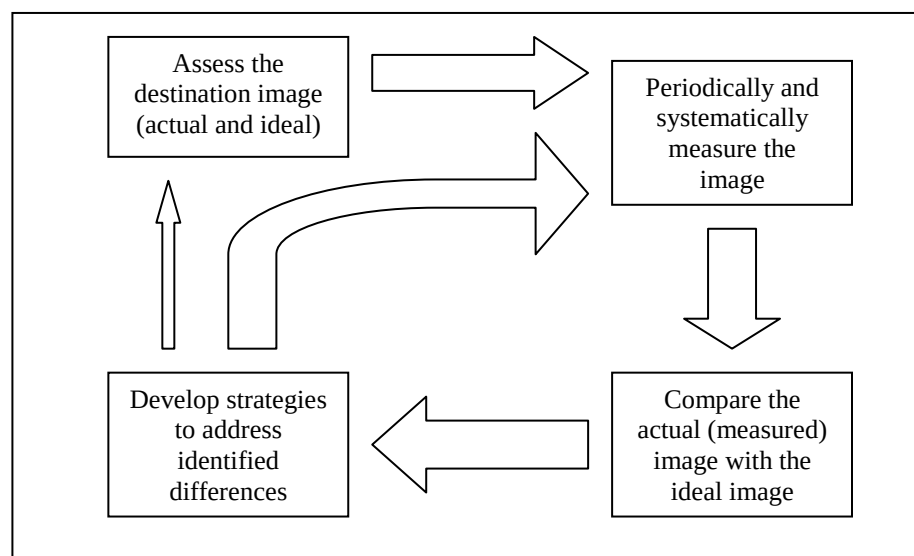
Week three looked more especially at the importance of destination image. Woodside and Sherrell (1977) was used as the main reading, supplemented by Um and Crompton (1990) and chapters in Nielsen (2001b, 2001c). The role of destination image in decision making was especially the focus, though image management and building were also briefly covered. Within decision

making the importance of the evaluative components was discussed in more detail. *The Beach* was watched in this class for two reasons. First, *The Beach* portrayed a range of tourists and tourism. Second, it presented an exotic tourism destination with existing images in students' minds. Students noted their images of Thailand before watching the film and they additionally noted the sources of these images. The students then noted their images of Thailand after watching the film.

Destination image formation was the topic for the fourth week. In this class Gartner (1993) was used as the primary reading and was supplemented with Baloglu, and McCleary (1999), Croy and Kearsley (2002), Fakeye and Crompton (1991), and Mackay and Fesenmaier (1997). Within this class emphasis was placed on the role of different sources or agents of images in creating a holistic destination image. This was especially to differentiate the role and credibility of different agents and also to

note stages within image formation where different agents played roles. The images and sources of images of Thailand (from the previous class) were then analysed to identify differing roles of agents in the creation of the holistic image and their perceived credibility. This was also compared to the post film images to identify the role of a film in changing this image.

Image management in week five specifically assessed the development of image management, especially for cities, then the advantages and processes of including image management explicitly within destination management processes. In this Barich and Kotler (1991) was used as the primary reading, and French (1994), Gregory and Wiechmann (1998) and Teleisman-Kosuta (1989) provided the additional readings. In this Barich and Kotler's (1991) implied image management model was presented (Figure 1) and compared with tourism image changing practices.



Source: Adapted from Barich and Kotler 2001
Figure 1 Image Management Process

During this week *The Vertical Ray of the Sun*, set and filmed in Vietnam was watched. This film was selected because it showed an alternate view of Vietnam to most other media. It also depicted a location that was increasingly identified as a tourist destination. Again students noted their images of Vietnam and the sources of these images before watching the film and their images afterwards.

The week six class focused on the media. This presented first definitions and

description before reviewing the study of the media, and especially the role of media in culture. The role of this week was to contextualise media in everyday life and in this the importance of the media as a topic of study; as an industry; the interrelationship between culture and the media; and the role of the media in audience assimilation. Altheide (1997) was the primary reading for this week, supported by Grossberg, Wartella and Whitney (1998), Nielsen (2001d) and O'Shaughnessy (1999). The tutorial time

analysed the previous week's images of Vietnam, noting the roles of different types of media, their roles in image creation and possible basic strategies that Vietnam could implement to manage image.

Tourism and the Media was the topic of the next class. A chapter from Nielsen (2001e) was the primary reading and supplemented by Long (2003) and another chapter from Nielsen (2001f). This week discussed the role of media in creating and enhancing place image and travel behaviour. It additionally discussed the media and tourism relationship and processes to provide for this increasingly important relationship at the destination and attraction level. In the tutorial national and regional tourism and media programmes (media familiarisation programmes) were assessed and compared to image creation agent roles.

The next three weeks looked especially at elements of fictional media tourism. Fictional media tourism is the re-building and re-imaging of associations with literary, television or film icons to promote destinations and to actively induce tourism. Film tourism was the first of the three discussed. Croy and Walker (2003) was used as the primary reading, and supported by Busby and Klug (2001) and Riley, Baker and Van Doren (1998). The role of film as a tourism inducing force and its possible tourism promotion role were discussed. New Zealand was then discussed as a case study of film tourism and the promotion of a country with and through film. *The Lord of the Rings: The Fellowship of the Ring* was watched in this class. This film was selected because it provided a local case, its recent use for destination promotion in New Zealand, and was also partially set at the location of the class fieldtrip, Hobbiton. During viewing, students noted places in the film that they would most like to visit, and places they thought international tourists would most like to visit. The students also noted locations that they recognised in the film.

The second of the fictional media topics was television tourism. Tooke and Baker (1996) was used as the primary reading and was supplemented by Hanna (1995) and Beeton (2000; 2001a; 2001b). Within this week the role of television in tourism and its effects were compared to that of film tourism. Though further television specific issues were also discussed including potentially

longer production and post production effects. The tutorial was directed at Beeton's (2000; 2001a; 2001b) review of *Sea Change* and the identified effects of television production and tourism. Students then evaluated an invented application to produce a locally based television series for its potential impacts, positive and negative.

The third fictional media tourism topic was that of literary tourism. The primary reading for this week was Fawcett and Cormack (2001) and was supported by Herbert (2001), Muresan and Smith (1998) and Squire (1994; 1996). This week discussed the role of literature, past to present, in enhancing tourism. Also discussed were the similarities to film and television tourism, including that books were the basis of many films and television programmes. Additionally noted were other avenues destinations had taken in promoting themselves as book towns or with book festivals (Seaton, 1999; Small & Edwards, 2002). The tutorial was allocated to *Anne of Green Gables* and its creation a fictional place in a real setting (Squire, 1996; Fawcett & Cormack, 2001). Especially focused on were the impacts on the community and tourists. Building upon and similar to the previous week, students evaluated the promotion of a destination based on a book.

Week eleven was the fieldtrip to Hobbiton, Matamata. Hobbiton was used in *The Lord of the Rings* film trilogy depicting where the hobbits lived. In Matamata, the manager of tourism marketing in the area gave a presentation giving a background to tourism in the area, though especially the development of the campaign based on Hobbiton and *The Lord of the Rings*. The class then went on a guided tour with the manager of Hobbiton, in which he provide the usual tourist trip as well as providing a lot of further background information on the site's development and use as a tourist attraction. Students also compared their expected to actual experience as a basis to critically review their process of destination image formation and to identify potential tourism impacts.

Promoting place with film was the topic of week twelve. British Tourism Authority (2003), Tourism New Zealand (2003) and Riley and Van Doren (1992) were used as primary resources for this topic, and were supplemented by Ashworth and Voogd (1994). The practice of destination

promotion with the use of film was discussed and reviewed in previous as well as the contemporary cases of Britain and New Zealand. The Piano was the watched. It was selected as it was the first film used by Tourism New Zealand in international promotion (Figure 2), and it provided again a local and realisable case. Students noted their images of Waitakere (where *The Piano*,

then television's *Hercules* and *Xena* were shot) prior and post watching the film. Additionally students searched for further information of *The Piano* and *The Lord of the Rings* with explicit associations with New Zealand. This was to replicate a potential film tourist's search for the actual film location.



Source: Tourism New Zealand 2001

Figure 2 *The Piano* used in the 100% Pure New Zealand campaign

Managing the impacts of film was the topic of week thirteen's class. Beeton (2002) and Croy and Walker (2001) were the primary readings, and supported by the review of film impacts of *The Lord of the Rings* production by NZ Institute of Economic Research (2002). Within this class both enhancing and mitigating the impacts of film were discussed. Potentially impacted groups were identified and then the potential production and post production impacts were discussed. Discussion focused on different management techniques for the different effected groups and range of impacts. The tutorial assessed inducing agents of film and how these may be best managed.

The fourteenth week was on the future of tourism in film. Cetron (2001) was the primary reading, and with Muller (2001) and Todd (2001) presented perspectives of the future of tourism. *Total Recall* was selected as it portrayed a future of actual and virtual tourism and tourists. The film was watched and the different futures of tourism depicted in the readings and film were compared and discussed. This was very closely linked with

the next week where *The Fifth Element* was watched. Again this was selected as it depicted another future of tourism and tourists. Again the different tourism futures were discussed. Also discussed was the role of film in the creation of these potential futures. More importantly in these two classes was an ongoing review of the importance, measurement and management of destination image undertaken by Ivan Polunin (2003), editor of *Eclipse*, a tourism marketing industry journal. Polunin (2003) had sent out a list of 23 questions regarding image in tourism covering definitions, sources, roles, managing and so on (Appendix B). These questions were passed onto the students to answer in discussion and as a review for the unit. The experts' responses were then compared to the students' and further discussed the similarities and differences (*Eclipse* 9 & 10, 2003).

Assessment

In this unit there were three internal assessment items, and no external assessment item (examination). All assessment items were individual. The three

items were awarded marks out of 20, 30 and 50 marks respectively making up 100 marks for the unit. The first item was a review and media diary of New Zealand film and tourism. This had the objective to identify the significance of the film or television and tourism relationship in New Zealand, and to analyse the reported effects of this relationship. For this assessment item students collected and presented an annotated list of at least 10 articles (from three different general media sources) about film and tourism in New Zealand in the previous twelve months. In addition the students, with reference Echtner and Ritchie (1991), Gartner (1993) and Woodside and Sherrell (1977), wrote a 1,000 word review of the images that these films created to induce tourism as reported in the media.

The second assessment item was an analysis of tourism, image and film. This item had two objectives. The first was to identify the images a film presents to possible tourists and to analyse these in a critical manner. The second objective was to provide recommendations for destination management organisations as to how best use these images for marketing. Students had to base this assessment item explicitly on a film screened in class (*A Passage to India*, *The Beach*, *The Vertical Ray of the Sun*, *The Lord of the Rings: The Fellowship of the Ring*). From this they had to compare and contrast their images, the film's images and the destination's images identified in the literature. From this basis they then had to identify and discuss the formation of positive and negative tourism inducing images. They also had to provide recommendations regarding the film's effects on image management for that country's tourism authority.

The third assessment item was to identify a film tourism opportunity and develop it. In this students had to identify, explain and put into theoretical context a fictional media (film, television, or literary) site, including a description of its operations and why it exists. From this they had to compare and contrast the chosen site to Hobbiton, Matamata. On the findings derived from the comparison students then proposed a new fictional media tourism attraction in New Zealand. The proposed new attraction was to be developed in consideration of destination image, image formation, decision making and fictional media-tourism literature.

Additionally students also had to provide a brochure to summarise the entire report to attract local support and investors to the attraction.

Reflections

During and after the implementation of this unit the author undertook an explicit programme of reflections upon content, focus, assessment and student reaction. Overall the content covered the main conceptual areas, and covered them in sufficient detail and depth. This was also reflected in student feedback. The development and progression through the conceptual issues within the tourism, image and media relationship was well received. The reflection on the importance of image at the beginning of many classes also linked the progressions into the overall context of the unit and tourism.

The unit, whilst inclusive of other areas of media, was focused on film, this was particularly in the assessment. Though the students' feedback and evaluation was positive to this focus, reflecting, the author would suggest, the contemporary popularity of film. In the future it would be recommended to broaden this focus to be more explicitly inclusive of other forms of media tourism, especially in the assessment. The focus in the actual classes, tutorials and readings was broader than the assessment.

The fieldtrip was an excellent learning exercise, and a great promoter of the unit. The onsite learning and the inclusion of practitioners in student learning was very well received and applied. Most locations do have film, television or literary sets near by, though the numbers that have been developed for tourism may be limited. In locations without fictional media tourism sites, the fieldtrip could focus more on potential development of locations and the issues that could arise.

The first assessment item provided a good foundation of the conceptual issues and also explored a contextual understanding of the relationship between tourism, image and the media in New Zealand. This was quite contextual as New Zealand had had much media coverage of film production and its promotion for tourism during the previous twelve months. The second assessment item did provide a good conceptual application to a film in class. An extensive possible reading list was provided with the outline

and was reflected in the submitted assignments. The objective and how it was to be achieved created confusion, which the reading list helped with, nonetheless it would be recommended to simplify the item, or more explicitly identify the process that students may use in achieving the objective. The third assessment item, again, was laborious in creating clear expectations. This too could be simplified, though would suggest changing it to reflect other management issues within the relationships between tourism image and the media. The assessment, whilst again positively received by students, could be changed to be more reflective of other tourism management issues in regards to image and the media. One tutorial exercise that worked very well and could easily be developed into an assessment item was the evaluation of impacts and development of criteria for the acceptance of film or television production in an area.

A final consideration would be the shortening of the unit for inclusion in most universities 13 week semesters. The introduction lecture and the destination image lecture could be combined. It must be noted that the introduction lecture was found to provide a great context for the unit within the student's prior learning and their knowledge about the relationship between tourism, image and the media. The final two weeks, the future of tourism in film and review could be omitted, though it would be important to include the review questions within prior weeks. It would also be necessary to allocate time to the discussion of responses of these review questions.

Considerations, implications and conclusions

Destination and tourism business managers need to be aware of the importance of image and media's role in creating, enhancing and changing image. It is also an important conceptual area for tourism academics to appreciate considering its role within the industry, behaviour and impacts of tourism. The development of an appreciation and understanding of the concepts of tourism, image and the media was a proactive response to an important issue in the tourism industry. The conceptual foundation was sound, and linked well together. Pedagogically, students reacted well to the concepts, readings and exercises in class. In part this was due to the contemporary nature

and popularity of the topic complemented with the recent coverage in the media, especially as related to tourism. A consideration for the provision of such a unit is the lack of a text, and therefore the necessity to develop a reading list. Implications for destination and business management are the increased awareness and understanding of the importance of image and the media in this by graduates entering the work force. This will provide for the ability to manage a more sustainable industry.

In conclusion, there is a very evident and important relationship between tourism, image and the media. These are very important conceptual and practical relationships. In response to this a unit was proposed and developed. In this development an appraisal of the pertinent concepts was undertaken, and these then formed the foundation of the unit's classes. The structure was further fleshed out with pertinent management aspects of these relationships. Assessment items were provided, even though focused on the film component of the tourism, image and media relationship, still provided for the application of conceptual issues to contrived though practical situations. Overall, there was a positive reflection on the content, and focus of the unit. One point to consider was the further explicit inclusion of other forms of media in the assessment. Overall, this unit, it was felt, had very positive educational and practical outcomes and this was supported by positive feedback from students. This is a very important area that needs to be explicitly included in tourism management curriculum, and this paper provides an indication of conceptual foundation, content, structure and assessment to do so.

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Appendix A: Topic Content, Learning Objectives, and Tutorial Exercises

Lecture Topic	Content	Objectives	Tutorial
	Course Introduction		
	Course outline	Understand the outline of the course	Note your images of India prior to the viewing of <i>A Passage to India</i> in class. Note your images again after the film.
	Tourism	Understand the content of the course	
	Image	Understand the key focus of the course and an introduction to the relationship	
	Media		
	Connections		
	Destination Image		
	Destination image	Identify what image means	From the class's noted images of India (previous class), create two lists of image attributes, one prior to viewing, one post viewing. For each list note which image factor, as per Echtner and Ritchie's (1991) model, that the attributes relate to. Use these factors to then map India's overall destination image for both lists. Compare and contrast the two images.
	Defining destination image	Understand what destination image includes	
	Destination image's role	Define destination image	
	Destination image model	Introduction to the role of destination image	
	Identifying destination image	Model destination image	
	Image methods	Introduced to methods used to identify destination image	
	Content analysis		
	The Importance of Destination Image		
	Destination image recap	Identify the importance of destination image	Note your images of Thailand prior to the viewing of <i>The Beach</i> in class and the sources of these images. Note your images again after the film.
	Importance of destination image	Understand the destination choice process and image's role in that process	
	Destination choice and decision making		
	Important (evaluative) components	Understand what evaluative components of destination image are	
	Holistic evaluative image	Identify the importance of image in destination management	
	Destination management		
	Destination Image Formation		
	Importance of image	Identify and understand the agents in the image formation process	Create a list of image sources from the class's notes in the previous class. On this list note what sort of images these would be using Gartner's (1993) model of image formation. Also map Thailand's image prior to viewing the film. Compare and contrast with the image of Thailand after watching <i>The Beach</i> . Did the image of Thailand change? What changed? How did the image of Thailand change? Why did it change?
	Image formation	Understand models of image formation and the roles of different agents	
	Image agents	Identify and understand differing levels of credibility or importance for image agents	
	Models of image formation	Understand the connections between image formation, decision making, and experience	
	An integrated model		
	Image Management		
	Importance of image	Identify the roots of destination image management	Note your images of Vietnam prior to the viewing of <i>The Vertical Ray of the Sun</i> in class and the sources of these images. Note your images again after the film.
	Development of image management	Identify the advantages of image management	
	Destination image management	Understand the process of image management	
	Image management process	Identify and understand issues with image measurement and management	
	Image measurement and management issues	Identify and understand the keys in implementing destination image management strategies	
	Image management		
	Destination New Zealand		

Lecture Topic	Content	Objectives	Tutorial
The Media	Importance of image	To understand what the media is	From the previous class notes list the images that the news media, other general media (such as documentaries or travel programmes), the fictional media (such as films and books) have created of Vietnam. What sources are the most important/have the most weight in the creation of your holistic image of Vietnam? What sort of strategies should Vietnam implement to better its holistic destination image?
	Organic images	To identify the importance of the media as a point of study and as an industry	
	Study of media	To identify and understand the interrelationship between culture and the media	
	Size of media	To identify the role of the media in audience assimilation	
	The media		
	Media and culture		
	Changes to everyday life		
	Audience assimilation		
Tourism and the Media	Importance of image	To identify the increasing exposure and familiarity of place	Read <i>Explore New Zealand 2002/2003: Everything You Need to Know</i> and the <i>International Media Programme</i> both on the tourisminfo website under <i>Working With Us</i> (also search through News). Also read through <i>Managing the Media</i> on the Rotorua website. To find this site use a keyword search in the site <i>Managing the Media</i> and select Rotorua NZ - Planning an Event>>. Alternately type in the following address: http://www.rotoruanz.com/rotoruanz/password/community/calendarscentral/planninganevent/media.htm Reflecting on the previous week's class, how effective is a media programme in developing a positive destination image? Compare the effectiveness to marketing programmes, especially in the role of image formation and influence on decision-making.
	Place and the media	To identify the increasing exposure and familiarity of travel and tourism, and the implications of behaviour	
	Important components	To identify and understand the relationship between the media and tourism industries in providing this exposure	
	Tourism and the media	To identify and understand processes used to provide this relationship	
	Industry perspective		
	Familiarisation tours		
	Influence exposure		
Film Tourism	Importance of image	To identify and understand the increased importance of film production for place	Note the parts of New Zealand in <i>The Lord of the Rings: The Fellowship of the Ring</i> that you would most like to see. Note the parts of New Zealand in <i>The Lord of the Rings: The Fellowship of the Ring</i> that you think overseas tourists would most like to see. Also note the parts of New Zealand that you recognise in the film.
	Tourism and the media	To identify and understand the role of film in inducing tourism	
	Fictional media	To identify and understand the possible role of film in tourism promotion	
	Place interest in film	To identify issues in the future of film tourism in New Zealand	
	Runaway production		
	Fictional media tourism		
	Film tourism		
	Film tourism in New Zealand		
Television Tourism	Importance of image	To identify and understand the increased importance of television production for place	From the Beeton readings note the positive and negative impacts of television production and television tourism. From this list identify who these impacts did/will affect. If you were the person to approve a new television series was to be filmed in your town, what would you require before approval would be given?
	Fictional media	To identify and understand the role of television in inducing tourism	
	Television image	To identify and understand the possible role of television in tourism promotion	
	Television tourism		
	Effects of television		
	New Zealand television tourism	To identify issues in the future of television tourism in New Zealand	

Lecture Topic	Content	Objectives	Tutorial
Literary Tourism	Importance of image Literary media Literary tourism Identifying literary tourism Success of literary tourism Link to film tourism New Zealand and literary tourism	To identify in the context of film and television tourism the role of literary tourism in inducing tourism To identify and understand the possible role of literary works in tourism promotion To identify issues in the future of literary tourism in New Zealand	<i>Anne of Green Gables</i> has created an international image of Prince Edward Island, Canada. Nonetheless this image is set 100 years ago, and Prince Edward Island has since developed. <i>Anne of Green Gables</i> was also set in a fictional place which is an amalgamation of current towns in the area. From the Fawcett and Cormack and the Squire readings note the differences in images from the books and the place, and also the differences from what visitors expect and encounter. In addition note what effect this has on the tourists, the host community and the place. If you were the person to approve the promotion of your town as related to a book, what would you require before approval would be given?
Fieldtrip – Hobbiton, Matamata	Reflect on classes to date and their relationship to what you encounter in Hobbiton. Especially consider the experience to what you expected, the experience to what international visitors may have expected, and the experience and that depicted in the film. Has your process of image formation created a realistic or an unrealistic image? How and why? In relation to Matamata, consider the impacts on the town of the association with Hobbiton, especially the impacts discovered in the two previous classes. What recommendations do you have for the managers of Hobbiton? What recommendations do you have for the local council of Matamata?		
Promoting Place With Film	Film induced tourism Film and tourism Promoting place Promoting place in film Film generated exposure BTA case – Walker (2001) Devils Tower National Park New Zealand	Appreciate the role film can have in promoting place Identify the benefits of destination promotion through film as compared to other forms of promotion Identify and understand that anticipation and recognition of opportunities are also required by destination management or marketing organisations Identify key factors in film induced tourism cases that could be used in destination promotion	Note your images of Waitakere prior to the viewing of <i>The Piano</i> in class and the sources of these images. Note your images again after the film. Also search for more information on <i>The Piano</i> after watching the film and identify and note associations with Waitakere and New Zealand. Complete a similar search on <i>The Lord of the Rings</i> and note associations with specific parts of New Zealand and New Zealand in general.
Managing for the Impacts of Film	Managing film impacts Film tourism in New Zealand Enhancing the impacts Mitigating the impacts Demarketing strategies Public office management plan for film impacts	Identify and understand that fictional media induced tourism creates impacts Identify possible impacts from fictional media tourism – positive and negative Identify and understand methods to enhance and mitigate the impacts of fictional media tourism	From the previous weeks' classes, you would have noted that films induce tourism and that money can be made from this. Other towns and regions around the world similarly develop tourist attractions based on or associated to films. The most famous film-tourism attraction would arguably be Disneyland. What are the most important attributes of the tourism inducing film sets?
Future of Tourism in Film	Exercise What were the readings' thoughts for the future of tourism? What are your thoughts for the future of tourism? Short-term Medium-term Long-term What changes will those in the tourism industry need to make to manage these futures?		Before watching the film note what the readings indicate for the future of tourism and your thoughts for the future of tourism. After watching <i>Total Recall</i> , are there any similarities between your notes and the future of tourism depicted in the film? Does <i>Total Recall</i> portray a possible future of tourism? If <i>Total Recall</i> portrays the future of tourism, what changes will those in the tourism industry need to make to manage this future?
Review	Based on your notes from last week, after watching <i>The Fifth Element</i> note similarities and differences to the tourism future depicted in <i>Total Recall</i> . Also note the similarities or differences between <i>The Fifth Element</i> and the tourism future described in the readings. Does <i>The Fifth Element</i> portray a possible future of tourism? If <i>The Fifth Element</i> portrays the future of tourism, what changes will those in the tourism industry need to make to manage this future?		

Appendix B: *Eclipse* Destination Image Questions (Polunin, 2003)

1. What is 'the image' of a destination?
2. Is the image of a destination a homogenous whole or does it consist of layers or categories?
3. Do destinations have multiple images, spread over different markets or even within a single market?
4. How is the image of a destination formed?
 - a. Where does it come from?
5. What factors contribute most strongly to a destination's image?
 - a. Are these factors common across all destinations?
6. Is there a hierarchy of image forming factors?
 - a. Are some stronger or more positive than others?
 - b. What ranking would you suggest?
7. Should destination marketers think in terms of image typologies (e.g. culture, sun-sea-sand, etc.) rather than a unique image for every destination?
8. What do you think are the main image types?
9. How would you evaluate destination image?
 - a. What evaluative criteria would you use?
10. Is destination image measurable?
 - a. If yes, how many dimensions does it have, and what are they?
11. Why bother to measure a destination's image?
 - a. How can marketers make use of such measurement?
12. If you wanted, quickly and inexpensively, to get a snapshot image of a destination in a market, how would you go about it?
 - a. What questions would you seek to answer?
13. Should quantitative or qualitative approaches be used to measure destination image?
 - a. In either case, which methods?
14. How would you compare the images of several different destinations in a single market?
 - a. What methods would you use?
15. Is it possible to separate and measure the contribution that destination marketers specifically make to a destination's image?
 - a. If yes, how would you do it?
16. How often should you evaluate or measure the image of a destination?
17. Is it reasonable for a Tourist Office to think that it can significantly manage the image of its destination?
 - a. Or are there too many factors beyond its control?
18. How does a destination change its image in a given market?
 - a. How easy is it?
 - b. Who should initiate the change?
19. To what extent can the image of a destination be created for a market, or a market segment?
 - a. Is it possible and desirable for a destination to have different images for different markets or segments?
20. It doesn't matter what your self-image is, the perception of the market is what matters
 - a. Do you agree with this?
21. How important and what is the role of a destination's image in the consumer's decision making process and ultimate destination choice?
22. Does a destination have to have an image in a market to promote itself?
23. What is the difference and relationship between destination image and destination brand?

Tragedy in the Adventure Playground: Narratives of Risk and Responsibility in the Newspaper Reporting of Mountaineering Accidents in New Zealand

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Abstract

On December 31, 2003, three mountain guides and their three clients were swept 500 metres down Mount Tasman, New Zealand's second highest mountain, by an avalanche. The three guides and one client died.

This tragedy generated exceptional national newspaper coverage for a mountaineering accident in New Zealand, and in conjunction with a number of accidents in the mountains before and after this incident, raised concern in the media that, firstly, such incidents may be on the increase as tourism marketing capitalises on *Lord of the Rings* fame to promote New Zealand as a mountainous adventure 'playground'; and secondly, that reports of such accidents would tarnish New Zealand's image as a safe adventure tourism destination.

Mountaineers have criticised the media for creating a public perception that mountaineering is an inherently and unrelentingly dangerous activity by misreporting incidents and focusing only on accidents and deaths. This paper analyses the newspaper reports of the fatal New Year's Eve accident using theories about the processes of news production which suggest that events are simultaneously represented, interpreted and constructed by the media. Thus, the way in which news is selected, structured and presented, means that events are inevitably portrayed in ways that differ from 'what really happened'.

In addition, an analysis of the narrative themes in the newspaper stories about mountaineering accidents highlights the way in which such stories are told in terms of certain socially-constructed narratives about risk and responsibility in the outdoors, thereby over-simplifying and clouding the debate of these issues in relation to tourist safety and the marketing of adventure tourism. This demonstrates the need for a critical analysis of adventure tourism accidents outside of the media, and taking into consideration both the complexities involved in subjective perceptions of risk, and an understanding of the interplay between notions of fate and control in the way in which we make sense of experience.

Key words: mountaineering, accidents, adventure tourism, media, risk, New Zealand

Mountaineering and the media

... people like to hear a bit of drama. And that is one part of climbing that is appealing too, is the stories to tell and the experiences and so on. But I guess the stuff that really pays, and pays in terms of stories to the, to the public is the real dramatic things about massive disasters on the big mountains. ... I guess from a non-climber's point of view it's hard to know anything about Everest other than this, this accident prone, environment.

(New Zealand mountaineer/research participant)

One of the most frequently cited examples of the media's fascination with mountaineering disasters is the incident on Mount Everest in 1996, when eight climbers,

including guides and their clients, died during one storm. Both the event and the aftermath were presented in the media with a commentary of triumph (for the survivors and rescuers) and tragedy (for those who died) – instantaneously through photos, films and radio dispatches filed on the World Wide Web, and in retrospect in numerous newspaper and magazine articles, books, documentaries and films (Gillman, 1997). According to Buchanan (1998), this incident caused 'adventure disaster' to suddenly become a 'hot genre' in the mainstream media.

It has been reported that news of the disaster, far from deterring aspiring Everest summiteers, actually intensified public interest in climbing the mountain (Heath, 1997; Nordland, 1997) and some

mountaineers themselves have contributed to the media interest in Everest's reputation for fatalities. David Breashears, mountaineer and film-maker (whose works include the documentary *Everest – The Death Zone*) argues that in 'a dark and mysterious way', the deadly nature of Everest has only strengthened its grip on the world's imagination, and that mountaineering is qualitatively different from other sports because this fatal attraction 'increases the psychic reward':

Because the dangers are so obvious, Everest has come to symbolize for many people the ultimate in personal ambition and achievement. [It is] "a great metaphor for human striving". ... The risk of death is enticing, because it reminds you that you are alive. (Breashears, 1997:130)

Industry observers tend to agree that the media has played a role in creating greater public awareness of adventure pursuits (S. D. Allen, 1987; Heath, 1997). Advertising has provided a large degree of exposure, while the marketing value of risky sport illustrates their appeal to a youth-oriented popular culture (B. R. Johnston & Edwards, 1994; Shoham, Rose, & Kahle, 1998). As Celsi, Rose and Leigh (1993) point out 'high-risk sports have become a badge of our times. We are all admonished to "just do it," and "play hard," for "life is short."' In addition, they argue, high-risk activities are dramatic in form, and thus motivated to an extent by a dramatic worldview which is both reflected in and reinforced by the mass media (Celsi et al., 1993).

Walter (1984:72-73) argues that mountaineering films and books provide 'a peep into the reality, immediacy and humanness of death', something he suggests is otherwise denied to us in a culture which fears and represses an awareness of mortality. Manning (1999), in his analysis of adventure narratives, identifies the pursuit of risky experience and the social construction of risk – particularly our appetite for the vicarious experience of risk through narrative – as distinctive features of post-modern cultures. Risks – both created and sought – are, he says, 'windows into modern experience': they dominate institutional discourse and appear to shape modern consciousness and the content of mass media (Manning, 1999:286). In such narratives, he argues, the tendency is to maximise and

dramatise risks that can not be fully controlled, rather than those that can be anticipated and minimized in advance - 'Fortuna, chance and luck, inevitably interplay with strategy and skill' (Manning, 1999:293).

In spite of these preoccupations, a number of theorists have suggested that risk, danger and death are not central to the subjective experiences of climbers and other adventurers (M. Johnston, 1992; Lung, 1990; Macaloon & Csikszentmihalyi, 1983; Walter, 1984). The findings from my study of the biographical narratives of New Zealand mountaineers correspond with these conclusions. During in-depth interviews my participants seldom, unless prompted, mentioned risk or danger, much less death. When asked how they felt the public perceived them, they expressed an almost unanimous feeling of being misunderstood. Many felt the public perceived them as strange, irresponsible or self-centred, because mountaineering has a reputation for being extremely dangerous and scary, even a gamble with life. By contrast, they argued, mountaineering is a relatively safe activity in which the level of risk one takes is managed in a very calculated way. The misunderstandings, they felt, arise from the way in which it is portrayed in the media – emphasising drama and deadliness – as well as the fact that it is very hard to explain the enjoyment of mountaineering to people when it is completely outside of their experience. Inspired by such comments, this paper endeavours to explore more deeply the representation of mountaineering in the media, and the processes that drive it, through a case study which analyses the newspaper reporting of one fatal mountaineering accident – the Mount Tasman avalanche.

The newsworthiness of the Mount Tasman accident

On New Year's Day, twenty-four hours after the avalanche on Mount Tasman, New Zealand's three major metropolitan dailies – *The Press* (Christchurch), *The Dominion Post* (Wellington) and *The New Zealand Herald* (Auckland) – carried the story on their front pages³. *The Dominion Post* led

³ The fourth metropolitan daily, *The Otago Daily Times* (Dunedin), did not produce a publication on New Year's Day, but carried the story on the

with the main headline “Killer Mountains” and three inter-related articles, illustrated with a photograph of Mount Tasman indicating the site of the accident, photographs of Paul Scaife and David Hiddleston (the two New Zealand guides) and one of a survivor lying injured on a stretcher.

In *The New Zealand Herald* the story covered most of page one, dominated by a photo of rescuers taking a body on a stretcher from a helicopter, and a further article on page three. *The Press* dedicated all of page one and two to the story. Articles about the accident were accompanied by similarly dramatic photographs – of survivors on stretchers, of the guides who died, their distressed colleagues, and Mount Tasman again, with its ‘killer slopes’ (Beynen, 2004b; Keast, 2004a).

This degree of newspaper coverage for a mountaineering accident was quite exceptional, exceeding, for example, the attention given to a climbing accident leading to the deaths of four Latvians earlier in December on Aoraki-Mount Cook⁴. Contributing to this, undoubtedly, was the fact that New Year’s Day is usually a ‘dead’ day for news, and hence there was no serious competition for the front page headlines that day. However, articles related to the accident continued to appear in newspapers across New Zealand over the following seven months. Nine months after the avalanche the front cover of the October edition of the national magazine *North & South* read “Death in the Mountains” underneath a photograph of one of the survivors, and inside was a twelve page feature article on the accident and its aftermath. The elements that made this story so newsworthy can be identified by applying Galtung and Ruge’s⁵ (1999) categories of news values. These news values are what

determine the selection, structure and presentation of news stories, and help to explain why this incident was so widely reported (Bell, 1991).

Galtung and Ruge (1999:25) argue that the ‘more negative an event in its consequences, the more probable that it will become a news item.’ While both the Latvian and the Mount Tasman accidents could claim similar degrees of *negativity* and *amplitude* on account of resulting in the same number of fatalities, the Mount Tasman accident involved New Zealanders, and therefore this incident was, according to Galtung and Ruge’s theory, more *meaningful* to a New Zealand audience than the Latvian incident, in that they could identify more closely with those affected by it. In addition, the Mount Tasman accident had a good degree of *consonance* and *relevance* due to the cumulative effect of media reports of the earlier accidents, and a number of other high profile search and rescues occurring immediately prior to the New Year’s Eve incident. Nine “foolish” Indonesian climbers, with no experience on ice or snow, were flown off Aoraki-Mount Cook on December 22, 2003, amid fears that they were placing themselves at serious risk (Scanlon, 2003). On December 29, two women were rescued in another part of the country after spending eight days stranded on a mountain side. It can be assumed that such reports over the past month had heightened public consciousness and concern regarding risk and responsibility in outdoor adventure activities – hence further accidents would be consonant with the public’s ‘mental pre-image’ of what could be expected when people go climbing.

Significantly in this case, Galtung and Ruge (1999) hypothesise that the newsworthiness of an event is enhanced if it involves ‘the unexpected *within the meaningful and the consonant*.’ If the public were by now well aware that mountains are a potentially dangerous place in which to recreate, still, for the most part, these misadventures could be attributed to lack of experience, ill-preparedness, or bad judgment. In the case of the Latvians, although the leader of the party was an experienced mountaineer who was a ‘hero’ in his own country (Worrall, 2003), the media reported that the party had all been roped together on a steep and icy slope, and that this was a mistake contributing to the tragedy – when one fell,

front page and a full inside page the following day.

⁴ The accident involving the Latvians was reported on the bottom of the front page of *The Press*, and the inside pages of *The Dominion* and *The New Zealand Herald*. Admittedly, its relative newsworthiness was probably affected by the fact that it coincided with a child disappearance/murder case which dominated the news media at this time.

⁵ Originally published as J. Galtung & M. H. Ruge (1965) The structure of foreign news. *Journal of International Peace Research*, 1, 64-90.

they pulled the others off⁶ (Claridge, Keast, & NZPA, 2003; Devereux & NZPA, 2003; McLean & Tyler, 2003). In the case of the Mount Tasman incident a number of factors combined to make it far more unexpected, and consequently more difficult to explain: the accident involved a professionally guided climbing party; two of the guides were among the most experienced and well-respected in New Zealand's climbing community; and finally avalanches, though known to occur in summer, are far less common than they are in winter.

The fact that two of the dead mountaineers were part of the elite of their profession, and that the deaths and their aftermath could be told in very *personal* terms, can also be said to have contributed to the news value of this story (Galtung & Ruge, 1999:25). Indeed, in the days and weeks and months following the original incident, these threads ensured the *continuity* of the story, another of Galtung and Ruge's criteria for news value. Personal stories are quite straight-forward to gather and present – an interview and a photo and you have a story – but in addition they satisfy a 'need for meaning and consequently for identification ... through a combination of projection and empathy,' as well as a 'cultural idealism according to which man is the master of his own destiny and events can be seen as the outcome of an act of free will' (Galtung & Ruge, 1999:26).

What really happened?

If what happened on Mount Tasman generated a large amount of newspaper coverage due to certain aspects of the accident that rendered it newsworthy, how accurate and balanced was the depiction of the event in the media, and how was

mountaineering in general represented? As Lippmann (1999:6) observes, news, in the first instance, 'is not a mirror of social conditions, but the report of an aspect that has obtruded itself.' Bell (1991:212), a linguist and journalist, goes further and argues that 'miscommunication is not only possible but inherent [in the news production process]. The news story is controlled by news values. It is not a neutral vehicle'.

According to the theory of news values, once an event has been selected as newsworthy, the news values that have deemed it newsworthy will be accentuated and thereby distorted. The further down the 'news chain' the item goes (and the longer that chain is), from event to reader, the higher the potential for selection and distortion (Galtung & Ruge, 1999). The 'news chain' refers to the multiple parties which handle a news story as it goes through the production process: typically from source to journalist, to chief reporter, to sub-editor, then editor, and backwards and forwards amongst them throughout the process. At any stage along the chain a story and its language may be modified and inputs or deletions made. In addition, most news which originates outside the region of a particular newspaper is reprocessed text from a news agency such as the New Zealand Press Association, even if it is by-lined to a local reporter (Bell, 1991).

According to Bell (1991:226), miscommunication in the media is facilitated by the tendency towards over-assertion, which may be achieved by increasing 'the illocutionary (assertive strength)' of words, phrases or sentences. Compare, for example, *The Dominion Post* headline "Killer Mountain", with *The Press* "Four climbers die after avalanche disaster" for the same story. Other forms of distorting a story include attribution deletion, that is, presenting an individual viewpoint as general information, and deleting or reordering information so that the balance or focus of the original text is altered. Clearly, these techniques can be utilised to exaggerate the negativity or drama of a particular incident, or to render it less ambiguous – another of Galtung and Ruge's (1999) news values.

While the New Zealand metropolitans differed subtly in style and the deletion or misreporting of certain minor details, a more extreme example of the cumulative effects

⁶ Ultimately the Coroner's inquest into the accident determined that three of the climbers had been roped together and one climbing separately. The separate climber fell and the three others, most likely going to his aid, had fallen after one was hit on the head by falling rock or ice and, as a result, fell and pulled the others with them. It was identified that the party were not wearing helmets which is accepted as standard practice in the New Zealand alps due to the frequency of loose rock and ice falling from above and causing a hazard. Consequently it was concluded that the Latvians were perhaps insufficiently aware of the specific conditions of climbing in New Zealand, and had they been wearing helmets, the incident may have had a less serious outcome ("Fatalities show need for helmets," 2004; "Two incidents took climbers' lives," 2004).

of selection and distortion was the report of the Mount Tasman accident in *The Courier Mail* in Queensland on January 1 (McIlveen, 2004). Not only is the language of this report of high *assertive strength*: the headline reads “Top climbers hurled 500m to icy death” and Aoraki-Mount Cook National Park is described as ‘a treacherous meeting place for climbers’; but also the description of the event bears no resemblance to that reported in the New Zealand newspapers. The New Zealand papers all reported the details of the accident in similar terms to this description which appeared in *The Otago Daily Times*:

... the avalanche struck shortly after the party had completed one pitch (rope length) of a steep section of the climb on the northern shoulder of Mt Tasman, and the guides had climbed ahead to set up belay points.

Mr Hiddleston [a guide] was bringing Dr Platts up on the rope, with the two remaining clients waiting at the lower belay station, when the avalanche occurred.

All six were swept off the slope, down the face and over several ice cliffs before coming to rest on the Grand Plateau 500m below⁷. (Thomas, 2004)

The Courier-Mail, by contrast, tells the story as follows:

The party was using an exposed rock bridge to cross a ravine, when the avalanche hit about 7am.⁸

One of the climbers tried to drive a steel peg into the ground to use as a hook when the bridge gave way.

Three of the six climbers were killed instantly. (McIlveen, 2004)

Thus, the way in which newspaper stories are selected and produced results in ‘an image of the world different from “what really happened”’ (Galtung & Ruge, 1999:29). Additionally, as Galtung and Ruge (1999) point out, while it can not be demonstrated here, it may be hypothesised that such processes have an impact on the

ways in which the audience of such stories interpret and understand such events. Hence, we should perhaps not be surprised if some members of the public view mountaineering as an unjustifiably treacherous pursuit given the way in which news values drive the presentation of such stories, compounded by our tendency to better recall negative or spectacular events (Bell, 1991). It has been argued that the only way to change this would be to completely overhaul the values which drive the selection, structure and presentation of news stories (Bell, 1991; Galtung & Ruge, 1999).

In the case of the Mount Tasman avalanche accident, these processes resulted in an emphasis on certain factors (with some variation in emphasis between different newspapers) – the drama and tragedy of the event (that is, its negativity), the personal competence and seeming invincibility of the guides (which meant this accident was unexpected), and the shock and devastation of the climbing community (which personalised the events and prompted our empathy with those affected by it).

Narratives of risk and responsibility

While the processes of news production resulted in the Mount Tasman accident being portrayed in ways which differed from ‘what really happened’, the newspapers also tended to tell the story of the Mount Tasman accident in terms of certain narrative themes regarding risk and responsibility in outdoor adventure activities. Journalists report events in terms of stories with ‘structure, direction, point, viewpoint’ (Bell, 1991:145). In the case of the stories generated by the Mount Tasman accident, the narrative structures revolved around the nature and extent of the risks associated with climbing; the causes of the accident and hence who (or what, as the case may be) should be held responsible; and why, given the risks, people continue to climb mountains.

Conclusions about the narratives used in newspaper reports can be drawn from analysing the topics around which stories are focused, the structure of specific reports, as well as lexical and grammatical styles used. Newspaper stories are organised around topics or themes which represent certain ‘macro-propositions’ (van Dijk, 1991) which are evident in the way in which the stories are structured. Bell (1991:152) argues that focussing a story is a ‘prime preoccupation of a journalist’, that is, determining the

⁷ Photographs of the rescue site and other reports indicate that the climbers actually came to a stop while still on the slopes of Mount Tasman, rather than falling all the way to the Grand Plateau, which is 1000 (not 500) metres below the point from which the party fell.

⁸ The New Zealand papers all put the time of the avalanche at 8.30am.

significance of a particular story and the way in which various elements of it can be evaluated. This tendency also exists in personal narratives, but hard news stories differ from these in that they generally do not hold to a strict chronology – information is organised in terms of its newsworthiness rather than chronology (van Dijk, 1991) – and the evaluation of the story comes at the beginning, rather than at the end as it tends to do in the personal stories we tell. Thus, the lead paragraph of a news story both summarises the narrative and focuses it, forming ‘the lens through which the remainder of the story is viewed. The function is even more obvious for the headline, especially when it appears to pick up on a minor point of the story’ (Bell, 1991:152).

A major topic of the Mount Tasman story was the overall number of climbing fatalities in Aoraki-Mount Cook National Park – in particular highlighting the fact that the toll for 2003 was one of the highest compared to other years. This background story provided the *context* and *history* for the incident, and tells the story in terms of a certain sequence of events – instances of people dying in the mountains (van Dijk, 1991). Thus, such stories represent the theme that mountaineering is a very risky and potentially deadly pursuit. *The Press* ran the following headline and lead in its story about mountain fatalities on page two of the same edition that broke the story of the avalanche:

CHALLENGE LEADS MANY TO RISK LIVES.

The enduring challenge of climbing in the Mount Cook National Park has led many climbers to an early grave. (Beynen, 2004a)

The article noted that the four fatalities on Mount Tasman brought the overall death toll in the National Park to 209 – with ten people dying in 2003, including the four Latvians only weeks before. The 2003 accidents are outlined, and finally details are given of other multiple-fatality accidents in the park, as well as the worst ever climbing accident in New Zealand, fifty years ago, when six people fell and died on Taranaki/Mount Egmont. The penultimate paragraph of this article, however, offers some perspective on this catalogue of deaths:

Tragedies tend to overshadow the vast number of adventures in the park that end successfully and results in the

reputation of the park spreading around the world. (Beynen, 2004a)

Judgements about the relative importance of a particular topic or theme are subjective, and differ between journalists and newspapers (van Dijk, 1991). For example, *The Dominion Post* structured their reports in a way that emphasised even more intensely the theme of mountaineering being a deadly pastime. While the headline of *The Press* article suggested there was at least some reason behind the activities that result in these deaths (that is, the ‘challenge’), *The Dominion Post* ran the same article on the front page of their January 1 edition, with some interesting deletions. Most notably they deleted the notion of challenge from the headline, and cut the paragraph which qualifies the fatalities to some extent. Hence their article reads much more like a bleak (and bullet-pointed) list of tragic deaths (“Death in the peaks,” 2004).

A week later *The Otago Daily Times* ran a more personalised account of mountain deaths by their Wanaka-based⁹ journalist to coincide with reports of the guides’ funerals on January 6. This story, like *The Dominion Post* headline “Killer mountains”, emphasised the notion of the mountains as violent, even the agents of violence, through their personification: the headline read “Mountains are killing my friends”, not ‘My friends are dying in the mountains,’ suggesting the climbers are passive victims at the hands of (frequently) malevolent mountains. Similarly, a headline in *The Press* (January 2, p5) read: “At the mercy of nature.” The article told the story of the accident through the eyes of one of the rescue party, and the difficulty he faced in being called to recover the bodies of close friends, but the headline picked up on a comment attributed to the veteran alpine guide – that the guides were ‘thorough professionals’ and had been the victims of circumstance – establishing this as the most pertinent theme. In the same article two Swiss climbers, also knocked over by the avalanche, are described as having ‘cheated death’ because their rope caught on a piece of ice, arresting their fall.

At the same time as a narrative is being told of mountaineers taking extreme risks in

⁹ The two New Zealand guides that died lived in Wanaka, a small town near the Southern Alps which is a centre for outdoor adventure activities.

landscapes dominated by the whims of nature – and by extension that mountaineering is a form of life-gamble or surrender to fate – it is implied elsewhere that responsibility may lie in far more human hands. Thus the theme of responsibility is prevalent in some reports of the accident, pivoting around questions of the level of avalanche risk existing at the time, and the experience and competence of the guides, that is, was it bad luck or bad judgement? Was the nature of the risk they faced calculable or incalculable, and thereby something they could not have foreseen? Again subjectivity comes into play, and there is some ambiguity in the picture that emerges from varying reports. *The Press* headline “Avalanche threat thought low” (January, 1) suggests bad luck, while *The New Zealand Herald* (January 2) ran a story headlined “Victims may have set off avalanche”. Although this headline suggests a certain degree of culpability on the part of the climbers themselves, this is qualified in the final few paragraphs when Mountain Guide Association president Trevor Streat is attributed with the comment that the guides ‘had undertaken the climb on an appropriate day’ and that ‘the accident may have been a combination of an error in judgement and bad luck.’

By mid-January a preliminary report into the deaths by the New Zealand Mountain Guides Association (NZMGA) was released and reported as identifying a combination of bad luck and abnormal conditions as causing the accident (“Fatal avalanche ‘bad luck,’” 2004). Significantly it was maintained that the guides had ‘adopted standard mountain-guiding techniques’ and this incident should not be confused with other recent accidents ‘where lack of experience and inappropriate technique would seem to be the most likely cause. The NZMGA believes this has contributed to confusion in the public arena over the risks of mountaineering for experienced and suitably prepared parties’ (Henzell, 2004b; “Report assesses climbers’ deaths,” 2004).

This statement suggests some concern on the part of the NZMGA about public perceptions. Contributing to such perceptions may well have been an article in *The Press* on January 10 – “‘She’s right mate’ attitude killing NZ holidaymakers by the dozen.” The article attributes inexperience and underestimation of the

dangers of the New Zealand environment with leading to the deaths of fifty domestic and foreign tourists over the preceding fifteen days. While the article does not specifically claim that such things led to the Mount Tasman accident, the accident is listed and pictures of the victims and the rescue figure prominently in the article.

But if the Mount Tasman accident did not fit the conventional narrative of foolhardy recklessness (as in the case of the Indonesians), or a tragic lack of familiarity with local New Zealand conditions (as in the case of the Latvians), the media required an alternative narrative to explain the course of events that led to the accident and position the way in which it is evaluated in terms of risks and responsibility in the outdoors. This emerges in a number of stories that focus on the experience and competence of the guides (predominantly Paul Scaife and Dave Hiddleston), their personalities and the personalities of other mountaineers, and the reasons they climb. The picture that emerges from this narrative is one of “true” adventurers, highly skilled and aware of the risks involved in mountaineering, who nevertheless are driven by a passion and dedication to their chosen activity/profession, and accept the possibility of death, and thereby consciously take personal responsibility for whatever happens to them. These themes are expressed in the headlines:

MATES HAD THE MOUNTAINS IN THEIR BLOOD (*The New Zealand Herald*, January 3)

CLIMBERS WILL NOT STOP CLIMBING (*Otago Daily Times*, January 2)

GUIDE REMEMBERED FOR SINGLE-MINDED DETERMINATION (*Otago Daily Times*, January 2)

Memorial services were held for the two New Zealand guides on 6 January and newspaper reports of the services described the men as:

... true adventurers, blessed with the spirit to push themselves and get the best from those around them, but also safety-conscious and constantly aware of the unforgiving environment they chose as their work place. ... [Hiddleston accepted] the realities of his job, accepting that death was always a possibility in the mountains (Courtney, 2004).

Editorials, much more explicitly than hard news stories, are not constrained by assumptions of 'objectivity.' Rather, they set out to explain and evaluate events – offering *Conclusions* and *Moral lessons*, as described by van Dijk (1991) in his analysis of news schemata. Hence this theme was expressed quite forcefully in a *Dominion Post* editorial on January 2 ("The pinnacle of dangerous liaisons," 2004), where it was explained that death was the price the climbers paid 'for a passion that drives them like an addiction':

... even when trained, experienced and well-prepared well-equipped people have done everything properly, things will go wrong ... The possibility of death is something that climbers live with, a known risk they take into account and which, of course, they try to minimise. But in the end, their best endeavours may not be enough. ... The weather was good, the team was well-prepared and all signs point to there having been no warning that the avalanche risk was higher than usual. Families, friends and the mountaineering community will mourn the dead. Undeterred, other climbers will still have their eyes and hearts fixed firmly on reaching the top. That is the nature of the beast. ("The pinnacle of dangerous liaisons," 2004)

Two feature articles appearing in the second weekend of January picked up on this theme with more personalised accounts and evaluative comment. One of them, an article in *The Press*¹⁰, is given weight by the journalist identifying himself as a mountaineer, and including a photo of himself on the summit of Mount Cook. He explains that when foreigners die in the New Zealand mountains, the question is always raised as to whether they underestimated the local conditions – as happened in the case of the Latvians. Fatal accidents involving professional New Zealand mountain guides, however, are far more rare, and force the conclusion that 'experience is no guarantee of survival': it may improve the odds against being 'in the wrong place at the wrong time', but 'sometimes survival relies on

nothing more than dumb luck' (Henzell, 2004a). The Mount Tasman accident is compared with the rescue of the notoriously ill-prepared Indonesians, making it clear that those who have accidents in the mountains may be divided into the experienced who are unlucky, and thus the responsibility lies with the mountain which 'doesn't distinguish between the climbers on its slopes', and the inexperienced, who may either be lucky and survive as the Indonesians did, or unlucky, as the Latvians were.

Similarly, *The New Zealand Herald* ran a feature on the same weekend which profiled an amateur climber describing the rewards of climbing – challenge, satisfaction, breathtaking views, calm and contented feelings – and endeavouring to demonstrate that despite the high number of deaths in the previous months, there are 'hundreds who head into the Southern Alps each year, climb their intended route and go home without raising an eyebrow' (Devereux, 2004:B5). The article also included an interview with Guy Cotter, a mountain guide identified as having the same level of experience and qualification as the two New Zealand guides that died. It is reported that Cotter 'knows the same fate could also take him', but he accepts it and does not see it as sufficient reason to stop climbing. The article goes on to quote Cotter:

"Some people assume we are in danger all the time, that we take enormous risks all the time and that just being in the mountains means we are in grave danger.

It is not like that, it is the other way around ... Every move and risk is meticulously assessed." That is not to say climbing mountains is completely safe.

"Realistically, if you are not aware of the risks then you should not be in the business in the first place.

... The successful climber must learn patience, discipline and be able to take on responsibility for their actions.

... Sometimes the risks are just a lot greater than you realise, despite all the proper assessment and planning."

This week Cotter rescheduled planned climbs to allow his guides to go to the funerals of their colleagues. None of the

¹⁰ Interestingly, this article appeared in the same edition as the article " 'She'll be right' attitude killing NZ holidaymakers by the dozen." This suggests two concurrent narratives (bad luck versus bad judgement) in the same newspaper edition.

clients was put off trying their own ascents.

"Basically they paid their respects then said, 'But we're still going, aren't we?' To be doing this, you have to know the risks. We know, the clients know. You accept them and work hard to minimise them." (Devereux, 2004)

Differing shades of risk and responsibility appeared again with the reporting in July of the Coroner's interim decision on the Mount Tasman deaths, demonstrating again the difficulty of making a clear distinction between calculable and incalculable risks. This can be highlighted by comparing the reporting of the interim decision in *The Press* and *The Dominion Post*, and is perhaps summed up by the subtly different headlines they used for the same stories:

AVALANCHE DANGER HIDDEN FROM VICTIMS (*The Dominion Post*, July 1, p4)

NO AVALANCHE RISK SEEN ON FATAL DAY (*The Press*, 1 July, p2)

While *The Dominion Post* story is a rewrite of what appeared in *The Press*, the headline chosen suggests that the climbers were passive victims, while *The Press* suggests more agency on the part of the mountain guides. Notably also, *The Dominion Post* version excludes parts of *The Press* article that suggest ambiguity and difference of opinion around the question of whether or not the guides should have been more cautious on the fatal day. In particular, paragraphs were deleted recounting the opinion given by a Department of Conservation staff member at the inquest that the party was travelling in avalanche-prone territory, that there were avalanche warning signs in the area, and that had the climbers been further apart at the time of the avalanche, they may not have all been swept away (Keast, 2004b)¹¹.

This demonstrates how difficult it can be to draw a definitive conclusion about the nature of risks and the assignment of responsibility in cases such as mountain accidents – particularly a case like the Mount Tasman avalanche where it can not be easily

explained in terms of the standard scenarios of inexperience and/or bad judgement. To attempt to accurately represent such complexities in the media, which prefers unambiguous conclusions (Galtung & Ruge, 1999), is even more fraught. It is further evident that the newspaper reporting of such incidents can paint pictures of events in differing ways – sometimes subtle and sometimes quite contradictory – through variations in the topics and themes they chose to report, the ways in which the reports are structured, and other variations in lexical and grammatical style. Such oversimplification and conflicting messages do little to assist a constructive debate about risk and responsibility in mountaineering in general, and more specifically for the tourism industry, about related issues of tourist safety and the marketing of adventure tourism.

Implications for adventure tourism in New Zealand

The Mount Tasman incident, and the varying narratives about risk and responsibility that it prompted in the news media, has certain implications in terms of broader concerns about tourist safety and the reputation of New Zealand as an adventure destination. An editorial in *The Press* on January 2 summed up a number of aspects of these concerns, namely, that despite the fact that the avalanche on Mount Tasman demonstrated that there are 'no absolute guarantees of safety', nevertheless there were too many foolhardy 'idiots' (the Indonesians for example) who were endangering lives (including their own), costing money (by necessitating rescues), and giving New Zealand an 'unwarranted international reputation' as a 'dangerous destination' ("Paying for rescues," 2004). The editorial argues that education is not enough to stop such 'ill-considered outback ventures', which will only increase due to the 'images of alpine grandeur' promoted by *The Lord of the Rings* films. While no satisfactory means of stopping such accidents is offered, it is deemed 'essential' that they should be stopped, and that even though 'tragedies' such as the Mount Tasman avalanche will occur regardless, nevertheless 'the message to tourists must be that if they are well-prepared they will normally be perfectly safe' ("Paying for rescues," 2004).

¹¹ Interestingly, *The Timaru Herald* story of the interim decision (July 1) orders the information differently, placing the question raised about the guides' prudence closer to the beginning of the article, suggesting that they thought it should have greater weight in the story.

When an Australian fell to his death on Aoraki-Mount Cook on March 30, these issues were raised again:

RINGS 'MAY ADD TO MOUNTAIN DEATHS' (*The Dominion Post*, March 31, p3)

FOREIGN CLIMBERS AT RISK (*The Press*, March 31, p2)

Both articles reported the New Zealand Mountain Safety Council as warning that more foreigners would die in New Zealand mountains after being 'lured here by the Lord of the Rings films' and 'promotions marketing New Zealand as an adventure playground.' Towards the end of the articles it is reported that the Australian who died 'appeared to have done everything right'. Nevertheless, the report is structured in such a way as to connect with the idea that inexperienced foreigners are at particular risk, and that by attracting more international visitors to New Zealand we will be adding to the sorts of problems identified in *The Press* editorial. It is an interesting irony that on the one hand there is concern about causing problems by attracting too many adventure tourists, and on the other hand, concern that the escalation of such problems will discourage tourists from placing New Zealand on their adventure itinerary¹².

A number of things seem evident from this discussion: that the reporting of the Mount Tasman accident demonstrates that determining the nature and extent of risk and responsibility in adventure tourism activities is complex, particularly through the medium of the news media which prefers unambiguous conclusions (Galtung & Ruge, 1999). In this case, the narrative that emerged about "true" adventurers accepting the risks and taking personal responsibility for their safety, but sometimes falling victim to bad luck, sits somewhat uneasily with a simultaneous narrative about accidents happening only to the foolhardy and the inexperienced, and that by educating and encouraging (even perhaps forcing) people to take certain precautions, we can keep them safe. It is worth noting that Johnston (1989:327) in her analysis of

mountaineering accidents in New Zealand found no evidence to suggest any substantial difference in accident rates between international and domestic mountaineers in the New Zealand mountains, and concludes that the 'apportioning of blame for a high number of accidents is often based on misconceptions about the frequency of accidents involving particular groups.' The fact that this research was conducted more than fifteen years ago demonstrates that the perception that international visitors are at higher risk in the mountains than their local counterparts is an enduring one.

Questions also arise regarding the acceptance of risk and responsibility in a client-mountain guide relationship. As noted earlier, a highly experienced guide was reported as saying that clients accepted the risks, thereby emphasising the notion that they control their own destiny. Gabriel Amador, one of the guided climbers who survived the avalanche is reported as saying 'I don't hold anyone or any country responsible, it was just a terrible accident not under anyone's control' (S. Allen, 2004). However, he is also reported as saying, 'I don't ever want to climb another glaciated mountain again. Knowing someone could die changes everything' (Conway, 2004). Also of relevance here is the research by Carr (2001) on guided climbers in New Zealand. Her findings suggest that increased safety is one of the primary reasons for hiring a mountain guide.

Conclusions

Given the complexities surrounding subjective perceptions of the risks involved in mountaineering and other outdoor adventure activities, it is important that the adventure tourism industry develops a sophisticated understanding of these issues, beyond the simplistic and sometimes contradictory narratives told in the news media. While an analysis of the current systems of news production explains the tendencies of newspapers to distort their reporting of mountaineering accidents in particular ways and to varying degrees, it also demonstrates that an informed debate about such events and related issues should be held beyond the confines of the media, in a realm where the discussion is not determined in relation to the news values described by Galtung and Ruge (1999), and is less influenced by the tendency to tell

¹² It is also interesting to note that there should be this blight on the otherwise universal consensus that the success of the Lord of the Rings trilogy has been an overwhelming boon to tourism, and New Zealand's international profile in general.

stories according to conventional narratives of adventure.

As part of this debate it is also important to address the concerns of Palmer (2002:324) that in the marketing and promotion of adventure tourism 'the very real prospect of injury and death has been stripped from the activity itself.' Perhaps the most significant question raised by the Mount Tasman accident in this regard is whether it is perhaps unwise – if not irresponsible – to suggest that there can be such a thing as a completely 'safe' adventure tourism destination, if this means that tourists are thereby unprepared for the possibility that not all risks in adventure – as in life – can be calculated and mitigated, even by the most experienced and cautious among us.

And this will likely always be the case, particularly if one accepts Simmel's (1959) argument that the genius of the adventurer is to fail to differentiate between their own ability and the vagaries of luck, thereby existing 'at the point where the course of the world and the individual fate have, so to speak, not yet been differentiated from one another.' For Simmel (1959:256), a continuity runs through all the phenomena of life whereby they can be seen to rest somewhere on a scale 'on which every point is simultaneously determined by the effect of our strength and our abandonment to impenetrable things and powers.' It is this existential problem which allows us all in a sense to become adventurers. Whether we view the sum total of life as comprehensible and meaningful, or incalculable and insoluble, may depend, according to Simmel, on the quantitative analysis of individual experiences falling into either category. Having said this, Simmel (1959:257) adds that:

... none of us could live one day if we did not treat that which is really incalculable as if it were calculable, if we did not entrust our own strength with what it still cannot achieve by itself but only by its enigmatic co-operation with the powers of fate.

To consider the Indonesian, Latvian and Mount Tasman climbing parties and their fates in light of this argument suggests perhaps that we should not try to make radical distinctions between them, but rather consider that they exist on a continuum whereby we all attempt to convince ourselves that our skills and judgement (or

luck even) can overcome the 'accidents of the world.' This requires the acknowledgement that whatever our chosen 'site of resistance', from which we derive 'the illusion of controlling the seemingly uncontrollable' (Lung, 1990:870-871), one day our fate will catch up with us. Mark Whetu, a New Zealand mountain guide, in a documentary about his struggle to come to terms with the death of a client and friend on Mount Everest, suggests that accepting this may be our saving grace:

When you accept the fact that you are going to die – which, it's not a case of if, it's a case of when and where – once you accept that fact, you actually really start living. (Mark Whetu in *The Fatal Game*)

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Dedication

I would like to respectfully dedicate this article to the memory of Paul Scaife, Dave Hiddleston, Andrew Platts, Dave Gardner, Teodors Kirsis, Evija Kirsis, Ilmars Bernans and Aivars Prosenkovs.

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Effects of Negative Media Events on Tourist's Decisions

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Abstract

During the recent years, the role of mass media and its crucial position in the tourism information and decision-making process has increased. The decision to choose one holiday destination over a myriad of available choices is just one of many steps in the tourist's decision-making process. The question rising from this is whether there is a relationship between what is being communicated by the mass media and the tourist's stimulus. Tourism operators on Fiji and other holiday destinations have experienced that the messages the mass media are communicating to the public can have a significant impact on the numbers of visitors to the destination. An event published in the mass media is seen as objective and factual because a third party writes it. However, editorial staff of the media controls what is being published, and it is hard, if not impossible, for the tourism operators to control. This paper uses an analytical approach to discuss the relationship between tourism and the effects of news reports on customers decisions-making and motivations resulting in the tourist's travel behaviour. The findings in this paper indicate that the mass media plays an important role in tourist's decision-making process.

Keywords: Tourism, Negative media events, Perception, Image,

Introduction

'Death toll climbs in Fiji cyclone' (BBC News, 2003a), 'Visiting Great Britain? Beware of Foot And Mouth Disease!' (Johnson, 2001), 'Sars Warning over Taiwan' (BBC News, 2003b), 'Colombia closes popular parks in yellow fever scare' (CNN.com, 2004), and the headlines about negative events keep coming. What kind of influence do the mass media have on people, and is the tourist's decision-making process influenced by what the mass media are communicating?

According to (Lombardi, 1990) there are two major ways of [re]-creating a destination image in the minds of visitors after an event has occurred. The first one is through communication in the mass media, while the second one is through a real experience. Even though Lombardi's theory seems logical, it can be criticised because there is no final definition of what he calls a 'true' image. What this paper queries is, if the mass media actually paints a true / factual picture of destinations after a crisis, or if they are more interested in boosting sales and thus creates a fictional image that is claimed to be true. However, the net result of a perceived and real image has more or less the same outcomes which, according to Baloglu & McLeary (1999), are reduction in

tourist arrivals and tourist receipts, and a change in visitor's perception of the destination.

It has been suggested that the mass media also play an important role in the restoring phase after a crisis that have led to negative media publicity and damage a destination's image (Beirman, 2003). However, this paper is limited to focus on the role the mass media plays in influencing tourists in their decision making process and the perception they generate about a destination. In conclusion, based on the models related to tourists' decision-making and the communication process, this paper will aim to identify the role of the mass media and which factor it has in influencing tourists' decision-making.

Methods

Although several researches have been conducted on tourists' decision-making process and destination images, the more complex relationship between tourism and the mass media is under-researched. The definition of a negative media event will be explained, followed by an example, which shows how negative media publicity can result in significant downturn in numbers of tourists visiting the destination. In addition to the role of the international mass media,

the concept of freedom of press will be discussed. Many different theorists have discussed the role of the mass media in the tourist's decision-making process. This paper will present a model, which shows a simplified sequence on how the tourists reach the 'defer', 'decline' or 'decide' stage (Manfredo, 1992) in the decision-making process.

After having established the relationship between travellers and the mass media, this paper raises the issue on how news can destroy a destination image. Examples are used to highlight how negative media events have resulted in consequences for the tourism industry in different parts of the world. For the purpose of this paper, the term tourist destination region (TDR) will be used, and can be defined as country, state, region or town that is marketed as a place for tourists to visit (Hall, 2003).

The Role of Mass Media in Crises

According to Nielsen (2001), a negative media event occurs when the mass media is communicating bad news, threats, irritations or other matters that can be seen as unfavourable by the audience. An important point is that the issues communicated by the mass media might or might not be the truth. However, the end result will not be of great difference whether or not the actual event has occurred (Hall, 2002). People feel shocked or afraid, and their degree of scepticism increases and reflects their decision-making (Nielsen, 2001).

Sudden changes in the society can have remarkable consequences for individual TDRs, as well as for the global tourism industry in general. A human act or a nature catastrophe can transform the reputation, image and marketability of the most popular tourism destinations overnight (Echtner & Ritchie, 1991). Amongst incidents that have disrupted the global tourism industry were the terrorist attacks on New York City and Washington DC on September 11 in 2001, hereafter referred to simply as September 11. According to Beirman (2003), these incidents generated a worldwide panic and fear, which especially had an effect on the tourism industry in form of economic downturns.

The combination of SARS and the war in Iraq, which took place between March and June 2003, had severe impacts for the tourism industry and caused a steep

reduction of tourism visitation globally, especially in the Asia Pacific region (Asia-Pacific Economic Cooperation, 2003). The on-going unrest in the Middle East, after the initial war, continues to fuel global uncertainty. Haalebos (2003, p 6) quotes the Co-Director of Curtin University of Technology's Sustainable Tourism Centre (CSTC), Professor Jack Carlsen, who stated that '...at the World Tourism Organisation Conference in October 2001, it was estimated it would be two years before international tourism recovered. Since then we've had Bali, Sars and the latest events in Jakarta, Baghdad and Israel. Each event has set recovery back six to twelve months'. This is in line with what the Commonwealth of Australia announced in their White Tourism Paper where it was identified that there has been a strong market decline in travel and tourism receipts within Australia after the incidents concerned with September 11, SARS and the war in Iraq. In 2003 overseas arrivals to Australia decreased by 10 percent in April and 21 percent in May compared with the year before (Commonwealth of Australia, 2003). At the same time the effects of SARS in China were even more dramatic. According to Zhou (2003), Beijing Airport experienced a decrease of thirty percent fall in passenger arrivals in April 2003, and an estimated loss of \$US4.8 billion loss in the tourism industry.

When events such as September 11 and the war in Iraq happens, the international media plays an important role both in publishing the actual catastrophe, as well as in reporting recovery and restoration programs. However, the setback is that 'negative' news sell better than 'good' stories (Rosengren, 1994). According to Beirman (2003), there are five different events or circumstances that media should cover which can create negative impacts on a TDR's image, and again can result in a significant downturn in tourism numbers. Firstly, media should cover situations concerned with international wars or conflicts. Secondly, they should keep the public informed about specific acts of terrorism that is affecting tourists. The third type of events that the mass media should report are major criminal acts or crime waves (Silverstone, 1999), especially when tourists are targeted. The fourth area that the media has a duty to cover are natural disasters, such as earthquakes, storms or volcanos that are causing damage to urban

areas or the natural environment and consequently impacting on the tourism infrastructure. The fifth and last major type of event that the mass media are interested in is health concerns related to epidemics and diseases, which have an impact on humans directly, or diseases affecting animals (Beirman, 2003). Based on what the media should cover, Beirman (2003) does not discuss the relationship between tourism and the effects of negative news reports. Silverstone (1999, p 11), on the other hand, argues that media has a role of sharing a meaning and provide a 'taste of the everyday life'. By understanding the mass media's role, a link can be drawn to the issues concerned with tourists' motivation and how expectations are related to the tourists' decisions. Silverstone (1999) states that:

Our stories, our conversations, are present both in the formal narrative of the media, in factual reporting and fictional representations, and in our everyday tales: the gossip, rumours and causal interactions in which we find ways of fixing ourselves in our relationships to each other, connecting and separating, sharing and denying, individually and collectively... it has been suggested that both the structure and the content of media narratives and the narratives of our everyday discourses are interdependent, that together they allow us to frame and measure the experience (p. 11).

Especially noteworthy in the quote is the realisation that no narrative alone shapes a picture, rather the intertextual links between surface and content and between different sources of information forms the image (Phillips & Hardy, 2002). By focusing on media's role it may be easier to understand the nature of a tourist's decision making and the following travel experience. Silverstone (1999) argues further that an understanding of how the media works, will make travellers more critical to what the media presents. The relationship between the media and tourism is also commented on by Hall, who states '... in the age of global communication events can be played out live and unedited on television screens, and thereby potentially having a great impact on the viewing public' (Hall, 2002, p 459). This statement supports the argument that it is important to understand media's response to

events like September 11, which affects the tourism industry.

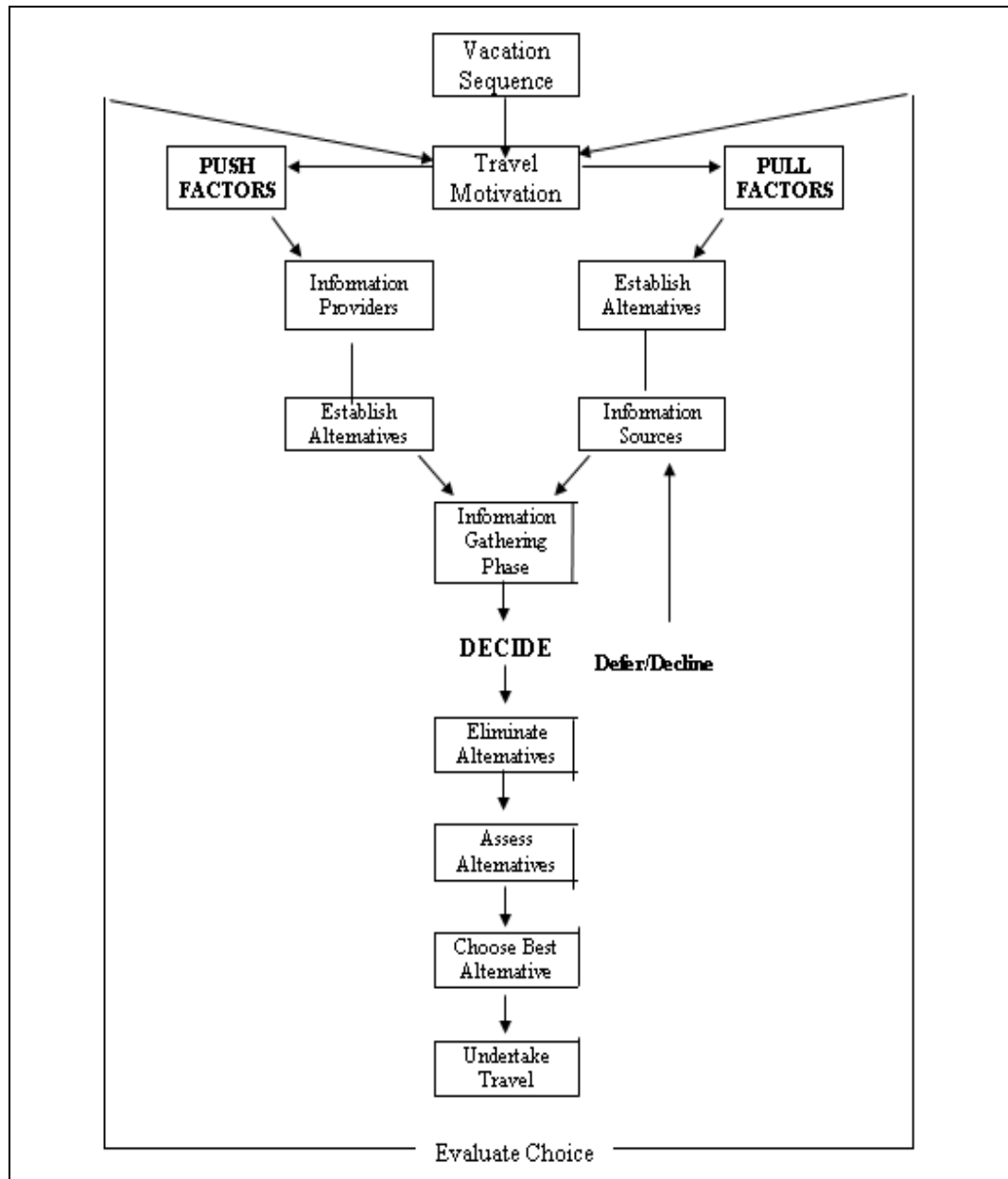
According to Beirman (2003) the role of effective media communication is critical for tourist authorities in democratic countries where the mass media's role is to inform the general public. The concept of freedom of press in these countries means that the public relation management is an especially important tool for tourism operators because they have to 'ensure that recovery and restoration efforts are reported' (Beirman, 2003, p 13). Fall (2004) confirms Beirman's view and claims that advertising activities has decreased since September 11 in USA while public relation activities have increased. In contrast, the government in non-democratic countries have far more control over what the mass media is publishing. Consequently, the media coverage tends to be managed in a staged process, and all information is filtered through the government. Although the non-democratic countries try to 'hide' destinations in crises, there are leakages. Medical epidemiologist and CSTC Professor Aileen Plant (2003, p 28) sympathised with the way the Chinese government handled the SARS crisis, and stated that 'I could not criticise the Chinese for their closed-door attitude to the virus. They were simply doing what many other countries would have done to protect their travel and trade. We live in a new world – a globalised world. We cannot hide problems any longer'. This shows that when foreign tourists are the victims of a particular event, they are often subject to media attention, (Silverstone, 1999), and consequently the media coverage can create a negative image for the TDR.

Analysis

In order to determine the impact the mass media have on a tourists' decision-making process, it is necessary to ask the question whether there is a direct relationship between the information presented and the tourist's motivation (Hall, 2002; Nielsen, 2001). There are various decision-making stages by tourists, and theorists like Mansfeld (1992) have created different models for tourism planners and information providers. However, these models are complex and very theory based. Nielsen (2001) has simplified these models and created a model, which includes the effects of push-and-pull motivations, in addition to

information on the tourists' decision-making process. This model is presented in Figure 1. Even though the model shows the major phases in the tourists' decision making-process, it can be criticised that it is generalising tourists' motivations to travel. Morgan and Pritchard (2000) have established that there is a change in consumers' holiday needs, and that tourists are searching for greater variety of holiday

activities and unique experiences than what Hall (2003) defines as 'push' and 'pull' factors. The trend also shows that there is no longer merely a need for relaxation, but also for recharging and rediscovery. This means that it is questionable how reliable Nielsen's model is. However, it gives a basic overview of tourists' decision-making process.



Source: Nielsen, 2001, p 127

Figure 1: Travel Motivations and Tourists' Decision Making Process

The sequence in the figure starts with the tourists' motivation to travel (Nielsen, 2001). Motivations are dependent on a

traveller's social status and background, their stage in the personal life cycle, education and family relationships (Hall,

2003). These factors will also play an important role when evaluating the issues that can influence the tourists' decision-making. The figure is based on an assumed motivation to travel, or at least to gather information for possible trips. Hall (2003) states that factors like geographical proximity, ease of accessibility and availability, as well as a destination's social, political and economic stability, are the pull factors that support a tourist in the decision making process. Even though the promotion of TDR's have focused on the mentioned pull factors, recent motivational research has showed that the 'push' factors, 'which is the need to have a break from the daily routine', is of greater value for the tourists (Hall, 2003, p 79).

Having established the basic travel motivation; it is possible to identify more specific motives to the selection process (Morgan & Pritchard, 2000). The next step is to search for travel alternatives through information providers. At this stage the tourists are heavily influenced by third parties' opinions. On the right hand side of Nielsen's (2001) model the tourists establish alternatives based on the 'pull' factors that draw people's interest to investigate TDRs and then they collect information about the destination. However, the whole information-gathering phase can also be a combination of 'pull' and 'push' factors, but in both cases the person seeks further travel alternatives (Nielsen, 2001).

According to Manfredo (1992), there is a relationship between the information providers and the tourist's decision-making process, which leads to 'defer' 'decline', or 'decide' upon the travel experience. The stimulation might come from television advertisements, travel programs on television or radio, a brochure, or any other source of information like travel agencies. This information gathering stage is the most critical stage when it comes to the tourist's decision making on to 'go or not go' (Nielsen, 2001, p 128). This stage of the process is important for the tourism planners in order to know what the tourist's decision criteria are when they are reaching this point.

Theorists have come up with diverse models on how the receiver of a message views the value of different kinds of information (Rosengren, 1994). Figure 1 clearly indicates that the tourists are influenced by

different factors before deciding whether or not to undertake the travel, and it can be concluded that the mass media plays an important role in the decision making process. Furthermore, the relationship between the media and the tourism operators can be discussed. According to Hall (2002), tourism operators, on the one hand, are primarily engaging with the media when promoting the TDR. However, in these cases they are only focusing on the positive sides in order to motivate tourists to travel to that specific destination. The mass media, on the other hand have, according to Silverstone (1999), a duty to inform the general public about all types of major events affecting the tourism industry.

The coupes in Fiji can be used to illustrate how media attention can have negative effects on tourist's decision-making process. Both in 1987 and 2000 Fiji experienced episodes of political instability. These events had serious impacts on the tourism industry because of travel warnings published in the mass media (King & Berno, 2002; Singh, 2000). Coup leader Colonel Sitiveni Rabuka overthrew the elected multiracial government in the first coup in 1987. Even though, according to King and Berno (2002, p 49) the coup was a 'bloodless military-dominated takeover', it had an effect on the tourism industry in terms of decreased visitor numbers. The second coup took place in 2000 when a group of political dissidents took hostage over the members of the Cabinet for two months, but failed their attempt in overthrowing the elected multiracial government (Beirman, 2003).

According to King and Berno (2002) the coups in 1987 and 2000 had severe impacts on the Fijian tourism industry, and especially the coup in 2000 became a global media event where images of unrest and violence were broadcast around the globe. As a result of this the visitor arrivals decreased with almost 70 percent in year 2000 (King & Berno, 2002). Findings by Beirman (2003) supports this, and both during and after these events the Fijian Ministry of Tourism and its marketing arm, the Fijian Visitors Bureau, carefully planned campaigns together with airlines and tour operators in order to restore Fiji's tourism industry. According to Singh (2000) the major reason why tourists did not visit Fiji was because of travel warnings and images of unrest published in the media. During the

crises both the Australian and New Zealand governments used the mass media as a communication tool and actively discouraged people to visit Fiji (King & Berno, 2002). These findings are strengthened by Brown and Juneke (2004) who highlights the power government's travel advisories have over individual tourist's decision to travel after disastrous events have happened and the impact these advices have on effected TDRs.

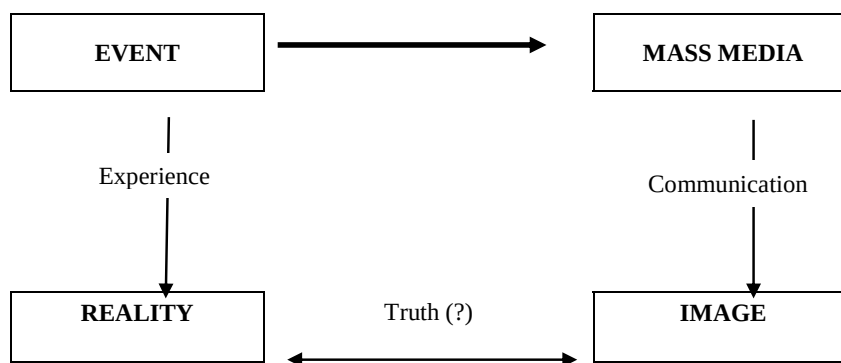
The Fijian case highlights the significance in the role of the media and of government tourism advisories as they are shaping tourism images. According to Beirman (2003) a negative media event can result in considerable economic crises, and for individuals it could result in loss of job and income. However, few tourists think about these consequences when they decide to go for holiday. Their major concern is their own well-being and security (Hall, 2002).

Discussion

The idea that the mass media can influence tourists' in their choice of destination, as well as their perception on a certain TDR, is relatively new (Riley, Baker, & Van Doren, 1998). The traditional way of collecting information has been through travel agencies

or the tourism operators directly, and the tourists have made their decisions based on this information. However, according to Seaton (2003), the trend shows that more people are likely to search for supplementary information also from other sources, and the mass media are seen as credible. The question to argue is whether tourists are influenced by the mass media.

A model created by Lombardi (1990) shows that tourists rely on an 'abstract truth'. According to it there are two major ways of creating a destination image. The first type of image is created through a specific event that the mass media is communicating to the general public. The image that the mass media is creating can be real or not, however, once it is prototyped to the tourists, it is up to the receiver of the message to recall the image when making a choice of holiday destination (Seaton, 2003). The second way that an image can be created is according to Lombardi (1990) through a person's experience. In this case the image is based on an event or experience that a person is a witness of. The image is then supported by reality and truth. Lombardi's theory is showed in Figure 2.



Source: Adapted from Lombardi, 1990

Figure 2: Model of Communication.

Lombardi's model gives a picture that a TDR's image can be created through a real experience, which again leads to a true image. However, it can be argued what the truth is, because it can be perceived in different ways. Understanding how a destination is perceived is fundamental to the image of a TDR. There are several studies that examine this theory of how a destination image is formed, and amongst

the most important are those that discuss the relationship between the image and the tourist's motivation (Baloglu & McLeary, 1999; Milman & Pizam, 1995). However, Gunn (1988) supports Lombardi's (1990) theory by stating that there are two dimensions to a destination's image. The first one is based on the tourist's impression of a TDR without visiting, and in this case different communication channels have

influenced the tourist. The second dimension is 'included', which is formed by visiting the destination. In this case the image is created by the tourist's own perceptions. This theory supports Lombardi's (1990) model of communication; however the created image is based on the tourist's perception, and not described as the 'truth'. To sum up, travellers' perceptions are formed based on their knowledge about a destination from various sources.

Images and the process of creating images can also be explained as a 'mental picturing where pieces of information create individual features and attributes of stimuli' (Echtner & Ritchie, 1991, p 4). This can be related back to the example from the coups in Fiji where images were projected around the world showing a shattered and burning TDR in strong contrast to TDR images of a relaxing and peaceful holiday destination (King & Berno, 2002). Baloglu and McLeary (1999) have developed a model that includes the factors that influence a destination image and the relationship between the various factors. The model focuses on three main factors, which are personal, social and stimulation factors, which again are related to a perception a person have of a TDR, and these perceptual evaluations do have an affect on travel motivation.

The criticised model of communication created by Lombardi (1990) can be used to illustrate how the Foot-and-Mouth disease has had an effect the tourism image in the United Kingdom (UK). During the first half of year 2001 the outbreak of the Foot-and-Mouth disease had severe impacts on the British agricultural sector and caused significant harm to the UK's tourism industry (Beattie, 2001; Scott, Christie, & Midmore, 2004). The British farm industry and rural regions had to face negative consequences for a previously well-marketed tourism infrastructure. According to Reynolds and Balinbin (2003), the intensity and degree of the mass media's coverage resulted in an image of Britain as a country that was damaged by this disease. Findings by Beirman (2003) support this, and explain further that the Foot-and-Mouth disease caused a major downturn in visitor demand, as foreign tourists cancelled trips to the UK. Mass media was contributing to the decrease in tourism, due to the graphic images of burning and slaughtered animals

broadcast around the world (Express Hotelier & Caterer, 2001). As a result of this the overall image of UK as a TDR was severely damaged. However, the way the British Tourist Authority's reacted to the crises of the Foot-and-Mouth disease is interesting. Instead of only using communication channels like television, newspapers and radio that already had contributed in creating the less appealing tourism image of the country, the British Tourist Authority was one of the first in the world to use the Internet to change the image (Reynolds & Balinbin, 2003). With this tool the British Tourist Authority explained the 'real' situation, and actually managed to create a truthful image without using other mass media as communicators. The Internet-pages played an important role in the management of Britain's marketing during and after the tourism crisis (Express Hotelier & Caterer, 2001).

As illustrated in Figure 2 and in the example from the UK, it is evident that the use of mass media can create a 'wrong' perception on a destination. According to Lombardi (1990), people believe what they see, hear and read in the media. The general public view the media as an important authority on the same level as government warnings (Hall, 2002). When looking at this issue historically it is important to note that it is especially in recent years that the mass media has had a significantly increasing role as a communication tool. The mass media has given a new importance to the society because it is a source people tend to trust. Mansfeld points out that 'one of the main problems facing destinations that were hit by tourism crises resulting from security turmoil is the evolving negative image. Because tourists do not tend to thoroughly check the reality behind conveyed images, these images become highly biased and distorted' (1999, p. 31)

According to Machin (2000), the media gives popular representations of what is going on in the world. Seen in a historical perspective, this has undoubtedly had an impact on people in most developed cultures, as well as it has had an enormous influence on the TDR's images (Machin, 2000). Also illustrated in the examples from Fiji and UK, it is clear that some travellers are influenced by the mass media, and that they use it as an educational tool to learn about the wider society (Silverstone, 1999).

This supports Beirman's (2003) argument that reported incidents, like the terrorist attacks on September 11, have had negative effects on the evolution of the global society, as well as tourism images.

Depending on whom the news is affecting, one of the major advantages or disadvantages with mass media as a communication tool is that it is seen as credible (Hsu & Powers, 2002). This means that news written by a neutral third party is seen as reliable, while an advertisement or commercial presents an image from the advertiser's point of view. 'Bad' news presented in the media is therefore seen by the audience as objective and factual (Beirman, 2003, p 12). This publicity can be seen as a hazard for tourism operators because it is only the editorial staff of the mass media that control it. In some cases the communicated message is presented in a vague and incomprehensible way, and this may confuse the audience and create problems for the tourism operators (Baloglu & McLeary, 1999). In some cases, according to Hsu and Powers (2002) the media also make a situation worse than it actually is. This happens when the editorial staffs chooses to humiliate a tourist operation or publish a story with negative attributes in some other way.

The paradox is that both the tourism operators and the mass media are dealing with the same target group, the general public. However, a clever tourism operator will learn how to deal with the mass media and use it as a part of their marketing strategy (Seaton, 2003). One way to do this is to follow Fall's (2004) suggestion and put a greater focus on public relations activities rather than direct advertising. News that can have an effect on a TDR image has captured front-page headings during the last years, and tourists are not only motivated by stories from glossy brochures, but they are searching for a third party's opinion about the TDR (Nielsen, 2001).

According to Hsu and Powers (2002), the mass media is an effective communication tool because it reaches a wide and enthusiastic audience, and there is no doubt that tourism has achieved a special status in the news. However, many regions suffer from bad publicity, even if many years have passed since anything was last reported from the region. Few Australians would, for example, consider Belfast in North Ireland

as a cheerful city full of character, with people that are warm and friendly. The coverage of unrest by the mass media has discouraged tourists to travel to North Ireland (Brunton, 1995). The media has drawn a picture of Belfast as an unsafe place to travel to, and according to Hall (Hall, 2002), it is human nature to prefer to travel to places that are perceived as safe.

Sonmez, Apostolopoulos, & Tarlow suggest that TDRs in areas affected by unrest should incorporate crisis management in their overall strategies in order to construct and protect the image of the destination. This should be done in order to have the capabilities needed to manage peoples opinions before during and after unrest has taken place in the TDR for the mass media (1999, p. 3). Richter furthers this point by stressing that: 'rebuilding tourism requires more than repairs and promotion. A one-size-fits-all mentality will not do. Just as the sources of instability and their manifestations will differ, so too will the appropriate responses' (1999, p. 41). What she suggests is that managers in the tourist industry start to look more holistically at their practices and appreciate the fact that they are a part of an industry vulnerable to negative publicity. To manage a TDR effectively does not just mean that the product is enjoyable to visitors but also that it is secure (Richter, 1999).

Conclusions and Implications

The aim of this paper was to discuss the relationship between tourism and the effects of negative media events. Overall, the main objective of the mass media is to communicate news to the general public. The mass media has in this paper been defined as a third party that tourists are likely to trust, and they are therefore influenced by the mass media in their decision-making process. Although tourists have different perceptions and motivational factors, it can be proven from this paper that the mass media plays a paramount role in travel behaviour because it is affecting the tourist's decisions. However, further research is needed to establish the extent to which the tourism experience is shaped by the mass media.

The popularity and desirability of a specific TDR is influenced by different 'pull' and 'push' factors as explained in the 'Travel Motivations and Tourists' Decisions Making Model', Figure 1. This model can be used as

a basis for tourism operators to understand traveller's decision-making process and be able to meet future demands. Operators are equally reminded of the fact that tourist's perception of destinations is formed through the dialectic of different narratives in the society. By learning how to use the mass media to the advantage of the destination, a positive perception is possible to create.

This paper was limited to discuss the role of the mass media, its effect on traveller's decisions and how a TDR image is created. Nevertheless, tourism operators can use the frameworks presented in this paper to strategically prepare themselves for how to restore tourists' confidence in a destination after a major crises, and how to strengthen a positive image before negative events have occurred.

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Reshaping the Destination to Fit the Film Image: Western Films and Tourism at Lone Pine, California

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Abstract

Lone Pine is a small town in the eastern Sierra Nevada of California. It has been the location for over 300 films. In this paper I use Lone Pine as a case study to examine three aspects of the relationship between film and destination image which have previously been scarcely considered in the literature. The first aspect is the role of Western films in shaping tourists' images and expectations of the western USA. Second, in multiple-film locations, such as Lone Pine, the development of an image is evolutionary rather than revolutionary. Third, reacting to what has been projected in films, Lone Pine has reshaped itself as a Western-style town with a Western heritage.

Introduction

The Alabama Hills. They remind you of the Khyber Pass in India. And Texas and Arizona and Utah and Nevada. Even Old Mexico and Peru and Argentina. That's because they've played all those parts and more during their 70-year Hollywood career (Holland, 1990: 4).

The small town of Lone Pine in California is the site of one of the most audacious and unusual thefts in history. At the beginning of the twentieth century the Owens River flowing from the eastern Sierra Nevada was earmarked for a federal irrigation scheme. However, in 1904 a group of prominent business leaders, operating through the City of Los Angeles, began purchasing farms and the attached rights to irrigation water. This water was then pumped nearly 400 kilometres south to fuel the rapid suburban expansion of Los Angeles, leaving Lone Pine an arid wasteland (Reisner, 1986: 61-100).

While Los Angeles stole Lone Pine's water and agricultural potential, it gave the small town Hollywood in return. From 1920 onwards films were made in the town and surrounding hills. In his 1990 guidebook Dave Holland listed 152 films and eleven television series filmed on location around Lone Pine, but added that details of 1920s and 1930s films were incomplete (1990: 92-6). Further research has uncovered these earlier films, and at least 355 films are now known to have been made at Lone Pine (Lone Pine Film Festival, 2004). Such a number is double that made on the 'Movie Railroad' at Jamestown, on the western side of the Sierra Nevada to Lone Pine (Frost,

2004B; Railtown 1897 State Historic Park, 2004), but less than those made at 'Movie Ranches' on the suburban fringe of Los Angeles (Rothel, 1990).

However, film-making in Lone Pine eventually declined. Whereas 56 films were made in the 1940s, 32 were made in the 1950s, 10 in the 1960s, two in the 1970s and three in the 1980s, before a small recovery with 18 in the 1990s and 13 since 2000 (Holland, 1990: 94-5; Lone Pine Film Festival, 2004). As film declined, Lone Pine turned towards tourism. On the major highway linking Los Angeles to Lake Tahoe and northern Nevada, Lone Pine is close to the natural attractions of Mount Whitney (highest mountain in the contiguous USA) and Death Valley. Significantly, tourism promotion has now emphasised its heritage as a film location. However, rather than focussing on the wide range of films made at Lone Pine, its destination image has been based on the Western films made there. Indeed, reflecting upon these movies, Lone Pine has reshaped itself as a Western town.

Film and Destination Image

Discussions of the role of film in developing destination images have primarily focussed on single productions which have radically transformed tourism to destinations. For example, Riley et al (1998) demonstrated how *Thelma and Louise* increased visitation to Canyonlands and Arches National Park in Utah, *Last of the Mohicans* brought tourists to Chimney Rock Park in North Carolina and *Field of Dreams* created a successful tourist attraction out of an Iowa cornfield. Other studies primarily considering the impacts of individual films and television

series include those by Beeton (2001 and 2004); Busby and Klug (2001); Croy and Walker (2003); Frost (2004A, 2004B & 2004C); Kim and Richardson (2003); Tooke and Baker (1996) and Winter (2002). Such revolutionary transformations often have significant economic benefits for rural communities suffering from declining traditional industries (Croy and Walker, 2003).

However, the film industry is not constructed on individual films, but on related groups of films. These groupings may be based on genre or theme, directors or star actors. The expectations of potential filmgoers will be guided by their prior knowledge, a like or dislike of, for example: science fiction films, the director Steven Spielberg or the actor John Wayne. Most importantly, many films are shot at a small number of established locations, either due to their scenic or cultural qualities, availability of infrastructure or cheaper costs. Often used locations include major cities such as New York, London and Paris. In recent years a number of cities such as Melbourne, Vancouver and Prague have specialised in *runaway productions*, taking advantage of their cheaper costs and ability to look like other locations. Such *multiple-films locations* have hardly been considered in the literature linking film to the development of destination image and tourism. An important exception is Sargent's 1998 study of the *Darcy Effect*, that is, how multiple films and television series based on the works of Jane Austen and her contemporaries have been used to increase visitation to National Trust properties featured in these productions.

This use of a location for multiple films increases the complexity of the process of destination image development and management. A single film projects a single image, but multiple films project different attributes and views. Different visitors may be influenced by different films and expect to see *their* image. This potential for conflict may be greater if the location has been used to represent different places or in different types of films. Tourism operators within the destination may wish to shape the destination's image to fit that projected in films, though they may also have conflicting views as to which films and images should be focussed on.

This paper considers Lone Pine as a case study of a multiple-film location which has successfully developed as a small-scale rural tourism destination. I argue that Lone Pine has been successful in selecting a destination image to project which is based on Western image to project which is based on Western films. Even though Westerns were only one genre of films made at Lone Pine and the town is arguably not in the West, the image and heritage of the town (including its physical fabric) has been reshaped as that of the Wild West.

Western film and the Western tradition

The period of the Wild West may be loosely defined as between 1860 and 1890. Even at this time, the media was providing hungry audiences in the east and Europe with a romanticised mythic image of the West. Buffalo Bill Cody was popularised through the *dime novels* of Ned Buntline, which ultimately led to the extensive touring of Buffalo Bill's Wild West Show (Carter, 2000). In that show Native Americans 'performed in New York and London while others fought their last battles in the deserts and mountains, or starved on their reservations' (Calder, 1974: xi). The enduring legend of Jesse James was due to James' success in convincing contemporary newspaper correspondents that he was an heroic southern rebel rather than just a bank and train robber (Stiles, 2002: 207-226). In the twentieth century, film and television became the main shapers of the Western image, though novels, music, children's play and toys, events (particularly rodeos) and tourism also contributed (Hitt, 1990; McGrath, 2001; Penaloza, 2001; Stanfield, 1996).

The appeal of Western films and the West extends well-beyond its geographical area, being particularly strong in the eastern USA, South America, Europe, Japan and Australia (Calder, 1974: xiii; Fenin and Everson, 1977; McGrath, 2001; Penaloza, 2001: 369). While the Western landscape may be attractive, it is the stories and personalities, the romance, the *myth* of the West which dominates both films and the image of the West. This mythic image has three overlapping components.

First, Westerns are 'America's unique contribution to that body of mythic lore familiar to most of the human race' (Pilkington and Graham, 1979: 1). However,

while unique, Westerns refer to, and are in the tradition of, widely known romantic myths and stories such as Greek epics and medieval knighthood (Coyne, 1997: 8; Peary, 1982: 235-6; Pilkington and Graham, 1979: 1; Stiles, 2002: 224). Furthermore, Westerns follow mythic conventions by portraying the battle between 'good' and 'evil' (Calder, 1974: 37). As such, most Westerns are concerned about battles between human adversaries, with the environment as a setting rather than a protagonist. In adopting the patterns of such universal stories, Westerns extend their appeal both within and beyond America.

Second, while Westerns are set in an historic period, historical accuracy is highly fluid. As Rosenstone noted of historical romances in general, film-makers tend to concentrate on getting the historical image right, and 'as long as you get the look right, you may [then] freely invent characters and incidents and do whatever you want to the past to make it more interesting' (1995: 60). One of the most celebrated 'inventors' was John Ford, who in *My Darling Clementine* (1946) constructed a fictional story around the real-life personage of Wyatt Earp and then proceeded in *Fort Apache* (1948) to portray an accurate version of the Battle of Little Big Horn, but with fictional characters and setting (Hutton, 1992; McBride, 2003: 431).

Nonetheless, even though such disregard for authenticity is widely known, it is accepted and enjoyed by audiences as part of the Western myth, and 'no amount of elucidation of the facts will destroy the myth' (Calder, 1974: xii).

Third, a significant motif in the Western is the 'good' bad man, the outcast or outlaw who rights wrongs, but can find no place in society. In many cases the spread of civilisation, particularly the closing of the frontier, has displaced the hero and the Wild West values he represents (Calder, 1974: 18-21; Coyne, 1997: 5-6). Such themes of alienation and the evils of modernity have a broad appeal, particularly in times of rapid change. The universality of the outlaw myth extends the appeal of the Western and is reflected in a range of popular outlaw films and writings throughout the world (for Australian examples, see Beeton 2004; Frost 2004A & Frost 2004B).

Western film has allowed the wide-scale consumption of the Western myth. As Hollywood churned out Westerns a range of places evolved as film locations. Indeed a pattern developed of filmmakers primarily using a limited range of familiar locations. Table 1 (over page) lists some of these locations and their characteristics. Lone Pine was but one of these competing locations.

Table 1: Multiple-film Western locations

Name	First film	Location	Features	Current status
Big Bear	c1910	Sierra Nevada foothills	Pine forests and mountains. Often substitutes for Canada or Alaska	Holiday area, little used
Iverson Movie Ranch	1912	Outside Los Angeles	Rocky hills and town set. It is claimed that 3,000 films were made here	Housing estate
Melody Ranch	1915	Outside Los Angeles	Town set. Various owners included Gene Autry	Burnt in 1962 fire
Jamestown	1919	Sierra Nevada foothills	Sierra Railway	State Park. Still used
Lone Pine	1920	East of Sierra Nevada	Rocky hills. Mountains and desert	Still used
Monument Valley	1925*	Utah	Desert scenery dominated by spectacular mesas. Closely associated with John Ford. Local Navaho used as actors	Still used
Corriganville	1937	Outside Los Angeles	Rocky hills, town set, Fort Apache set. Operated as a theme park 1949-1966	Fire in 1970. Now a regional park
Old Tuscon	1940	Tuscon, Arizona	Built as a film set, developed as theme park	Still used
Pioneertown	1949	Palm Springs	Town built as a western location by a Hollywood syndicate	Now a real town. Not used
Alamo Village	1953	Texas	Town and Alamo Mission set	Still used
Golden Oak Ranch	1960	Outside Los Angeles	Town set owned and used by Disney	Still used
Eaves Ranch	1970	Santa Fe, New Mexico	Town set	Still used
Cook Ranch	1985	Santa Fe, New Mexico	Town set	Still used

Sources: Rothel, 1990. (* Rothel gives first film as 1939, but McBride, 2003: 288 lists earlier productions.)

Lone Pine as a film location

The prime attraction of Lone Pine to Hollywood was the Alabama Hills. Arid and rocky, they provided a spectacular backdrop to many action films. In addition, other nearby mountains and desert plains were utilised. A generic arid landscape, Lone Pine

could be used to represent a wide range of geographical settings. This diversity is demonstrated in the list of major films shot at Lone Pine in Table 2. In particular, it is notable how Hollywood used this location to represent India.

Table 2: Major films at Lone Pine

Year	Film	Star	Setting
1934	<i>Lives of a Bengal lancer</i>	Gary Cooper	19 th Century India
1936	<i>Charge of the Light Brigade</i>	Errol Flynn	19 th Century India and Crimea
1939	<i>Gunga Din</i>	Cary Grant	19 th Century India
1941	<i>High Sierra</i>	Humphrey Bogart	Contemporary
1949	<i>Samson and Delilah</i>	Victor Mature	Biblical
1950	<i>Kim</i>	Errol Flynn	19 th Century India
1951	<i>Along the Great Divide</i>	Kirk Douglas	Western
1953	<i>King of the Khyber Rifles</i>	Tyrone Power	19 th Century India
1955	<i>Bad day at Black Rock</i>	Spencer Tracy	Contemporary
1960	<i>North to Alaska</i>	John Wayne	Gold-Rush Alaska
1962	<i>How the West was won</i>	Gregory Peck	Western
1972	<i>Joe Kidd</i>	Clint Eastwood	Western
1989	<i>Tremors</i>	Kevin Bacon	Science Fiction
1989	<i>Star Trek V (also Star Trek VII in 1995)</i>	William Shatner	Science Fiction
1992	<i>Kalifornia</i>	Brad Pitt	Contemporary
1994	<i>Maverick</i>	Mel Gibson	Western
2000	<i>Gladiator</i>	Russell Crowe	Ancient Rome

Sources: Holland, 1990; Lone Pine Film Festival, 2004.

While Lone Pine was used for a variety of settings in major movies, most movies filmed there, perhaps 300, were B grade Westerns made between 1920 and 1950. These included productions starring Tom Mix, Hoot Gibson, Ken Maynard, William Boyd (Hopalong Cassidy), Gene Autry, Roy Rogers, Tim Holt and Randolph Scott. Cheaply produced and relying on stock characterisations and plots, few of these received any critical appreciation, the exception being the 1950s films directed by Budd Boetticher (Dibb, 1996; Kitses, 1970). However, many of these were immensely popular, both in first release and then later on television.

In filming at Lone Pine, Hollywood took advantage of the support of the local community. With agriculture declining due to water shortages, local people saw films as an important source of income. Russ Spainhower, a local rancher, became the key supplier of livestock and western equipment to the film companies. Local authorities provided construction crews on request and town buildings were modified as required (Holland, 1990: 20-3 & 74; Rothel, 1990: 70-80). Such established contacts drastically reduced the costs of filming and increased the attractiveness of filming at Lone Pine. Such co-operation was partially built on Los Angeles' control of the area, for example the key location man Spainhower came to Lone Pine as a foreman with the Los Angeles Department of Power and Water (Holland, 1990: 22).

While the scenery at Lone Pine is dramatic, there were many arid and rocky locations much closer to Hollywood. Furthermore, some actors found the conditions on location primitive. Errol Flynn complained that the accommodation was poor, the weather freezing cold and the food gruesome (Flynn, 1961: 184). Why then was Lone Pine so popular? From the earliest days of film, Westerns were one of the few genres which were given freedom of location by studio executives (Dickinson, 1971: 85). Filming on location allowed directors to escape financial and artistic control. Many stars enjoyed Lone Pine for its outdoor life, hunting and fishing and break from the city (Rothel, 1990: 63; see also McBride, 2003: 102 & 419). Some found that the town offered less wholesome pursuits away from the prying eyes of Hollywood. During Prohibition Lone Pine was noted for its

bootleggers and brothels catering for the film-makers (Rothel, 1990: 69; see also McBride, 2003: 149).

Heritage and tourism in Lone Pine

Heritage and tourism in Lone Pine is projected primarily in terms of film. Its chief attraction is the Alabama Hills on the outskirts of town. Relatively undeveloped, it has no on-site interpretation or walking tracks, though guides and maps are freely available in town. It is in Lone Pine that tourism development is found. Since 1990 it has held the annual Lone Pine Film Festival in October, a community project organised by 500 local people. Its core event is a programme of films made in Lone Pine. Other activities in the festival include parades, concerts, barbecues, discussion panels and guided tours of locations. Much of the appeal is in the presence of actors and film-makers who worked at Lone Pine. For example, the 2004 festival includes panels of both stuntmen and children of the stars (Lone Pine Film Festival, 2004). The incorporation of film heritage into this small town's annual festival gives Lone Pine a distinctive destination image. None of the other twelve Western locations listed in Figure 1 has developed a film festival, though Jamestown uses film as the background for its two events: the Movie Railroad Days and Gunfighters' Rendezvous.

Revenue from the Film Festival is directed towards the establishment of a film museum. By 2001 \$US230,000 had been raised and was used to purchase a site on the main highway. Construction is scheduled to commence in 2004 (Lone Pine Film History Museum, 2004). Film memorabilia figures prominently inside a range of tourism-related businesses, including restaurants, hotels, motels and bar. These restaurants and bars are used as venues for the Film Festival and for accommodation operators it provides an out-of-season peak. The State of California's Interagency Visitors Center, while primarily concerned with nature-based tourism and recreation, features interpretation on film heritage. The close link between natural and cultural heritage is illustrated by the premier scenic drive – the Mt Whitney Portal Road, also being routed through the Alabama Hills and numerous film locations. A further feature of the area is that films are still being made and that the local county is active in seeking to attract

films (Inyo County Film Commission, 2004).

In developing tourism built on its film heritage, Lone Pine has chosen to reshape itself in terms of Westerns. While most major films made at Lone Pine were set in other areas, it is the B Westerns that have come to represent the town. As Rothel noted in visiting a local restaurant, their display of famous actors included only those from B Westerns and excluded those who made big-budget films (1990: 67). The physical fabric of the town has been altered to portray a Western image. The Dow Hotel was built in 1923 in the then fashionable Spanish Mission style. However, now it has been clad in clapboards to present a frontier image (Holland, 1990: 78). The local McDonalds is also clad in weathered clapboard rather than in the conventional corporate style (Lone Pine Chamber of Commerce, 2004). However, in reshaping itself as a Western town, Lone Pine may face problems in the long term. Many of its tourists are of the older generation, nostalgic for the B Westerns of their youth. Given that the popularity of Westerns has been in decline for over thirty years, it may be increasingly difficult to attract younger tourists.

In adopting this Western image, other aspects of Lone Pine's history, such as the Gold Rushes and the battle with Los Angeles over the water from the Owens River, are marginalised. Hewison's conclusion that English heritage attractions promoted 'fantasies of a world that never was' (1987: 10) could easily be applied to Lone Pine.

In this respect, comparisons with the small town of Bodie, 260 kilometres north, are instructive. Bodie is one of the world's remaining Gold Rush gems, with well-preserved buildings and streetscapes in spectacular mountains at an altitude of 3,000 metres. Yet, like Lone Pine, Bodie is wrapped in a mythic blanket. It is promoted as a ghost town where time has stood still since it was abandoned. However, in truth it has inhabitants, some its houses have subtly disguised garages and gas cylinders and the buildings are managed, protected and repaired by California State Parks (De Lyser, 1999). Nevertheless it is the image of a 'real' ghost town which prevails, brings in tourists and benefits the nearby service centre of Bridgport.

Furthermore, Bodie is often described as having been used in movies, though this is not so. This confusion partially arises from Bodie looking like the town sets in movies such as *Shane*, *The Good, the Bad and the Ugly* and *Pale Rider* (which may indeed have been based on Bodie). De Lyser reports that it is common to hear visitors whistling the theme from *The Good, the Bad and the Ugly* and argues that 'many visitors and staff experience not Bodie's actual past, but filmic notions of the mythic West inspired by and projected onto Bodie's landscape' (1999: 611).

Conclusion

As a small rural town, Lone Pine needed to develop a destination image that would attract tourists and provide revenue for local businesses. Failure to attract tourists, as in many small rural towns, will lead to population loss and economic decline. In seeking its destination image, Lone Pine competes with scores of small towns across California. Many of these competitors share the same sort of attributes as Lone Pine, for example, a history as a Gold Rush town. To succeed Lone Pine requires a competitive advantage, a destination image that distinguishes it from the others and gives tourists a reason to visit.

Lone Pine has achieved this through developing a twofold image. First, as a town which has a history of films being made. That Lone Pine is surrounded by photogenic scenery reinforces the concept that filmmakers found something special there. Second, Lone Pine has adopted an image as a Western town, based on the majority of films made there (though ignoring quite a number of major films). This choice of the West has allowed Lone Pine to take advantage of a vast and persuasive mythic image.

This destination image has evolved over time, as the body of films shot at Lone Pine has continued to grow. No one film has had a revolutionary effect, dramatically transforming the town into a tourist destination. Nor has any one film become the key one associated with the town.

Furthermore the town has not been a passive recipient of a film-induced tourism *cargo* dropped into their laps. The link between film and visitation has been developed by the local community, particularly through the running of an annual film festival. Such

active effort has made the difference between a small town with an interesting history and a small destination with a vibrant, attractive and enduring image.

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The Media and the Development of the Tourism Industry During the 20th and 21st Centuries: An Analysis of Four Noteworthy Cases

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Abstract

The aim of this paper was to explore the role of the media within the context of tourism, specifically with regard to how the media has influenced the activities and perceptions of the tourism sector. In this paper, the term 'media' is referred to as mass communication, specifically with regard to newspapers, magazines and broadcasting. It is important to gain a better understanding of the ways in which the media has interacted with the tourism sector, as this information can provide practitioners and academics with insights as to how the media can best be employed to benefit stakeholders of the tourism industry. Lessons can be learned from the past so that the experience gained from it can contribute to best practice in the future. In this way, strategies can be developed to minimise the vulnerability of the tourism sector to damaging or erroneous portrayals of it and its activities in the media.

The case study method was used to explore the role of the media within the context of tourism. Four case studies provided insights on this topic. The four case studies were selected based on their diversity, within the context of the tourism sector, and because they covered a considerable period of time. These variables provided the researchers with a wide-ranging perspective on the topic.

The paper firstly focuses on the 1920's Waiters' Strike in the resort town of San Sebastián, Spain, and discusses the role of the media in relation to this event. The second case investigates the use of the media as a destination-marketing tool and reflects on an early manipulation of this process by the German authorities in the documentary *Olympia*, a film produced for the summer Olympics in 1936. The third case study reports on the manner in which the media has created tensions between connoisseurs of fine food and drink and hospitality industry professionals, and its subsequent implications on service quality. The final case investigates the role of the media in reducing demand for hospitality services in Melbourne on New Year's Eve 2000.

Through an analysis of these diverse, but important case studies, it can be seen that the media has had, and continues to have, an impact on the development of the tourism industry in both positive and negative ways. The limitations of this research are discussed and recommendations are made for further research that will assist in developing a more comprehensive typology of the media's role in tourism.

Introduction

Although much has been written about the role of movies and film in the development of tourism attractions and destinations (Tooke & Baker 1996; Riley, Baker & Van Doren 1998; Parsai, 2001; Beeton 2003; Müller 2004; Michael, Brown & Michael, 2004), little research has attempted to synthesise the role of the media in the development of the tourism sector on a broader level. The aim of this study is to gain an understanding of the influence of the media within the context of tourism on this level. In this paper, the term 'media' refers

to mass communication, specifically with regard to newspapers, magazines and broadcasting. The study explored the diverse role of the media in this process over an extended period, spanning from the early 20th century into the new millennium.

It is important to gain a better understanding of the ways in which the media has interacted with the tourism sector, as this information can provide practitioners and academics with insights as to how the media can best be employed to benefit stakeholders of the tourism sector. Lessons can be learned from the past so that the experience gained

from it can contribute to best practice in the future. In this way, strategies can be developed to cushion the tourism industry from damaging or erroneous portrayals of the tourism product.

Research approach

The study employed case study methodology which was appropriate given that case studies are '... undertaken because one wants a better understanding of this case ... because in all its particularity and ordinariness, this case itself is of interest' (Stake 1994, p.237).

In order, to highlight the variety of ways in which the media has had an impact on the development of the tourism industry, however, this paper explores, analyses and reflects upon four individual cases within this context. This approach to analysis serves to reinforce and corroborate the findings (Huberman & Miles 1984) and is referred to as a collective case study (Kozal 1991). Yin (1988) noted that this approach is particularly appropriate when the research to be conducted will focus on contemporary situations, does not require control over behavioural events and where the form of the research question is how or why. Moreover, Strauss and Corbin (1990) assert that such inductive processes are particularly appropriate '...to uncover and understand what lies behind any phenomenon about which little yet is known' (p.19). In this study, tourism refers to the broad industry that encompasses travel and hospitality.

Four specific cases studies were selected because they provide information on a cross-section of the tourism industry. The cases were also selected because: 1) they cover an extensive period of time (a little over 80 years); and 2) they highlight the diverse roles of the media with regard to the activities, and subsequent development, of the tourism industry. Each of the four case studies, which are presented in chronological order, are notable because they either highlight the consequences of media intervention or a perceived distortion of the event under investigation.

Case Study One: The 1920's Waiters' Strike, San Sebastián, Spain.

San Sebastián is a Spanish coastal town, located on the Basque border. Since the 12th century, the town has been victim to a number of sieges and, at times, was

occupied by the French. During the 18th century, San Sebastián was burned to the ground, when Anglo-Portuguese seized the city from the French, but by the 1840's, Queen Isabel II of Spain resided in San Sebastián, during the summer, which was the catalyst for the city's rejuvenation. Indeed, the port city became a pioneer in the installation of trams, electric street lighting and telephones. By 1925, the city's population was 65,930, which was triple its population almost 40 years earlier (Anon.a, 2004).

From the late 1880's, San Sebastián was one of Spain's two most popular seaside resorts. San Sebastián directly competed with San Marco for domestic tourists from Madrid, and for international tourists from a number of countries, including France and South Africa. Considered to be a more elite destination than San Marco, San Sebastián drew upon its association with Spanish Royalty, and the Queen's residence was a major tourist attraction in itself.

In order to become an elite resort destination, San Sebastián experienced substantial socio-economic changes during the 1900-1930's, but this was set within the broader context of the corresponding changes in Spain's socio-economic transformation. There were a number of political factions in Spain during the 1900-1930's, including socialist and anarchist groups, militant Catholics and Basque nationalists. In San Sebastián, these political factions were represented by a range of newspapers, that reported and commented on tourism development in the resort. Walton (2000) notes that:

the dominant discourse in the most visible San Sebastián media emphasized the resort as a vehicle for the civilising processes associated with sustaining a secure and comfortable environment for the wealthy visitors and with the introduction and assimilation of new standards of consumption and polite behaviour from the European high society (p.1).

Walton (2000), however, also identified that there were contrary reports and opinions on the development of the tourism industry, and its impact on the San Sebastián community, in the local media, despite being less conspicuous than those positive views of the situation in the more popular press of that time. For example, *La Constantia*, a

republican oriented newspaper, reported on the seedier side of tourism development in San Sebastián. These reports focussed on the levels of prostitution; the negative attitudes and behaviours of the local residents towards tourists; the dichotomy that was developing between the rich and the poor; and the impact of the casino, which was dubbed the 'Our Lady of the Roulette'. The government did not support this type of commentary, as it leaned its support to the development of tourism in the port city.

One major incident, or event, that took place in San Sebastián was the Waiters' Strike of 1920. This strike, and the manner in which it was reported, provides insights into the potential of the local media in developing tourism in the resort. Before its economy was supported by tourism, San Sebastián was largely an industrial town, and the 'face' of the tourism industry for many of its residents were the *camereros*, or the waiters. The *camereros* were well-paid compared to many of the residents, hence the idea of them striking for better wages and conditions was viewed rather negatively by the local community. For the government, however, the issue was that the *camereros* were striking at the peak of the holiday season. This was a concern in itself, not only because of the short-term impacts, but also because of the long-term negative impacts that the strike may have on the destination's image and, ultimately, the development of tourism. According to Walton (2000) and Walton and Smith (1994), what transpired was a plethora of reports in a cross-section of the local media, specifically newspapers. The reports seem to reflect extreme views in that they either 1) support the waiters in their efforts; or 2) downplay their power and their impact on tourism in San Sebastián. Indeed, there seems to be an underlying national political agenda attached to the strike, which may have influenced its exposure in the media. Walton and Smith (1994) analysed the strike in detail and their conclusion was that 'in the long run ... the events of August 1920, did not in themselves make much difference to the trajectory of the San Sebastián's development as a resort' (p.30). Although it is inconclusive, it appears that the power of the government in controlling the content and frequency of the media reports about the impact of the strike on tourism services in San Sebastián has obscured much of the 'voice' of the San

Sebastián local community in relation to tourism development in this town.

Case Study Two: Special events and the quest for media coverage

Special events have been one way in which governments have promoted cities as tourist destinations (Avraham 2000). Using mega-events, in particular, as part of such a strategy is appealing because of the high levels of television coverage and viewer numbers that they command. The telecast of mega-events provides unique opportunities to portray host cities or nations as attractive tourist destinations. Indeed, Hall (1989) asserts that special events, particularly mega-events, can change how host destinations are perceived and that they can provide the new 'middle class tourist' with the impetus to visit the destination in the future. Currently, mega-events are afforded a considerable amount of sustained media coverage, whilst the number of people viewing mega-events, particularly on the television, has grown substantially during the last decade (Chalip, Green & Hill 2003). In 2003, for example, the telecast of the World Rugby Cup attracted an audience of more than four billion people worldwide (Anon., 2004).

McDaniel (2002), McDaniel and Chalip (2002) and Chalip, Green and Hill (2003) have conducted research on the relationships between mega-events, media consumption, tourism and consumers. McDaniel (2002), for example, explored the role of consumer characteristics on viewing the network coverage of the 1996 Summer Olympics. Chalip et al. (2003) employed an experimental design approach; to capture the overall telecast of the Honda Indy 300 as well as to test its impact on a sample of students' by presenting them with images of the host destination.

These studies have not only highlighted the comprehensive nature of television coverage, or the telecast, of mega-events, but have also reported on the levels and frequency of coverage of the host destination - its landscape, attractions, culture and people. It was found, for example, that as well as images of Sydney Harbour being catapulted into homes around the globe via the telecast of the 2000 Summer Olympic Games, many other aspects of Australia were conveyed to viewers, including other destinations and available tourist activities

around the nation. This has led Chalip, Green and Vander Velden (2000) to argue that it may be the associated meanings of sports events that are the core of their product, rather than the sports themselves.

The use of special events in destination marketing strategies is underpinned by a range of marketing theories and concepts. Kim, Allen, and Kardes (1996) noted that in the case of television advertising, in particular, associating visual imagery with a brand [i.e. a destination] is an important component of eliciting affective responses in consumers with regard to that brand. Further, Priluck and Till (2004) suggested that much of the advertising on television, pairs products with pleasant stimuli such as agreeable images and enjoyable music aimed at evoking positive responses to the stimuli. It is further acknowledged that the growing use of the telecast of special events in sponsorship marketing campaigns (Crompton, 1995) has also influenced the overall use of this form of marketing communication in relation to destinations with regard to tourism.

Predating these important studies, but no doubt with a view to capitalising on some of the benefits outlined above, the German authorities commissioned a documentary based on the 1936 summer Olympic games in Berlin, "Olympia". Produced by Leni Riefenstahl, Germany's official documenter, "Olympia" is probably one of the most controversial films in relation to special events. Although, "Olympia" was not specifically commissioned to develop or enhance tourism to Berlin or Germany *per se*, it portrayed positive images of Berlin and Germany to manipulate viewers' perceptions of Germany and, no doubt, the Nazi regime. Indeed some critics of the film have suggested that the documentary was part of the Nazi Party's propaganda campaign (United States Holocaust Memorial Museum). A major criticism, for example, is that Berlin's image was 'sanitised' for the 1936 Games. Certainly, much of the commentary on the making of "Olympia" indicates that anti-Semitic signage around the city was removed shortly before both the staging of the Games and the filming of the documentary.

Case Study Three: Epicurean magazines and hospitality industry magazines

A number of epicurean magazines have emerged in the past few decades, with the most notable of these being *Vogue Entertaining* and *Gourmet*. Although few studies have been conducted into the impact of these publications on the industry and its customers, Fattorini (1994) has found deep disparity in the content of the messages that are presented to consumers and industry employees. Asserting that consumers read epicurean publications, while industry employees rely on hospitality trade magazines, Fattorini contends that this has contributed to tensions between those who work in restaurants and those who dine in them. His conclusion is based on an analysis of the content of these two different types of publications as well as the manner in which the content is presented to their audiences.

Differences are immediately evident in the presentation of these publications. Hospitality trade journals, for example, generally conform to a standard layout, which Fattorini suggested is attributed to the fact that much of the copy is product advertising. Many of the products that are advertised, such as expensive cooking equipment, sophisticated point of purchase software or employee training courses, require the decision of management to purchase them. Consequently, the target audience of trade magazines is generally decision-makers holding management positions within the industry and very little of the material in these publications is directed towards front-line employees. In contrast, Fattorini (1994) proposes that epicurean magazines are targeted at middle class audiences with relatively high disposable incomes. The information presented in epicurean magazines is designed to educate this audience to the latest trends in food and wine, often set within the context of better-quality restaurants.

One of the major issues associated with Epicurean magazines is that they generally portray the hospitality industry as a glamorous environment in which to work. Concentrating more on photographic value rather than any sense of reality, chefs are regularly pictured, in their pristine uniforms, sitting leisurely with a glass of wine or a cup of coffee at a table in their restaurant.

Indeed, some of the most recent images of chefs in epicurean magazines are quite artistic. Moreover, the magazines seem to be intent on presenting images of professional chefs who oversee well-managed businesses. In contrast, within hospitality trade magazines, there is very little attention afforded to chefs, or waiters the main emphasis being on white-collared management personnel.

Although both epicurean magazines and hospitality trade journals dedicate sections to recipes, the recipes published in epicurean magazines generally include expensive, or unusual, ingredients. This is an attempt to imbue a level of sophistication, based on the exotic nature of ingredients, to dishes that are often simplistic in terms of the preparation and cooking procedures so that novice cooks can recreate the dishes at home.

In comparison, the layout and formatting of trade magazines is quite staid. Sections of these magazines are devoted to recipes, however, they are generally convenience or budget-oriented, rather than focussed on the uniqueness of the ingredients. The resulting portrayals of the hospitality industry in these two forms of the one media are, at best, unrealistic.

There are a number of negative impacts associated with these polarised portrayals of hospitality. Fattorini suggests, for example, that epicurean magazines have given rise to the 'pseudo-professional', who has a wide range of knowledge on food and wine, but has little, if any, experience of working in the hospitality industry. Another term for the pseudo-professional would be the 'foodie', coined by Barr and Levy (1984). It is often at restaurant tables that the tension between those who work in restaurants, particularly those of the front-line, and those who dine in them is most evident. Pseudo-professionals, as noted earlier, are likely to be from a different social class from the front-line employees serving them. Further, the knowledge that the pseudo-professional possesses about food, wine and its service, can far surpass that of the front-line employee. As a result, this can lead to different levels of understanding as to what represents quality food and service thus deepening the divide between expectations and perceptions of service quality.

Case Study Four: The dawn of the New Millennium

In Melbourne in 2000, as the industry geared up for the New Year's eve celebrations Hede and O'Mahony (2000) report on the impact of, apparently, spurious media communications on the demand for hospitality provision. For most operators, hosting events on New Year's Eve would involve skilful financial management because expected increases in operating overheads would need to be recouped - invariably by way of increased charges to customers. It was also anticipated that customers would expect an extraordinary event and that additional staff may be required to meet customers' expectations.

Media reports during 1999, however, contended that hospitality providers would face a number of challenges because there would be an unprecedented demand for catering and accommodation from the public. The media predicted that this would result in exorbitantly high costs for food and beverages; and that employees would be able to command substantial loadings on their hourly rates. Indeed, Faroque (1999) reported that by mid-December, the price of food and beverages, had, and would continue to 'spiral', whilst Allen (1999) predicted that the loading on employees' normal rates would increase by as much as 400%. The report concluded that hospitality employees would be earning up to AUS\$50-AUS\$70 per hour on New Years Eve (Faroque, 1999).

Given the need to develop a marketable product early in 2000, coupled with perceived increases in customer expectations many hospitality operators elected not to open on New Year's Eve. None of the hotels in the city in the three star category hosted events, for example, leaving the market open to four and five star properties. Of the hotels that did open, most were in the five star category and they elected to market the evening as a 'gala event' offering packages for food, drink and entertainment. However, prices had to be set in advance of negotiations with the unions about the rates of pay that employees would receive for their services. Indeed, employee wage rates were not finalised until a short time before the event and early negotiations were hampered by media reports about the value and availability of hospitality employee labour (O'Mahony & Hede 2002)

Consequently, event organisers were forced to predict grossly inflated wage costs which were built into the product price. Prices for celebratory events that were advertised at this time ranged from AUS\$300 to AUS\$500 per person which, in some instances, was up to three times higher than the usual price for a similar event. At these prices demand was weak and a number of other hotels chose to abandon their planned events.

In the Hede and O'Mahony (2000) study, hospitality managers attributed the high prices of their events to the media because they perceived that the media had increased employees expectations of the value of their labour. Although the official wage rates that were finally agreed were not inordinately high, managers explained that they had been forced to factor in substantial increases in labour before the official wage rates had been negotiated with employee representatives so that they could take advance bookings. Securing the appropriate staff for the evening was of paramount importance for them. Indeed, at one hotel, staff had been advised of their work schedules three months prior to New Year's Eve and asked to sign a contract committing to work on the night.

Discussion

The aim of this paper was to explore the role of the media within the context of the tourism sector, and specifically how the media has intervened with regard to its activities. Four case studies were explored for this purpose. The study has identified a number of ways in which the media has been influential or has been engaged to intervene in events within the context of tourism.

The case of the 1920's Waiters' Strike in the resort town of San Sebastián, Spain, for example, shows how the media played an active role in the evolution of the strike and how the media was used, to a large extent by the government, to downplay the significance of negative industrial relations in the hospitality sector. Aligning itself with the local government, which was concerned that newspaper reports of the strike would negatively impact the image of the destination, the media downplayed the power of the *camereros*, in terms of their organisational skills and the impact that they would have on the service that San Sebastián would be able to provide their visiting tourists.

In the second case study, it was noted that, within the context of special events, media coverage is largely exploited as a destination-marketing tool to project positive images of host destinations in order to enhance the destination to potential tourists. It also clearly illustrated how in telecasts of mega-events, and particularly of the Olympic Games, governments use event-related media as part of their image-making strategies. This case also highlights how the media can be manipulated to present a particular image of a destination to potential tourists.

The degree of authenticity in media communications is also important given that, although *Olympia* is considered to be a classical piece of film, the reaction to the documentary was, in the main, one of suspicion. In particular, the 'sanitisation' of Berlin in relation to the removal of any anti-Semitic communications around the city, whilst projecting a 'politically-correct' image, was, considered to be misrepresentative.

In the case of lifestyle magazines, specifically epicurean magazines, the study found that tensions are being developed between industry personnel and consumers of hospitality services. The increasing knowledge that the public has of culinary commodities and techniques, mostly gained through epicurean magazines, means that many of the lower-skilled front-of-house staff are often challenged by customers' expectations.

The New Year's Eve case highlights the negative influence of media publications on hospitality provision. Tensions developed at this time were two-fold. In the first instance, tensions emerged between the industry and the media and in the second, tension emerged between the public and the industry. In this case, the media, was blamed for creating a number of unrealistic expectations for hoteliers, hotel employees and their customers. This resulted in financial loss for hospitality providers, whilst the public also missed out on the opportunity to celebrate a special event at a reasonable price. Industry employees were also disadvantaged because many employees lost the opportunity for increased earnings.

Collectively these case studies clearly show that the effects of negative media coverage can be detrimental to the tourism sector and to service provision within the industry. It

emerged in this study, that within the context of the tourism industry, the media is a powerful tool that can be used to manipulate the public's perception of tourism-related concepts, including destinations and the industry itself. The study also highlights a political dimension, particularly in relation to tourism development. This was especially evident in the San Sebastián waiters' strike, where the media was used to garner public support for the Government's position on the strike and its perceived impact on tourism development. A political dimension is also evident in relation to special events. Although the Berlin Olympics might be considered atypical, according to Roche (1994) the power of internal politics is often manifest in the decision to host special events and the bidding process as well as the opportunities for urban development that is often associated with these events.

Given the consequences of negative media comment, it is suggested that destination managers and tourism organisations should be proactive in developing strategies and engaging the necessary expertise to manage the influences of the media on its operations. A coordinated approach by the industry and its relevant industry associations is recommended, including the provision of accurate information and the development of positive media releases in order to avoid media related losses in the future.

Research limitations and further research

The study set out to gain an understanding of how the media influences tourism and tourism destination management based on the analysis of four case studies. This is clearly a limitation of the study in that it is selective rather than comprehensive or exhaustive. It is, therefore, acknowledged that generalisation of the results gained is tentative (Zikmund, 1997). This approach, however, was appropriate given the contemporary nature of the situation. Further, research, encompassing a greater range of case studies, would be beneficial to uncover more ways in which the media is used, or intervenes, within the context of the tourism industry. The authors of this study would also propose that future research be directed toward developing appropriate strategies with regard to the media so that positive relationships can be developed between the consumers of tourism and the suppliers of tourism products and services.

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Out of This World? Exploring the Contribution of the Media to Expectations of Future Space Tourism Experiences

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ABSTRACT

Outer space has been an important theme in popular culture, including books, comics, television and films, yet it was only Dennis Tito's flight in 2001 which opened up this frontier to the non-professional, with potential space tourists given the opportunity to travel on government-built spacecraft for a considerable fee.

Recent developments have made the growth of a viable space tourism industry a strong possibility in the 21st century. Space tourism experiences, in the early years, are not likely to take place in luxurious surroundings, nor allow the tourist to have a great deal of control over their surroundings or the level of risk taken. This experience might be very different from the one envisaged by the space tourist pre-flight. It is suggested in this paper that tourist expectations of space tourism experiences might be influenced by their exposure to space-related films. This may result in pre-travel expectations that differ from reality and/or in reduced levels of satisfaction with the experience post-travel. Future research should examine this as an example of consumer reactions or responses to new and emerging technologies, where there are few other factors likely to affect pre-consumption expectations, such as word of mouth or prior experience.

Keywords: space tourism; travel; experience; satisfaction; space tourist.

Introduction

Space travel, until a few years ago, was essentially restricted to professionals (Laing and Crouch, 2004). The average individual visited space merely in their fantasies, or vicariously, through the influence of the media such as books, comics, television programs and films. Those who watched Neil Armstrong set foot on the Moon for the first time in history in 1969 might have wished to have joined him, but the likelihood of this happening was practically non-existent until 2001, when Dennis Tito, the world's first space tourist, made space a potential new tourist destination for the super-wealthy. Recent developments would seem to indicate that space may be opened up to the general public this century, although the rate of this growth is hard to predict (Crouch, Laing and Smith, 2004).

Individuals have thrilled to the exploits of space travellers through the pages of books (Smith, 2000; Laing and Crouch, 2004), such as Jules Verne's *From the Earth to the Moon* (1865), H. G. Wells' *The First Men in the Moon* (1901) and Kim Stanley Robinson's *Red Mars* (1993) and comics like *Mystery in Space* (1951-1964) and

Flash Gordon (1934-2003). In the 1950's, the *Collier's* magazine's series of illustrated articles on space reached a circulation of 4 million (Laing and Crouch, 2004) and Walt Disney included a space-themed segment in his Disneyland theme park at Anaheim known as 'Tomorrowland', which became a popular tourist destination (Marling, 1998). Space-related films include *Rocketship* (1936) the first 'Flash Gordon' escapade, *Forbidden Planet* (1956), *Barbarella* (1968), *Star Wars* (1977), *Red Planet* (2000) and *Solaris* (2003). Television programs based around space have been endlessly repeated to win new audiences, with well-known examples including *Doctor Who* (1961-), *Star Trek* (1966-), *Lost in Space* (1965-1968), *Battlestar Galactica* (1978-1979), and *Buck Rogers in the 25th Century* (1979-1981). Cartoons on space such as *The Jetsons* (1962-1987) and *Space Ghost* (1966-1968) and animated films like *Disney's Ducktales: Space Invaders* (1990) and *Treasure Planet* (2002) give children an introduction to space as a fantasy world, where the extraordinary is not only possible but probable, and individuals are generally actively involved in their environment, rather than passive bystanders. Destinations

are often colourful, vegetated and populated by 'aliens,' friendly or otherwise. It is a far cry from the "magnificent desolation," noted by astronaut Buzz Aldrin (Aldrin and Warga, 1973) as he became the second human being to walk on the moon. This may be attributed in part to the fact that space movies are not filmed 'on location' and the intended audience's perception of what space is actually like is not generally coloured by experience, unlike films set in well-visited places on Earth such as Paris or the Grand Canyon. Film-makers are therefore free to invent fantasy space environments rather than representing or recreating its often bleak reality.

Cinema and television are regarded as possibly the most influential forms of media in the 21st century (Busby and Klug, 200). While novels on space-related themes may have a powerful effect on the imagination, it is arguably visual media that is most likely to shape popular views of space travel. As Morkham and Staiff (2002, pg. 300) state, "The ability for film to transport audio-visually other worlds (other places, other times) into the present is unique ... bringing worlds to the spectator that may otherwise remain out of reach." Most people in Western nations in the modern era have seen space depicted in at least some of the movies or television programs that they have watched, and it is arguable that the images that they have seen have seeped into their consciousness and influenced their perceptions of space and space tourism experiences, even if it is purely on a subliminal level.

Consumer behaviour with respect to space tourism is, as yet, under-researched (Laing, 2003) and we know very little about tourist expectations about possible future space tourism experiences. The experiential aspects of space tourism are also yet to be studied, mainly due to the paucity of potential subjects at this present time and the difficulty of carrying out data collection in situ. One interesting area of future research is to consider the role the media might play in the space tourism experience (Laing and Crouch, 2004). This paper will consider how the cinema might colour the public's expectations surrounding space travel, including the amount of active participation in the experience, the type of activities likely to be engaged in while in space and the nature of the surroundings, as well as levels

of satisfaction with the 'real' as opposed to the imaginary experience. It will also suggest areas for future research.

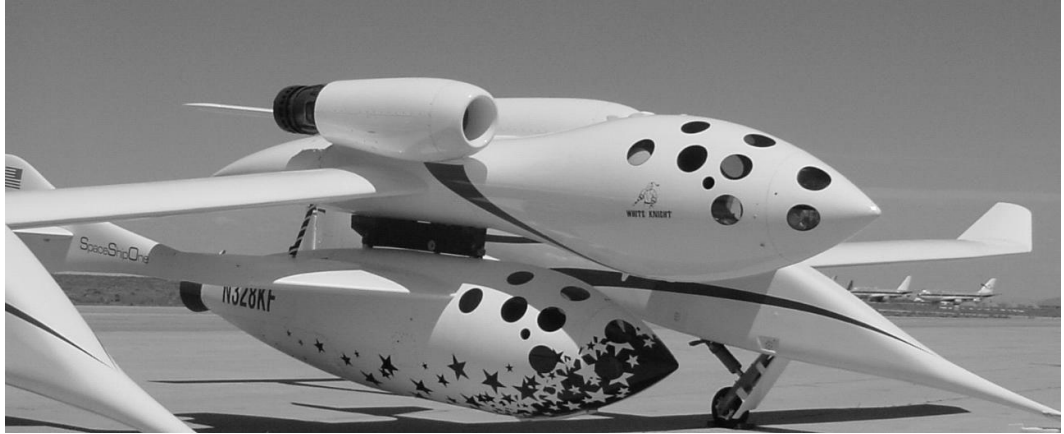
Space Tourism: Current and Future Developments

Space tourism, while not yet a fully developed industry, is not merely a futuristic vision. It encompasses a number of different experiences, from terrestrial visits to space themed museums and exhibitions, and flights on a MiG fighter jet at more than twice the speed of sound, where the passenger can see the curvature of the Earth and the blackness of space, to orbital flights on a Russian Soyuz spacecraft to visit the International Space Station, such as those undertaken by Dennis Tito in 2001 and Mark Shuttleworth in 2002, and potentially by Greg Olsen in 2005 (Crouch, 2001; Laing and Crouch, 2004). These latter flights are reputed to have cost \$20 million each, a lofty price not within the budget of the average traveller. Smith (2000, pg. 10) refers to this as "elite space tourism" but notes that costs are likely to decrease with technological innovation and increased volume of passengers carried. Research conducted to date, albeit limited, indicates that there is public interest in engaging in space tourism (orbitable and sub-orbital experiences) if not demonstrable market demand (Smith, 2000; Crouch, 2001; Crouch and Laing, 2004).

The prevailing view seems to be that space travel for the masses is inevitable, but opinions on when it might occur and what form it might take are mixed. For example, a joint NASA/Space Transportation Association study (O'Neil, Bekey, Mankins, Rogers and Stallmer 1998, p. 3) "concluded that private, high priced 'adventure' trips to space with greater than today's commercial airline risk could become possible in the next few years. Much larger scale, lower priced, orbital operations, could commence in the decade thereafter." The former has occurred with the flights of Tito et al, and the latter might eventuate in the near future, depending on the outcome of recent developments, such as the Ansari X-Prize. This US\$10 million prize was established in 1996, to be awarded to the first private team to launch a space vehicle capable of carrying at least three adults to an altitude of at least 100 kilometres, and repeating the feat within a period of two weeks (X Prize Foundation, 2004; Dinerman, 2004). On October 4, 2004,

Scaled Composites from the United States, with *SpaceShipOne* (Figure 1), was successful in their quest to win the X-Prize and their technology is now being adopted

by Sir Richard Branson for his newly-announced Virgin Galactic space tourism venture.



Source: Photo courtesy of Scaled Composites.
Figure 1: SpaceShipOne.

There has been some consideration of the factors that are likely to shape development of space tourism in the 21st century (Crouch, Laing and Smith, 2004). Aside from the outcome of initiatives such as the Ansari X-Prize, its progress is likely to be driven by factors such as the rate of technological development, which makes cheaper and safer reusable vehicles possible, and the nature of future legal and regulatory requirements for the industry, which are not inimical to viable businesses and commercial investment, as well as public support and confidence in a fledgling space tourism industry.

Due to cost and safety considerations, most early space tourism experiences are likely to be sub-orbital flights, which might only last

for a short duration, allowing the participant to view space for a few minutes and maybe experience some brief moments of 'weightlessness' if they are not required to be strapped in for the entire journey. Even if space hotels are constructed as potential holiday destinations, they will probably be sparsely furnished and utilitarian, as the cost of transporting construction materials into space will be high (Laing and Crouch, 2004) based on current technology. Smith (2000, pg. 14) paints a picture of future 'frontier' accommodation in space which is less than salubrious and designed to maximise efficiency and functionality (Figure 2 over page).



Source: Photo courtesy of NASA.
Figure 2: Astronauts living and working in cramped conditions on the International Space Station.

"Of necessity space hotels are new 'techno tourist bubbles' and small in size. Crowding and the regimen of space utilization can be taxing. Sleeping rooms are available to guests on an 8-hour shift basis. Food will be provided from vending-type machines, in packaged solid form. Leisure space will include recreation room for reading, movies and the Internet, earth watching, and exercise." The first space tourists, Tito and Shuttleworth, found themselves wedged in the cramped Russian Soyuz spacecraft, shoulder-to-shoulder with their crew-mates. Privacy was impossible in such a vehicle, and the ride was uncomfortable. 'Space walks' were not available to them, and they spent much of their time gazing on Earth and taking photographs. This is not travel which is likely to satisfy those who like comfort and luxury, nor is it likely to appeal to individuals who like to actively control their travel experiences, at least in the early years of the fledgling industry.

Consumer Expectations and Satisfaction

The anticipation stage of tourist behaviour and tourist expectations have been the subject of much research and discussion (Mayo and Jarvis, 1981; Pearce 1982; Pearce and Stringer 1991; Chon, 1991, Duke and Persia, 1996; Berno 1999; Fluker and Turner, 2000; Schofield, 2000), not least because it would appear that "...expectations play a crucial role in framing satisfaction evaluations" (Lovelock, Patterson and Walker, 2004, pg. 94). There is still scope however for further research in this area. (Berno (1999, pg. 566) for example sees the potential for new research on expectations to focus on consumer reactions to technological advances and products "and the psychology of responding to those changes." Space tourism arguably falls within this category, and there is thus scope to examine space tourist expectations as an example of consumer response to new and innovative technological developments.

Lovelock, Patterson and Walker (2004, pg. 94) define 'consumer expectations' as "pre-purchase beliefs about service provision that act as a standard reference point for judging post-purchase performance ..." Consumer expectations can be formed through such means as past experience, word of mouth, external communications by providers and consumers' general attitudes towards a brand (Lovelock et al, 2004). Data on

expectations is generally gathered by a researcher before an event or purchase takes place (Duke and Persia, 1996), although it has been argued that expectations about future purchases or events can be gathered after a product use experience (Cote, Foxman and Cutler, 1989). Potential space tourists are unlikely to have their expectations pre-flight shaped by either direct prior experience or the feedback from others, due to the small numbers of people who are likely to have actually engaged in sub-orbital or orbital space tourism in the early days of the industry. Promotional literature might be important in helping to frame expectations, but might fail to take into account attitudes to this new emerging form of tourism which have been influenced by popular culture such as cinema.

Travel and the Media

The media can have an important influence on consumption, and travel behaviour, through stimulating the imagination or shaping or influencing tastes and ideas (Butler, 1990; Riley, Baker and Van Doren, 1998; Busby and Klug, 2001; Kozinets, 2001; Smith, 2001; Urry, 2002). "Daydreaming is not a purely individual activity; it is socially organised, particularly through television, advertising, literature, cinema, photography and so on," (Urry, 2002). In fact, it has been said that to read a book, watch a film, gaze at a painting or pour over a map is to travel (Marin, 1993; Morkham and Staiff, 2002). Celsi, Rose and Leigh (1993) acknowledge in their ethnographic study of skydivers that the dramatic worldview presented by the modern media was an important factor motivating participation in this high-risk activity. "In the twentieth-century mass media, the musings of individuals, which were once largely abstract and imaginative fantasy, are concretely instantiated. Thus, possibilities that might never have been previously considered, including high-risk sports, become tangible behavioural alternatives," (pg. 4).

Cinema can also be characterised as 'pull factors' for tourism (Riley and Van Doren, 1992; Riley, Baker and Van Doren, 1998). Many of our films are in turn based on literary works, and literature plays an important role in influencing culture and inspiring visits to places associated with literary works, or literary characters (Mulvey, 1983; Butler, 1986; Herbert, 1996;

Squire, 1996, Busby and Klug, 2001; Shackley, 2001; Hennig, 2002). Hennig (2002) highlights the fantasy aspects of travel and its links with the arts, with tourism described as “part of the great and bounteous realm of the imagination,” (pg. 170) and notes this link between films and literary texts and their influence on “tourists’ expectations and experiences,” (pg. 173). Riley, Baker and Van Doren (1998, pg. 992) comment on the cinema’s ability to “construct anticipation and allure that induces people to travel” by creating “exotic worlds that do not exist in reality but can be recreated through a visit to the location(s) where they were filmed.” There have been a number of studies considering the influence of movies or television as inducements to tourism, such as Tooke and Baker (1996); Riley, Baker and Van Doren (1998); and Busby and Klug (2001) but none to date has explored how movies might help to shape our pre-travel expectations in the context of an emerging tourism niche, where there are few other influences to guide or frame tourist expectations.

Space Travel in Film

Space travellers in the movies fly their own vehicles, visit extraordinary destinations, and battle aliens, in surroundings that are a mixture of the familiar and the unfamiliar. Life on the frontier of space is seemingly never tranquil nor dull. Even though we have yet to find evidence of life in other parts of the solar system, extra-terrestrials are a common feature of space-related literature and film. As Wright (1993) notes, “In countless movies and stories space warriors suited with fish bowl helmets [have] focused their ray guns on creatures from outer space.” Films such as *ET the Extra-terrestrial* (1982), *Contact* (1997), and *Independence Day* (1996) feature aliens interacting with human beings. A few are benign (*The Day the Earth Stood Still* (1951), *Close Encounters of the Third Kind* (1977), *Cocoon* (1985)) but most threaten the continuation of the human race (*Invasion of the Body Snatchers* (1956), *Alien* (1979), *The Thing* (1982), *Signs* (2002)) and some are depicted as possessing intelligence beyond that found on Earth (*It Came from Outer Space* (1953), *The War of the Worlds* (1953), based on the novel by H. G. Wells (1898) and *Dark City* (1998)). The irony is that science is now looking at the most likely signs of life in our immediate solar system

as *Close Encounters* of a microbial kind (Walter, 1999), which mirrors some of the cinematic depictions of aliens in typical horror flicks such as *The Andromeda Strain* (1971), *The Alpha Incident* (1977) and *Toxic Spawn* (1981). Most of the likely destinations for future long-duration space tourism are effectively barren wastelands. At present, we know Mars to be a frozen place (with surface temperatures which can drop to -140°C), with a largely sterile surface regolith, subject to violent dust storms and possessing an atmosphere largely composed of carbon dioxide, with some nitrogen and only trace amounts of oxygen and water (Kaufmann and Freedman, 1999). The Moon, as a result of the Apollo flights of the 1960’s and early 1970’s, was found to be “a desolate, lifeless world” (Kaufmann and Freedman, 1999, pg. 219), hostile to life, even in its most primitive forms. Will a generation brought up with ET and the Daleks find travel to uninhabited places in our universe a little uninspiring and even boring, let alone being confined to a vehicle or hotel in space with their fellow travellers, rather than roaming the stars like the crew of *Star Trek’s* Enterprise?

The narrative of the ‘fantastic journey’ runs through many of the most popular space-themed films and television programs, such as the *Lost in Space* TV series and movie (1998), *Star Trek*, the movies *Journey to the Far Side of the Sun* (1969) and *Star Quest* (1994) and the TV series *Space 1999* (1974). *Star Trek* in particular often uses the imagery of exploring “strange new worlds” (Whitfield and Roddenberry, 1968, cited in Kozinets, 2001). According to Adler (1989), story lines or ‘tropes’ can often form the foundation of travel experiences, and transcend travel styles. One example is the narrative of the “discovery of new territory,” or “voyages of discovery” which Adler describes (pg. 1375) as “a cultural epic that set the [mould] for many later travel postures.” Zurick (1995) also refers to these voyages of discovery, grounded in literary works and permeating our consciousness like a half-forgotten dream, propelling “people into the world’s remote lands.” The level of influence this trope has on the future space tourist and their pre and post travel experiences is yet to be studied but it would seem likely that the level of restrictions and lack of active involvement in early space tourism experiences might frustrate those

used to the active experiences depicted on-screen.

Other common narratives in space-themed movies are the rescue of Earth and human beings from some calamity or disaster from space, whether from aliens as mentioned above, the impact of a comet or meteor (*Deep Impact* (1998), *Armageddon* (1998)) or impending nuclear doom (*Space Cowboys*, 2000). These are again active rather than passive experiences. Very few films with space-related themes depict space travel as it really is, complete with space sickness, cramped conditions, isolation and reliance to a degree on others back on Earth, perhaps because the fantasy is more appealing. Examples of more 'realistic' movies are generally based on real-life events such as *Apollo 13* (1995) and the *From the Earth to the Moon* TV series (1998). Their applicability to a modern-day space tourism experience is likely to be limited, given they represent experiences which took place over thirty years ago, by professionals rather than tourists, and had the cachet of 'exploration' or pioneer travel about them, involving the first human beings to visit the Moon. Recent documentaries showing astronauts in space, such as *Mission to Mir* (1997) and *Space Station 3D* (2002) are the most accurate representations of current space travel, as opposed to space tourism, we have on film.

Space Tourism: The Cinematic Experience

While there have been numerous movies with space-related plots since the first credited science-fiction movie, *Le Voyage dans la Lune* (1902), none so far has utilised space tourism as a major theme. According to Space Future (2004), "While there are plenty of movies from far in the past about space travel, we are unaware of any in which space tourism is a major business activity, or in which realistically portrayed orbiting hotels play a major role. Nevertheless the concept of tourism turns up here and there - just enough to show how the coming reality of space tourism has not been foreseen at all clearly in the movie industry." The movies highlighted in this paper incorporate a space tourism experience which is possibly more faithful to the 'real thing' than space travel is generally portrayed on screen, but still falls short of the likely reality.

In *2001: A Space Odyssey* (1968), passengers are shown flying in Pan Am shuttle spacecraft to space stations (Crouch, 2001), where they wait to catch connecting flights to the Moon. The sole passenger in one scene watches movies screened on the back of the chair in front, just like passengers do today on a typical international flight, although the movie version shows a pen floating around in the zero-g environment, and the flight attendants are forced to wear velcro-based shoes to grip to the 'floor.' Food is served in trays, but has to be taken in liquid form through straws. The atmosphere is quiet, efficient and businesslike, far removed from the fantasy elements of some of the space-themed movies discussed in this paper. The flight is a mixture of the familiar and the novel to audiences, even in the 1960's but less so today, but there are enough of the unique touches to make it seem innovative and 'new' in comparison to a more commonplace aeroplane flight. The revolving space station on the other hand creates its own artificial gravity, so the guests don't have to contend with items floating around or the potential risk of space sickness. There is little of the hustle and bustle of a hotel on Earth. All is calm and relaxed, with an almost eerie hush. Space is a pure, almost spiritual experience. A *Hilton Hotel* sign can be seen on the space station, which is furnished in sterile, minimalist style and mainly in neutrals, other than touches of bold colour. This adds to the feeling of zen-like tranquillity.

Moon Two Zero (1969) was billed as the first Moon 'western' and features a futuristic tourist industry which handles regular flights to the Moon and Mars in vehicles such as the 'Pan Am Moon Express,' where cabins are strangely just as empty as those depicted in *2001: A Space Odyssey*, and a permanent presence on the Moon, complete with saloon bar. Artificial gravity inside the structures gives life in space an appearance of normality, although there is still the need to wear a pressurised spacesuit when going outside. Tourists can visit the site where Neil Armstrong landed in 1969, to become the first person to set foot on the Moon, in a portent of future visits to historical space sites (Campbell, 2003; Gorman, 2003) and places of interest are pointed out as being sights "no tourist should miss." Space travel is mainly commercial in focus, with one character noting that "passengers [are]

where the money is.” The Moon is shown as an alien environment, and the tourist as a ‘foreigner’ is a theme running through the movie, even extending to the local population as distinct from visitors. “We are all foreigners here. Perhaps we should never have come,” says Captain Kent. “I suppose bleak is as good a way as any to describe it [the Moon].”

Space tourism in *The Fifth Element* (1997), which is set two hundred and fifty years in the future, is more like today’s luxury travel. Some of the action takes place on an orbiting space hotel above the mythical planet Phloston, which is described as a “hotel of a thousand and one follies.” To get there, one travels by spacecraft which is fitted with individual cubicles like a Japanese hotel, complete with ‘sleep regulators’ to allow the passenger the opportunity to sleep for the duration of the flight. We are told that the hotel has twelve swimming pools, including one on the “rooftop” and floats in a higher orbit after 5:00 pm “for the view.” Guests watch an opera singer perform in a replica of one of the grand opera-houses on Earth. This extravagant space-equivalent of a modern cruise-ship is not the sort of accommodation which is likely to be built for the first space tourists to enjoy. The space hotel portrayed in *The Fifth Element* is certainly vastly different to the utilitarian surroundings of the International Space Station (ISS), visited by space tourists Dennis Tito and Mark Shuttleworth, as is the spacecraft in which they travelled there from Earth. “Whilst aboard the ISS space, [Mark] Shuttleworth will not have all the luxury-extras he might be accustomed to in a room on the French Riviera, with day to day life in [space] being sparse given the restrictive environment” (Gizmo, 2004). Movies from the in-house space station library, rather than live opera performances, are available to the high-paying guests on the ISS, and even a humble shower has yet to be installed for the use of ‘guests.’

The space tourism experience, as envisaged by the creators of the abovementioned movies, clearly has yet to become reality. As the former space policy analyst for the Federation of America Scientists, John Pike, noted in 2001 in relation to the movie *2001: A Space Odyssey*, “Pan Am went bust, there are no bases on the Moon, and the (International) Space Station doesn’t have a Hilton” (Davidson, 2001). Tourists such as

Dennis Tito are essentially passive spectators, lacking a large degree of control over their surroundings and their experience and forced to submit to the authority of others. Neither luxury nor privacy appears to be an element of the space tourism experience, at least for the foreseeable future.

Future Areas of Research

Future research may demonstrate that space tourism in the early years of its development disappoints rather than excites participants, based on pre-flight expectations which may have been fostered by cinematic images viewed since childhood. There is scope for examining these early space tourism experiences to see what types of expectations exist during the ‘anticipation stage’ and what factors have influenced the development of these expectations. Further phases of the research could then look at whether expectations have been met or exceeded, and the reasons for this, with attention paid to the possible role of the media in framing pre-flight expectations and post-travel satisfaction levels. Multiple item scales could be used to measure expectations, and then post-travel satisfaction ratings could be provided for the same items (Duke and Persia, 1996). Factor analysis could then be used to examine the underlying dimensions of both expectations and satisfaction. A qualitative study of space tourists, concentrating on expectations and satisfaction, might also assist in uncovering some of the more subtle, unconscious influences, such as movies and literature. Other useful avenues of research could involve comparing the results of the above-mentioned study to consumer expectations and levels of satisfaction levels with respect to other examples of new technological developments. Understanding the factors which influence expectations and hence satisfaction with these ‘new to world’ developments may help providers to ‘fill in the gaps,’ by focusing on providing information, including promotional literature, which corrects potential stereotypes or myths created or fostered by the media.

Conclusion

Tourism research with respect to a new and emerging field such as space tourism is clearly still in its infancy (Smith, 2000; Crouch, 2001; Laing, 2003), and there

remain a great variety of research challenges ahead. Space tourism can be viewed as the outcome of technological change, with scope to consider consumer behaviour towards these new 'futuristic' products and services. The degree to which the media can and does influence expectations of and satisfaction with space tourism experiences, or indeed other examples of technological advances, has yet to be determined, but it may have great implications for future marketing of these new developments. Where there are few other 'reference points' or avenues of information for the consumer to frame pre-purchase expectations, such as word of mouth or prior experience, the media may have a powerful influence as a way of filling the void. The subtle effect of the space fantasies created on screen on the minds of potential consumers may need to be counteracted by pre-travel information which provides a more realistic basis for expectations, and thus potentially leads to greater levels of satisfaction post-travel.

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Understanding the Film-Induced Tourist

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Abstract

This paper introduces a new conceptual approach to understanding the potential and actual motivations of the film-induced tourist. It could be said that this newly defined tourism niche refers to a post-modern experience of a place that has been depicted in some form of media representation. That is, an experience that is highly personalised and unique to each individual based on their own interpretation and consumption of media images. The Push and Pull Factor theory of motivation presents an appropriate theoretical framework in which to examine film-induced tourism, from a consumer perspective. It is proposed that a distinction will be made between the three concepts of *Place* (location attributes, landscapes, scenery), *Personality* (cast, characters, celebrity) and *Performance* (plot, theme, genre), and whether different or distinct motivations drive or induce travel behaviour. Further, it is proposed to then develop a continuum of film-induced tourism motivation which might range from the specific film-induced tourist to the general film-induced tourist to the serendipitous film tourist. This paper will provide examples, sourced from previous literature on film-induced tourism, to illustrate this conceptual approach to understanding the film-induced tourist.

Keywords: film-induced tourism, motivation, push and pull factors, continuum.

Introduction

Major motion picture films can provide the places, objects and subjects for the gaze of many people, and for some, films may induce them to travel specifically to the locations where they were filmed (Riley, Baker & Van Doren, 1998). Although most motion picture films are not produced with the prime intent of inducing people to visit locations, it has been stated that this medium can enhance the awareness, appeal and profitability of locations through the power of imagery and the fantasy of the story (Butler, 1990; Riley & Van Doren, 1992; Couldrey, 1998; Beeton, 2001; Croy & Walker, 2004). These cinematic images may influence consumer decision making processes in terms of motivating visitation to film locations, however, this relationship is complex and little understood. Understanding the relationship between tourism behaviour and popular media, such as film, is becoming more crucial as destinations strive to differentiate themselves in a crowded marketplace.

While there have been several studies examining the relationship between film and tourism, they have tended to focus on:

- (1) defining the film tourist activity and product;
- (2) analysing specific manifestations of film tourism;

- (3) investigating the impacts of film tourism on host communities; and
- (4) exploring the connections between destination image formation and management.

However, an understanding of the consumer and the consumer experience is limited. Therefore, further research is warranted to identify, characterise and understand both the potential and actual motivations of the film tourist.

In particular, research is needed from the consumer perspective to specifically examine the effects of film on tourist behaviour. That is, does film actually induce tourism? To what extent can film encourage or entice the viewer to become a tourist to the destination depicted or seen in a film? If so, what factors in film prompt site-specific tourism? Is it attributes of place such as the scenery, or is it personality based attributes displayed in the film through characterisation (or celebrity association), or is it performance oriented storylines that motivate the viewer?

The purpose of this paper is to contribute to the literature by introducing a new conceptual approach to understanding the potential and actual motivations of the film-induced tourist. For this approach, the Push and Pull Factor theory of motivation (Dann, 1977) presents an appropriate theoretical framework in which to examine film-

induced tourism. It is proposed that a distinction will be made between the three concepts of *Place*, *Personality* and *Performance*, and whether different or distinct motivations drive or induce travel behaviour.

There may be a wide range of consumer drivers which would allow for plotting tourist types on a continuum, ranging from the specific film-induced tourist (those who actively seek out places that they have seen in film) to the general film-induced tourist (those who are not specifically drawn to a film location but who participate in film

tourism activities while at a destination) to the serendipitous film tourist (those who just happen to be in a destination portrayed in a film. Their presence is not related to film or media portrayal, and they may or may not participate in film tourism activities). (See Figure 1). This paper will provide examples, sourced from previous literature on film-induced tourism, to illustrate these three concepts. It will also review some of the literature as it relates to the nature of the film tourism experience.

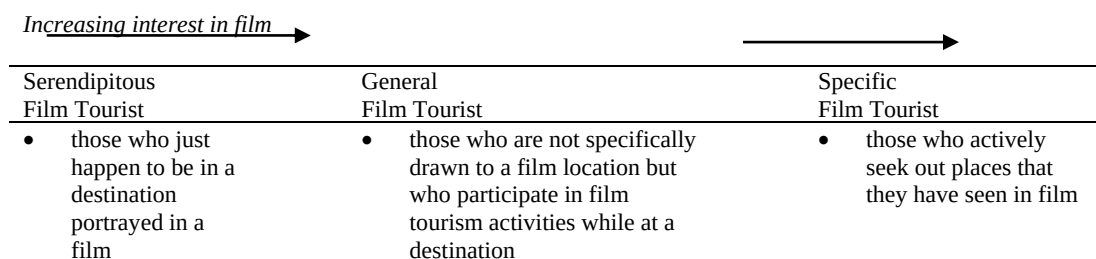


Figure 1: Continuum of Film-Induced Motivation

Through the proposed categorisation approach of media portrayal of *Place*, *Personality* and *Performance*, it might indeed be possible to introduce to the literature a film tourist typology based on push and pull motivation factors. In doing this, a continuum of film created motivation will provide an analysis and breakdown of specific film tourists compared to general film tourists, based on specifically identified motivations. As the model is introduced here in its simplest linear form, it suggests that there is an increasing interest in film as the individual becomes a more specifically motivated film-induced tourist. This model shall be further developed and discussed throughout this paper.

Defining Film-Induced Tourism

A range of useful definitions has been provided in previous studies, and there also appears to be a variety of ways to refer to this phenomenon, including: Media Induced Tourism; Movie Induced Tourism; Film-induced Tourism; the Cinematographic Tourist; and the Media Pilgrim on a Media Pilgrimage. One universal theme, however, suggests that this newly defined tourism niche refers to a post-modern experience of a place that has been depicted in some form of media representation. That is, an experience that is highly personalised and

unique to each individual based on their own interpretation and consumption of media images.

It seems that there are different contexts or perspectives from which to define this term. In its most straightforward and logical context, film-induced tourism has been defined as “tourist visits to a destination or attraction as a result of the destination featured on the cinema screen, video or television” (Busby & Klug, 2001:316). Iwashita furthers this by stating that film, television and literature can influence the travel preferences and destination choices of individuals by exposing them to the attributes and attractions of destinations (Iwashita, 2003).

Following this type of supply or production driven approach, film-induced tourism has also been discussed in a cultural, heritage and historical framework (see Busby & Klug, 2001). Feature films are often made at significant and identifiable historic or heritage sites (such as castles or manors) and gain increased popularity as tourism destinations after the film has been released. In fact, it has been suggested that some of these special sites actually only become popular tourist attractions because of the film produced on site (Busby & Klug, 2001). It is also important to note that film-induced

tourism does not simply occur at identifiable film locations; that is, the sites where feature films have been made, but it also exists in purpose built, commercialised sites (with entry fees) such as *Movie World*, QLD, Australia; *Universal Studios*, Los Angeles, USA; or *Granada Studio Tours*, Manchester, UK.

Other researchers have defined this tourism niche from the consumer perspective highlighting the behavioural aspects of the film tourist. This approach is usually set within Urry's (1990) framework of the 'tourist gaze' in terms of film constructing a gaze for an individual to observe. In this case, people may be induced to visit the places they have gazed upon the cinema screen. Riley, *et al* state that it is when "people seek the sights/sites they have seen on the silver screen, it is then that they, indeed, become movie induced tourists" (1998: 920).

Major feature films have also been referred to as 'hallmark events' in terms of the potential impact they might have on a destination (Ritchie, 1984), or special tourism events or as tourism promotion (Riley & Van Doren, 1992; Croy & Walker, 2004). In fact, it was Riley and Van Doren (1992) who characterised movies as a non-marketer controlled category of hallmark event. Although it is recognised that films are not produced with the purpose of inducing tourism visitation, it is commonly accepted that feature films, seen by mass audiences, can indeed enhance the awareness of the locations in the film, as well as the appeal of these tourist destinations (Riley & Van Doren, 1992).

Motivation

The study of motivation in consumer research involves two fundamental challenges including understanding the interrelationships between motives and specific behaviour; and developing a list of motives comprehensive enough to capture the diverse range of motivating forces that stimulate and shape behaviour (Funk, Ridinger & Moorman, 2004). Having said that, motivation has been defined as the driving force within an individual that impels them to action. It is also recognised as but one of many variables which may contribute to explaining tourism behaviour (Crompton, 1979). Motivations may not be easily formulated or expressed, however,

individuals are usually aware or conscious of their plans.

The importance of motivation in tourism is obvious. It acts as a trigger that sets off all the events involved in travel (Parrinello, 1993). Tourism motivation can be defined as "a meaningful state of mind which adequately disposes an actor [individual] to travel, and which is subsequently interpretable by others as a valid explanation for such a decision" (Dann, 1981: 205).

Dann (1977) suggests that there are basically two factors or stages in a decision to travel: 'push factors' and 'pull factors'. According to Dann, "pull factors are those which attract a tourist to a given resort or destination (eg. sunshine, beaches) and whose value is seen to reside in the object of travel; and push factors refer to the tourist as subject and deals with the factors predisposing him to travel (eg. escape, nostalgia)" (1977:186). Consequently, Dann hypothesised that the motivation for travel is based on these twin concepts, although, push motivations are generally accepted as the dominant factors.

Crompton (1979) advances the 'push' and 'pull' framework of motivation and builds on it to include nine specific motives which include:

- Escape from a perceived mundane environment;
- Exploration and evaluation of self;
- Relaxation;
- Prestige;
- Regression (to adolescent or child-like behaviour);
- Enhancement of kinship relations;
- Social interaction;
- Novelty; and
- Education (p. 408).

Further, Crompton (1979) argued that push factors may be useful not only in examining the initial arousal or 'push' to go on a holiday, but may also have "directive potential to direct the tourist towards a particular destination" (p. 412).

Iso-Ahola (1987) also identifies two main types of 'push' and 'pull' factors including: personal and interpersonal factors. In his escape-seeking dichotomy, he argues that people are motivated to seek leisure activities in order to leave behind personal and interpersonal problems of everyday life and obtain personal and interpersonal rewards from participation in these leisure activities (Witt & Wright, 1992). Escaping is

“the desire to leave the everyday environment behind and oneself”, while seeking is “the desire to obtain intrinsic rewards through travel in a contrasting environment” (1987: 261). Although Iso-Ahola notes that in relation to other leisure behaviours, tourism is more likely to be triggered by the escape motive. According to Crompton and McKay (1997), these dimensions are similar generic categories to the push (escape) and pull (seeking) forces proposed by Dann (1977). These motivations (escape, fantasy, romance, novelty, self-identity and entertainment) are similar to those identified as fulfilling the needs that movie-going fulfills in consumers (Mowen, 2000).

Specifically in relation to film-induced tourism, it is argued that this push and pull theory of motivation is the most appropriate framework in which to investigate film tourism motivation. Indeed, Riley and Van Doren (1992) have examined film tourism as a form of promotion and motivation through push and pull factors. Pull factors in tourism motivation theory attract the tourist to a destination while push factors, on the other hand, refer to the tourist and the internal drive leading to action (Dann, 1977). Thus, it is considered possible to track film’s role as an information source, or pull factor, and its influence on tourist motivation (as a push

factor) and the decision to travel to a destination.

The approach suggested in this paper also hopes to discover which intrinsic motivational factors prompt film site-specific travel behaviour. It is anticipated that there are a diverse range of push factors associated with visiting film sites including: fantasy; escape; status and prestige; search for self concept or identity; ego enhancement; as well as a sense of partaking in a vicarious experience.

Some of these types of motivations may be more prevalent at different points on the continuum. For instance, as an individual becomes a more specifically motivated film-induced tourist, who actively seeks out places seen in film, it is proposed that there could be an increase in self-actualisation motivations, as these tourists place greater significance on visiting film sites for personal reward. Whereas a ‘general film tourist’ is perhaps more strongly motivated by the novelty of visiting a film tourism site or participating in a film tourism destination and a ‘serendipitous film tourist’ may simply be visiting a film tourism site or participating in a film tourism activity in the course of social interaction with family or friends (See Figure 2).

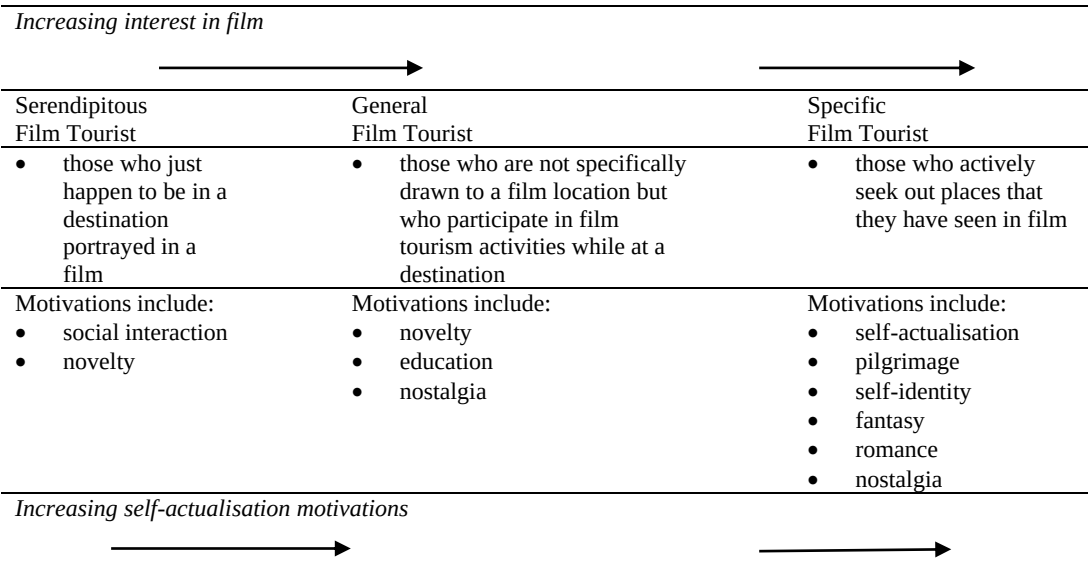


Figure 2: Continuum of Film-Induced Motivation

Therefore, it is argued that the push and pull framework provides a simple and intuitive approach for explaining the motivations underlying film tourist behaviour. Although

the two factors have been viewed as relating to two distinct decisions, it has been suggested that they should not be viewed as operating entirely independent of each other

(Klenosky, 2002). For instance, people may travel because they are pushed by their own internal forces (motivations) and simultaneously pulled by the external forces of the destination attributes. The discussion will now turn to examine the possible range of push and pull factors in film-induced tourism, in the following section.

Push and Pull Factors in Film-Induced Tourism

Pull Factors have generally been characterised in terms of the features, attractions or attributes of a destination, such as sunshine or scenery, that lead or pull an individual to choose one destination over another, once the decision to travel has been made (Klenosky, 2002). It must be realised that the pull of a particular destination attribute can be driven by multiple motivational forces. For example, going to a beach holiday destination may be motivated by various internal push factors such as:

- (1) to fulfill socialisation needs with family and friends;
- (2) to satisfy escape needs with rest and recreation; or
- (3) to fulfill sunlust desires to get a suntan.

Recognising that there are likely to be a range of motivations among individual tourists visiting a specific film site, it is proposed that a distinction will be made between the three concepts of *Place*,

Performance and *Personality*, and whether different or distinct motivations drive or induce travel behaviour. These three concepts can be categorised this way:

- (1) *Place*: location, scenery, destination attributes;
- (2) *Performance*: storylines or plot, themes, genres; and
- (3) *Personality*: cast, celebrity, characters.

This could prove a useful categorisation for investigating film tourism motivations as it will highlight the specific media representations and attributes that are important to film tourists. That is, what is the tourist experience as it relates to a motivation to visit a site-specific destination? What do these tourists want to do when they arrive at a film location? What is important to tourists in fulfilling a given motivation? For example, is it the spectacular destination attributes of *Place* that inspires or contributes to travel to a famous site seen on film or is it the romantic love storyline attributes of *Performance* that induces travel to fulfil a motivation of escape and romance through vicarious experience? For others, it may be the pilgrimage motivating factor to visit a film location that has showcased their favourite film star or *Personality*. Thus, this “3 P” categorisation will set a framework for investigating the specific attributes of film tourism motivation. (See Table 1).

Table 1: Push and Pull Motivation in Film Induced Tourism

Pull Factors (Film)			Push Factors (Internal Drive)
Place	Personality	Performance	
Location attributes	Cast	Plot	Ego enhancement
Scenery	Characters	Theme	Status/Prestige
Landscapes	Celebrity (stars)	Genre	Fantasy/Escape
Weather			Vicarious Experience
Cultural origin			Search for self identity
Social origin			
Activity origin			

Place

Let us first examine *Place* as a possible pull factor in film-induced tourism assuming that it involves film location attributes, such as spectacular scenery or unique landscapes that are immediately identifiable and attractive to a viewer. There is no doubt that the development and promotion of a place can be dramatically influenced by film and other popular forms of media. Iwashita has defined popular media-induced tourism, as involving “places which have been

popularised or signified as a tourist destination by those popular cultural products which are widely distributed by the ordinary majority” (2003: 215).

The concept of place relates to an area that has a distinctive internal structure, to which meaning is attributed and evokes certain responses from individuals (Busby & Klug, 2001). It is through film that such place meaning can be created, altered and reinforced. Santos (2004:136) suggests that the messages and representations created by

movies, magazines, television and books cross over to provide an ongoing socio-cultural discussion of destinations that serves to construct a dominant frame. The development of such promotional collateral as *Movie Maps*, which identify film sites and locations, is testament to the pulling power that films have on destinations.

Many studies have demonstrated that films are effective as motivational pull factors and can successfully induce film place specific visitation (Riley & Van Doren, 1992; Tooke & Baker, 1996; Couldrey, 1998; Beeton, 2001; Kim & Richardson, 2003). Many of these destinations have transformed their film sites into tourism attractions, which are then considered worthwhile places to visit (eg. *Lord of the Rings* - New Zealand).

Taking a somewhat different perspective, Croy and Walker (2004) examine the use of fictional media in rural areas to assist in the development of a positive tourism destination identity, or sense of place. Their research demonstrates a growing recognition and appreciation by regional tourism organisations in New Zealand of the role of fictional media in diversifying and developing their regional economic base. For example, images of the Waitakere region of Auckland where the film *The Piano* was shot, have been used for tourism promotional purposes such as Tourism New Zealand's *100% Pure New Zealand* campaign. As a result, the Karekare Beach site still receives visitors from around the world because of the sites seen in the film, and the ongoing use of this imagery (Croy & Walker, 2004). In this example, it could be argued that it is this physical place of the moving image that has pulled the tourist to it.

Performance

Next, we shall examine *Performance* as a pull factor based on storyline, plot or thematic content of film which may, for example, induce travel to fulfill a motivation of escape and romance through vicarious experience.

In the case of film induced tourism, Riley and Van Doren (1992) provide two examples of films which pull the visitor based on the thematic content of the film (storyline/performance) rather than any specific physical environmental attractions of place. These include the successful 1989 feature films *Field of Dreams* and *Steel*

Magnolias. The first telling a moving story of historic and heroic baseball lore, the other captured the drama of a group of women living in a picturesque southern community. Visitation to the farm where this baseball movie was filmed increased significantly from 7500 visitors in 1989, to 35,000 visitors in 1991. Similarly, there were reports of up to 40 per cent increased tourism to the site of filming *Steel Magnolias* in Natchitoches, LA (Riley and Van Doren, 1992).

People are not only drawn to the places that form the settings and landscapes for feature films, but they may also be drawn to particular stories and genres, that is the drama of the plot, the elements of the theme and the experiences of the people in the film. It may be that some people make very strong connections with the performance aspects of film and are determined to put themselves in the physical place that has formed the backdrop to the drama. This can be illustrated especially well by the popular Australian television series, *Seachange*, which first screened in 1998. The storyline of this series revolved around an over-worked city lawyer who decides to give up the fast life for the slower and quieter lifestyle of a small seaside town. This concept or storyline proved extremely relevant, intriguing and popular with audiences, and sparked an increase in visitation to Barwon Heads where the series was filmed (see Beeton, 2001). Clearly, tourists were pulled to this destination because they could relate to the situation of the characters in the show. In this case, tourists were drawn to this destination via the concept of making a 'seachange' rather than the destination itself.

Another aspect of the performance based attribute in film-induced tourism can be seen in action or adventure films where the adventurous and dangerous storylines are the main attracting feature. For instance, there are accounts of increases in adventure tourism in non-specific locations after film releases such as *Deliverance*, *Vertical Limit*, *All the Rivers Run Wild*, *Cliffhanger* (Riley & Van Doren, 1992; Busby & Klug, 2001; Croy & Walker, 2004). This phenomenon could be attributed to the power of these film genres and storylines.

In his examination of historic films, Frost (2004), states that the touristic interest generated from films such as *High Noon* and

Ned Kelly is the strong historical story-based attributes rather than being visually (or location) based. He suggests that while films such as these may be set in attractive locations, this is not the prime pull factor for tourists, rather they are pulled by the performance aspects of historic storylines.

Riley and Van Doren (1992) also provide a television example with *Dallas* which was the long running American drama located at the fictitious 'Southfork Ranch'. Riley and Van Doren state that international visitors, in particular, visit this site to relive the expectation of the American Dream of "wealth, cowboys and western lifestyles" (1990: 272). Thus, it is not so much the physical site of the 'Ranch' as the place motivator, but the performance motivations to vicariously experience the lifestyles and values of the characters depicted in the series.

Personality

Finally, another possible Pull Factor in film-induced tourism may be a pilgrimage motivating factor to visit a film location that has showcased a favourite film star or *Personality*. In this discussion of personality attributes of film, it is film characters as well as the actors/stars who portray them that is of interest.

There is no denying the pulling power of Hollywood, the star system and celebrities. These facets of the entertainment industry are all profoundly cultural enterprises and our fascination with these aspects of media reflect our involvement in the meaning transfer they set out to accomplish (McCracken, 1990). Film stars, actors and celebrities are very powerful ingredients of mass media and they are able to draw powerful meanings from the roles they assume in their movie or television characterisations. Indeed, this is recognised in the public relations, advertising and celebrity endorsement literature.

Till and Shimp state that "feelings towards a celebrity are expected to transfer to any endorsed brand through their power status and the recurring association" (1998:68). This is precisely why tourism destination marketing organisations put so many resources into utilising celebrities to promote their regions. Therefore, it could be assumed that if a fan associates Monte Carlo with a famous film character such as James Bond, they may indeed be 'pulled' or

enticed to put that destination on their holiday list. Moreover, can this explain why many North American fans of the character Mick Dundee in *Crocodile Dundee* sought out the Australian outback as a tourism destination? Or was it equally because the actor Paul Hogan, with his celebrity status, appealed so much?

An example of how popular culture or media may influence tourism behaviour, via the attributes of a personality, is discussed by Pearce, Morrison and Moscardo (2003) in relation to the role of famous individuals (icons) or celebrities who have become famous in their fields, as the basis for marketing tourism destinations. They examine the use of famous icons or celebrities such as the 1950s rock legend Buddy Holly in Texas; the legendary pioneer Buffalo Bill in Wyoming; outlaw Ned Kelly in Victoria; and the revered Scottish poet Robert Burns in Scotland, as tourism attracting products. They argue that, without appropriate marketing, the appeal in visiting sites, shrines or museums dedicated to such heroes may be limited to people with active literary, artistic or musical tastes and motivations, or those who are absolute fans. In other words, appealing only to the specifically media induced tourist niche market rather than the incidental tourist travelling on a general itinerary.

Authenticity

Hall (2003) states that authenticity is one of the key motivational factors for tourists, and film tourism, for instance, is one medium that allows people to live out their fantasies of their favourite movies or actors in sometimes mythical places. If visitors seek an imaginary place and its association with fictional characters, questions of authenticity arise in an unfamiliar form. That is to say that visitors "attach personal meanings to such places and authenticity thus becomes a subjective experience, a combination of the developers' intentions, the consumers' interpretations and the interactions among them" (Herbert, 2001: 317). He goes on to suggest that individual motivations vary and that authenticity is not necessarily the major concern of tourists, with affective qualities of place often being more important (Herbert, 2001).

In examining the influence *place, personality and performance*, as pull factors and issues of authenticity, the concept of literary tourism provides useful examples of

destinations that have featured in famous historical and contemporary novels or poetry (Curtis, 1985; Squire, 1993, 1996; Herbert, 1996, 2001; Fawcett & Cormack, 2001; Smith, 2003).

Literary tourism is defined as visitation to “places celebrated for associations with books or authors” (Squire, 1993:104). Squire (1996) argues that literary tourism is premised upon a desire to experience a version of the past (or imagined present) and to make connections between past and present, fact and fiction. She states that literary tourism trades in images and expectations of people, places and particular historic periods. In a sense, this special interest niche of literary tourism has been a precursor to film induced tourism, with many similar, and indeed identical, product characteristics as well as consumer traits. For example, in relation to place, tourists are drawn to the places or sites that have a connection with famous authors, such as their homes and surrounds. There is much evidence of this occurring, for example: Bronte Country or Hardy’s Country where a region has become characterised by a famous author (Butler, 1990: 49). In such cases, and in the absence of visual portrayal, it is not so much the destination itself (or physical attributes of the destination) that are important pull factors, but the association with authors and their fictional worlds.

The interesting aspect to draw from these types of classifications is that they can be broadly identified as ‘real life’ versus ‘imaginary’ places and often this distinction not clear cut. Herbert (1996) suggests that visitors to literary sites probably do not make any distinction between the two worlds. Squire’s research revealed that tourists visiting Hill Top Farm of Beatrix Potter’s *Peter Rabbit* fame, experienced great levels of nostalgia for childhood, as well as experiencing notions of a sense of place or English rurality. This raises issues of authenticity and the fantasy/reality spectrum which are particularly relevant to film-induced tourism.

With specific reference to film tourism, Couldrey (1998) says that film and television locations are examples of Baudrillard’s theory of ‘hyperreality’ in the

sense that ‘hyperreality’ represents “simulacra in which ‘model’ and ‘reality’ are confused in a world where access to unmediated reality is impossible” (p. 95). Couldrey (1998) further argues that such locations are significant as more than just ‘simulacra’, and that one can assume that visitors to these sites *know* they are based in fiction. He says the basis for the *Coronation Street* set’s significance is that it is the place where the program is filmed, and therefore the *actual place* that one has seen on television, and thus one of the main motivations in going there.

Conversely to this, visitors to Nottingham’s Sherwood Forest have an image of place derived largely from Robin Hood feature films (which have actually always been shot elsewhere). This combined with the doubtful historical basis of the legend, may be thought to detract from the visitor experience at the site. However, it seems that visitors to Nottingham either do not care whether the legend was authentic or expect Robin Hood to be a myth (Shackley, 2001: 315).

In his work on Granada Studio Tours, home of the external set of the long running British television soap, *Coronation Street*, Couldrey (1998: 102) refers to the set as a ‘ritual place’ and that the visitors are in fact “media pilgrims fulfilling a motivation to gaze” and experience this site. He believes that visiting the *Coronation Street* set is a type of pilgrimage in that it is a journey to a central site which focuses on underlying values. Moreover, when visitors enter the set, an intrinsically significant connection is made between the media world and the real world.

As such, it would seem that authenticity (or lack thereof) is another important consideration in conceptualising a film tourist continuum (see Figure 3). It might be argued that the need for an authentic tourism experience, in the traditional sense, is not as important for the specific film tourist as it might be for the general tourist. While authenticity tends to be an important consideration for the traditional tourism experience, the specific film tourist could be said to accept (if not expect) hyper-real experiences in which model and reality are confused (Herbert, 2001).

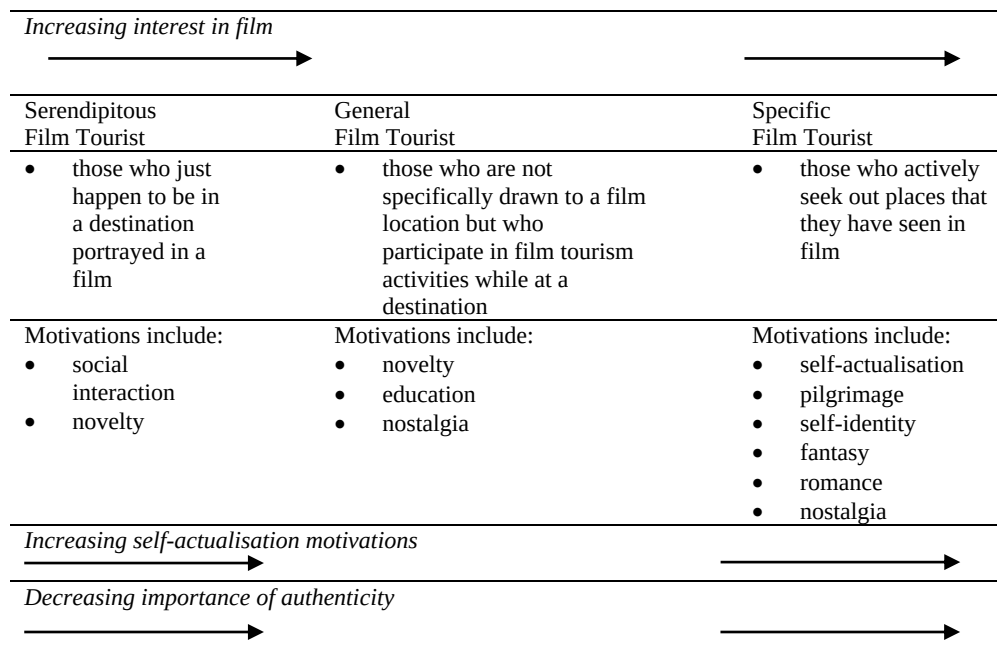


Figure 3: Continuum of Film-Induced Motivation

Internal drivers

In terms of investigating push factors or internal drivers of film-induced tourism, it is anticipated that there are a range of possible motivations that come into play. Such push factors might include; ego-enhancement; fantasy or escape; status/prestige; search for self-identity; or vicarious experience. These push factors can often be strongly related to the previously discussed pull factors. For example, search for self-identity by acting out the experiences of a favourite actor in a specific location or circumstance. Tourists may be drawn to film sites for more personal motivations such as reliving nostalgic memories from childhood, for example, as in the generational favourite, *The Sound of Music*, which then becomes a sentimental journey, or visiting *Notting Hill* for romantic notions.

A critical internal driver, or push motivation, in film-induced tourism is the 'tourist gaze' in terms of film constructing a gaze for an individual to observe (Urry, 1990). The character of the gaze is central to tourism and there are distinct objects to be gazed upon because they are famous for being famous (eg. Uluru, Grand Canyon). Sites made famous from film or celebrity tourism could be avenues for pilgrimage to visit the site to gaze.

In terms of the gaze, Riley and Van Doren (1998) also suggest that film tourists may be motivated by vicarious involvement and

identification with locations through movie storylines which allow greater personal meaning to the beholders of the gaze. This notion of 'vicarious experience' can be understood through the concept of empathy (Kim & Richardson, 2003). This suggests a visceral feeling about someone else's life which allows an individual to participate in the 'posture, motions and sensations' of someone or something else.

In certain types of place-oriented films, audiences can learn about the destination by participating in the place related experiences of the characters (Kim & Richardson, 2003). They state that it is not unreasonable to consider vicarious experiences with a destination featured in a film as another type of destination experience. Although according to Griffin (2002), tourism, in essence, is sensual, emotive and driven by a desire to experience a place and that the sights, sounds, ambience and people are integral to that experience, therefore vicarious experiences can simulate some aspects, but not the totality.

Couldry (1998) also suggests a push motivation of pilgrimage to ritual sites (ie. film or television locations) and labels film tourists as 'media pilgrims' who are fulfilling the motivation to 'gaze' on sites they have seen on screen. Beeton (2002) also suggests that film tourism is about tourists looking for the sites, people, experiences and even the fantasies portrayed by films. This

introduces the intangible elements of the individual tourist experience based on individual motivating factors, such as fantasy. Indeed, Riley and Van Doren emphasised that the attractions seen in films “are not only associated with the allure of picturesque physical environments, but also for reasons of pilgrimage, escape and nostalgia” (1992: 268).

As the Continuum of Film-Induced Motivation is further developed (see Figure 4), the internal drivers or the push factors demonstrate their increasing importance as the tourist moves along the continuum. It is at the most specific film tourist end of the continuum that the push factors are at their most significant, in terms of fulfilling a range of self-actualisation type of motivations including ego-enhancement,

self-identity, status and prestige and the crucial element of the vicarious experience.

Having suggested this, as Klenosky (2002) has pointed out, push and pull factors should not be viewed as operating entirely independently of each other. That is to say, people may travel because they are pushed by their own internal forces (motivations) and simultaneously pulled by the external forces of the destination attributes. In the case of the specific film tourist, it could be assumed that pull factors are also becoming more important as the tourist moves along the continuum. It is at this end of the continuum that these absolute film-induced tourists must physically *be* at the sites of their favourite films, to stand in the footsteps of their movie heroes and relive the special film moments.

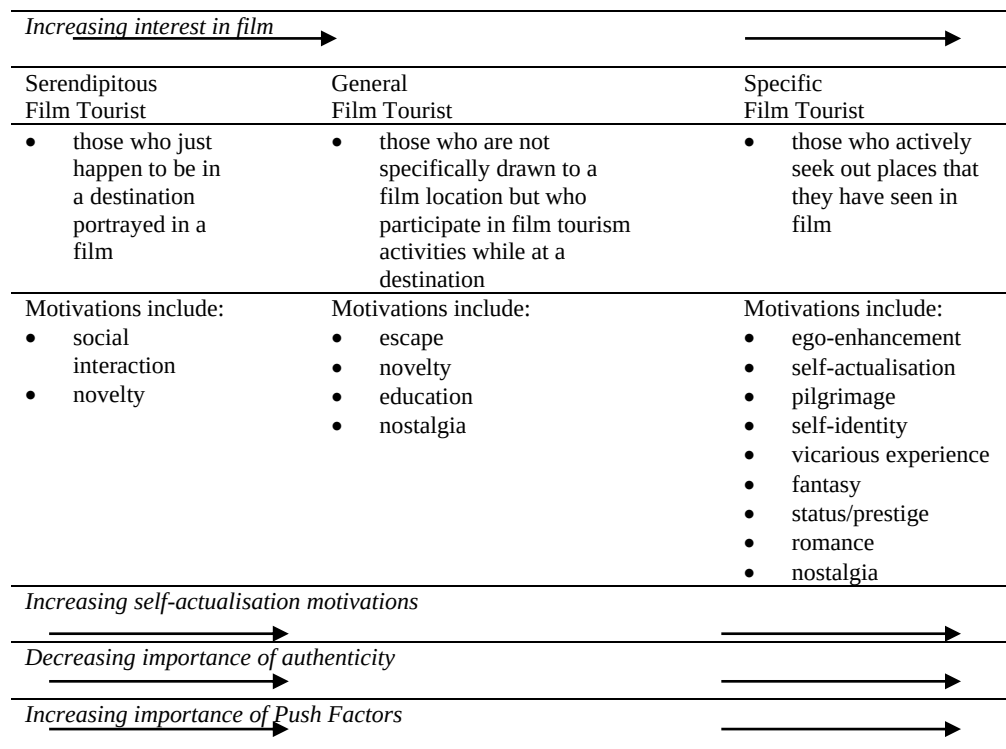


Figure 4: Continuum of Film-Induced Motivation

Conclusion

The proposed approach aims to advance prior work by suggesting that the nature of the Film Tourism experience will influence any such classification scheme, in that some film-induced tourists may be motivated by the externally driven pull factors derived from the screen, while others may be motivated by internal drivers. Thus, it is proposed that a Continuum of Film-Induced Motivation is an appropriate way to examine

the role of film in the travel decision process. More speculatively, the present research suggests a holistic picture of complex motives for film-induced tourist behaviour.

It is evident that the moving image has great power to alter, create and reinforce specific destination images, and there is no doubt that film has become a dominant source of information and images. Film also has the power to influence consumer behaviour by

creating motivations within individuals which can induce them to act in certain ways. This paper has contributed to the literature by introducing a new conceptual approach to understanding the potential and actual motivations of the film-induced tourist. For this approach, it has been argued that the Push and Pull Factors of motivation present an appropriate theoretical framework in which to examine film-induced tourism. The three concepts of *Place*, *Personality* and *Performance* have been introduced as a framework for investigating whether different or distinct motivations drive or induce travel behaviour.

Furthering this approach in investigating the potential and actual motivations of the film-induced tourist, through a motivation-based research design, will provide a new dimension in understanding the film-induced tourist. There may be a wide range of consumer drivers which would allow for plotting tourist types on a continuum of film-induced motivation, ranging from the specific film-induced tourist to the general film-induced tourist to the serendipitous film tourist. It will ultimately bring to light some clarity of the role of film as a contributor to the motivation to travel to a destination.

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Film-Induced Tourism: Motivations of Visitors to the Hobbiton Movie Set as Featured in *The Lord Of The Rings*

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Abstract

Film production at certain locations has resulted in an increase of visitor numbers to such sites, expanding the concept of film-induced travel in academic discourse. However, research concerning the socio-psychological aspects of visitors to film sites is in its infancy. This study investigates the motivations of visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*, as featured in Peter Jackson's film trilogy adaptation of J.R.R. Tolkien's novel, *The Lord of the Rings (LOTR)*. This film site is situated in Matamata, on New Zealand's North Island, where outdoor scenes for Tolkien's *Hobbiton* village were shot. The adoption of a triangulation method (interviewer-completed questionnaires) led to the identification of possible reasons for this movement of people.

Analysis of the structured interview responses revealed six motivational themes. First, *iconic attractions within LOTR* included the desire to experience *the natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'*, *the Hobbiton Movie Set* and *the fantasy theme of LOTR*. Second, the *learning* theme was related to the exploration of insights into the making of *LOTR* and the creation of the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. Third, the *novelty* motive pertained to both a sensory pleasure and recognition. Fourth, the *Tolkien: the LOTR author* theme demonstrated that an interest in Tolkien's novel constituted as a driving force to visit. The fifth and sixth themes were of *satisfying children's LOTR interest* and the *accessibility of Matamata* as desires for travel. These findings also facilitated the formulation of a model, encouraging further research in this domain.

Keywords: film-induced tourism, travel motivations, iconic film attractions

Introduction

Film-induced tourism has received increasing attention from tourism operators due to its ability to provide benefits to screened locations (Riley & Van Doren, 1992). Accordingly, Busby and Klug (2001, after Tooke & Baker, 1996) contend that movie production creates visitor number increases at film sites.

An investigation into visitor motivations to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* could outline drawcard features of the destination and general preferences of the travellers, thus allowing tourism planners to focus marketing efforts on these areas of interest. Findings would also assist film site management as they competitively map out attraction differentiation to target their product more specifically for appropriate interpretation.

Aim and Objectives

The aim of this study is to determine the motivations and demographic characteristics of visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. The

research encompasses the following six objectives:

- 1) To identify the visitors' point of initial knowledge of the *LOTR* story, such as the viewing of *LOTR* or the reading of Tolkien's novel
- 2) To indicate whether the visitors are aware of other *LOTR* screened locations
- 3) To gain an understanding of the motivations of visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*
- 4) To determine whether the visitors' motivations incline toward iconic attractions within *LOTR* rather than other factors such as learning or novelty
- 5) To specify whether the visitors' motivations include an interest in Tolkien's novel
- 6) To ascertain demographic characteristics of the visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*

Study Site

Matamata is situated within the Waikato region of New Zealand's North Island. Located approximately fifteen minutes from

Matamata, the *Hobbiton Movie Set* was created on the property of the Alexander family farm for the production of *LOTR* in 1999 (*Rings Scenic Tours*, 2002). In October 2002, the Alexanders were given permission by *LOTR*'s production company and legal owners of only the created set, New Line Cinema, to allow visitors to the screened location (Whiting, 2003). This facilitated the Alexander's formation of *Rings Scenic Tours* and the subsequent launch of *Hobbiton Movie Set* tours on December 1, 2002.

This study was conducted at the Matamata Visitor Information Centre, currently managed by staff from the Matamata Public Relations Association. The Visitor Information Centre is the start and end point of the two-hour, fully guided *Hobbiton Movie Set* tours.

Literature Review

Consumer Behaviour

Within tourism research, emphasis has been placed on consumer behaviour analysis (see, for example, Kotler, Bowen & Makens 1999, Nielsen 2001). Consumer behaviour within tourism is "...the study of why people buy the product they do, and how they make their decision" (Horner and Swarbrook 1996, cited in Swarbrook & Horner 1999, 6). This *why* and *how* emphasises that needs as well as consumer values, perceptions, motivations and decision-making are critical to the expansion of travel behaviour knowledge.

Consumer behaviour also involves perspectives from psychology, anthropology, sociology and economics (Wells & Prensky, 1996). The psychological aspect of consumer behaviour examines consumer motivations, perceptions and attitudes (Swarbrook & Horner, 1999). The paucity of research pertaining to the socio-psychological aspects of film-induced

tourists has signified that this subset of consumer behaviour justifies investigation.

Motivation Theory

Motivation according to Fridgen (1991, 53) is: "...a force within an individual which causes him/her to do something to fulfil a biological need or psychological desire". This relates to Crompton's (1979) proposal that individuals live in a social-psychological equilibrium that may become unbalanced over time, resulting in a state of tension, imbalance or *disequilibrium*, triggering need arousal within an individual (Mullen & Johnson, 1990).

The recognition of a need causes an individual to choose a course of action in an attempt to re-establish equilibrium (Crompton, 1979). For an individual to satisfy a need and return to a state of equilibrium, an objective must be present (Mill & Morrison, 1998). The next section will discuss travel as the objective and the notions of 'being away to' and 'being away from' (Harrill & Potts, 2002 after Wapner, Cohen & Kaplan, 1976) as motivations for travel.

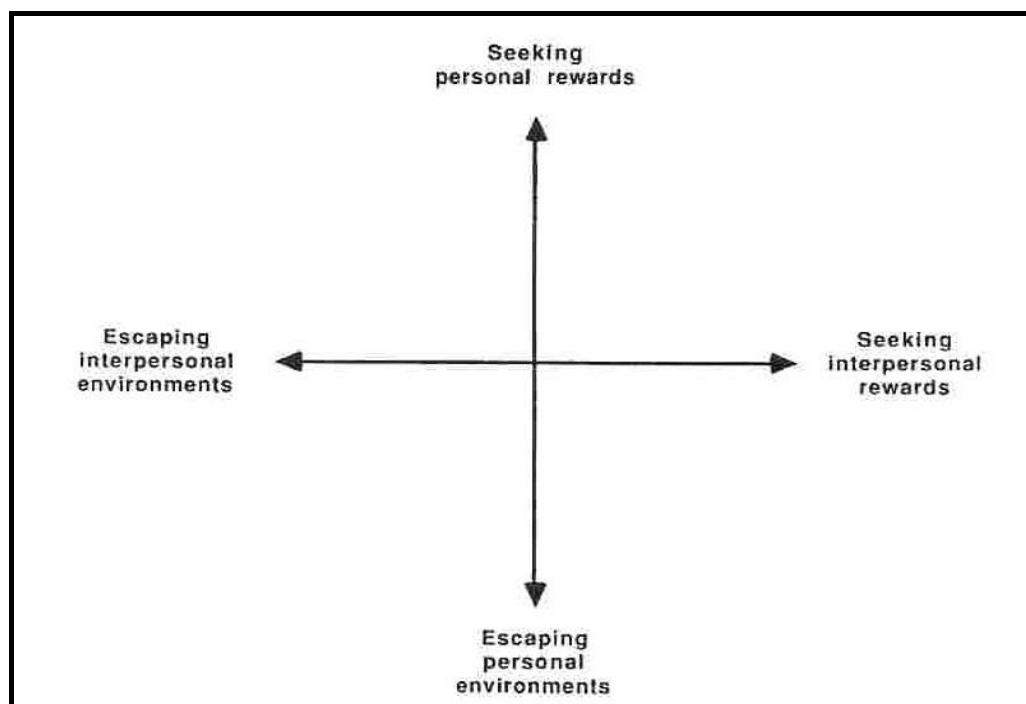
Travel Motivations

No single theory can possibly encompass all individual travel motivations (Parinello, 1996). This, alongside the heterogenous nature of tourism behaviour and the belief that multiple motivations can be experienced simultaneously, makes it a challenging area to investigate (Pearce, 1993).

The Seeking and Escaping

Dimensions of Tourism Motivation

McCabe (2001) acknowledged that a major contribution to travel motivation theory is Iso-Ahola's (1982) social psychological model of tourism motivation (see Figure 1 over page).



Source: Mannell and Iso-Ahola (1987, 323)

Figure 1: A social psychological model of tourism motivation

Mannell and Iso-Ahola (1987) identified two motivational forces or dimensions of *escaping* and *seeking* that operate simultaneously to stimulate and result in tourist behaviour. An individual's travel behaviour is influenced by the desire to *escape* from one's routine personal and/or interpersonal environment while *seeking* rewarding personal and/or interpersonal experiences (Iso-Ahola, 1983).

The personal and/or interpersonal *escaping* dimensions refer, respectively, to an individual leaving behind personal troubles and/or co-workers or family members (Ross & Iso-Ahola, 1991). Conversely, the personal and/or interpersonal *seeking* dimensions consist of learning, exploration and relaxation for the individual, while social interaction is the focus of his/her external reward (Iso-Ahola, 1982).

Dann (1981), Argyle (1996) and Goossens (2000) support Iso-Ahola (1982) indicating that the personal dimensions of *escaping* and *seeking* are frequently expressed intrinsic needs which accurately reflect a person's basic motivational force. Concomitantly, Ingham (1986) contends that there is a clear distinction of extrinsic motivation or the drive behind activities to which obvious external rewards are associated. This belief is directly proportional to Iso-Ahola's (1982) inter-personal *seeking* dimension. In

addition, the intellectual factor component of Beard and Ragheb's (1983) empirical results include individual motivations such as exploring and learning which clearly exemplify a link with the personal *seeking* dimension of Iso-Ahola's (1982) model.

The ambiguity regarding the dominance of one motivational dimension over the other under a given condition constitutes a theoretical gap (Iso-Ahola 1982, Ross & Iso-Ahola 1991). This relates to this investigation as it is anticipated that the findings will establish the relevance of each dimension to the social phenomenon of film-induced tourism.

Film-Induced Tourism

The relationship between tourism and feature films is a relatively new field of academic study (Couldry, 1998). Film-induced tourism has been defined as "...tourist visits to a destination or attraction as a result of the destination being featured on television, video or the cinema screen" (Busby & Klug 2001, 317 after Evans, 1997).

Hottola (2002, after Bordo, 1997) contends that popular movies have the propensity to cause certain things to happen within the everyday scene of tourism. They can impact extensively on a screened location not just during production but also after the film has

been released (Busby & Klug, 2001). For example, in Australia, a new tourism industry has emerged following the production of George Miller's *The Man from Snowy River* (1982) and its sequel. Through her research, Beeton (2001) found that Mansfield in Victoria, the screened location for the movie, experienced a surge of movie-related businesses after its release.

To date, the influence of film on tourism has been evident at film sites globally mainly through referring to changes in visitor numbers following a movie's release. However, this has only been established anecdotally and has yet to be empirically measured (see, for example, Riley 1994, Tooke & Baker 1996). This study will address the lack of empirical evidence in film tourism literature by analysing responses from face-to-face structured interviews conducted with tourists who visited the *Hobbiton Movie Set* as featured in *LOTR*.

The Film-Induced Tourist

Literature pertaining to the concept of a film-induced tourist is scarce. Urry (1990), however, proposes that as an individual chooses to gaze upon a place, anticipation is sustained through a variety of non-tourist practices, such as film, which construct and reinforce the gaze. Riley, Baker and Van Doren (1998) contend that the 'sight/site' properties of a film location qualify as icons for tourists to gaze upon. In this respect, the film-induced tourist is defined as "...a person who seeks a 'sight/site' that is seen on the silver screen" (Riley et al. 1998, 920).

In terms of this research, a visitor to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* may be a film-induced tourist who has also read Tolkien's novel, on which Peter Jackson's *LOTR* (2001) is based. Nevertheless, this visitor cannot be classified as a literary tourist as they are described as "...people who are drawn to places that an individual author has wrote about or was associated with" (Pocock, 1992). Tolkien's novel was not written about specific places, and nor was Tolkien associated with New Zealand. Thus, the definition of a literary tourist is acknowledged but will not apply to this study. However, it is anticipated that the experiential gaze of a visitor may not only be reinforced through scenes in the film, but also by impressions created through reading Tolkien's novel.

Motivations for Travel to Screened Locations

Fictional and non-fictional films are powerful motivators especially when storyline and film site are closely related (Beeton, 2002). Movies have essentially become 'pull' factors, enhanced by viewer involvement in the story and the film maker's ability to captivate (Riley & Van Doren, 1992). Riley et al. (1998) contend that the attractive qualities or 'sight/site' properties of a screened location that induce people to travel to it are as diverse as the movies in which they are depicted.

In linking the notion of a film-induced tourist to iconic film attractions and motivational theory, Ross and Iso-Ahola's (1991) empirical conclusion that the *seeking* dimension of Iso-Ahola's (1982) model is the main motivational force for sightseeing tourists may be valid. Visitors to screened locations *seek* 'sights/sites' (or iconic attractions) portrayed in films (Riley et al., 1998) and may also be *seeking* personal rewards such as novelty or knowledge.

Method

Given the exploratory nature of the investigation and its research objectives, a triangulation method was selected as the most appropriate. Hussey and Hussey (1997, after Easterby-Smith, Thorpe & Lowe, 1991) indicate that triangulation is where both qualitative and quantitative methods are used in varying ways and degrees.

The utilisation of triangulation can also assist a researcher in the choice of a suitable research instrument (Jennings, 2001 after Sieber, 1973). For this research, interviewer-completed questionnaires were selected to obtain the data required for analysis.

Interviewer-Completed Questionnaires

Interviewer-completed questionnaires involve the researcher narrating structured questions to respondents, face-to-face, recording short notes on the questionnaire (Veal, 1997) and tape recording if required. During this type of questionnaire procedure, the research instrument is not visible or provided to the respondents.

This method is most suitable as it is associated with qualitative and quantitative methodologies (Hussey & Hussey, 1997). This technique also provides instant feedback and clarity, allowing the researcher

to elicit extremely rich information. Further, this form of questionnaire delivery achieves higher response rates and more accurate answers compared to respondent-completed questionnaires (Silverman, 2001).

Research Instrument Design

The interviewer-completed questionnaire comprised 17 questions in total and was structured into three forms of questioning: screening, objective-related and transitional.

The pair of initial screening questions aimed to filter respondent relevance through two basic criteria. The respondents were required to be at least 18 years of age and have travelled at least 30 kilometres to the Matamata Visitor Information Centre. The second criterion allowed for the respondents to clarify their place of origin, whether a town within New Zealand or another country.

The 11 objective-related questions focussed on eliciting data relevant to the research objectives, while the four transitional questions assisted in balancing the intensity of the procedure. The use of interviewer-completed questionnaires suggests that close-ended questions are paralleled with the positivist paradigm (or quantitative approach) and open-ended questions with the interpretive paradigm (or qualitative approach) of any research method (Foddy, 1993). Therefore, the objective-related questions were sub-divided into open-ended, allowing respondents to speak for themselves, and close-ended questions, designed to elicit 'yes/no' replies.

Recording Data

The interviewer-completed questionnaires were administered to respondents after they purchased their tickets but *before* they embarked on the *Hobbiton Movie Set* tour to ensure that motivations and not satisfactions were measured.

For each open-ended question, several anticipated response categories were pre-noted on the questionnaire with numeric codes attached to facilitate efficient grouping for subsequent analysis. The responses to the majority of the close-ended questions were similarly recorded.

As the research process was interviewer-completed, two 'show cards' were prepared for the demographic questions relating to

each respondent's age group and average level of personal annual income.

Tape recording was utilised during the data collection phase with the consent of individual respondents. Each interviewer-completed questionnaire process was recorded on a separate audio tape, ensuring a systematic approach.

During the data collection period, open-ended responses on each recording were transcribed, and each completed questionnaire was also cross-checked with its respective recording.

Population and Sample

The population is defined by Veal (1997, 204) as "...the total category of subjects, which is the focus of attention in a particular research project". The sampling method utilised was the 'next to pass' or convenience sampling technique, allowing a focus on the elaboration of issues in micro-social contexts (Clark, Riley, Wilkie & Wood, 1998), in this case the phenomenon of film-induced tourism.

Accordingly, this sampling method involved the researcher approaching the next individual who entered the Matamata Visitor Information Centre after his/her ticket purchase for the *Hobbiton Movie Set* tour, in non-random manner. Recruitment and data collection were conducted until a sample size of 40 respondents was reached.

This non-probability sampling method was selected due to the inherent exploratory nature of this study of traveller motivations, and reduction of bias that can occur in a personal selection process (Veal, 1997).

Data Analysis

The data collected was analysed in two ways, dealing with its qualitative (or open-ended) and quantitative (or close-ended) responses respectively. During the transcription phase, important elements within the open-ended responses became clear and connections between them were formed. These elements were restricted to the initial response by the respondent and while some responses may have had multiple elements, only the first mentioned element was taken into consideration. This is because the initial response is the most immediate and is the primary focus of this research.

The responses (along with the relevant circled pre-noted responses) were then

arranged and evaluated in relation to the research. Lazarfeld's (1993) notion of complementary grouping was applied, giving rise to several common theme categories, trends and patterns within the open-ended responses. Frequency distributions were also generated for these common themes and categories, ensuring that the relevant research objectives were met and indicating the importance of identified motivational factors (Williamson, 2000).

Second, a univariate method was selected for the analysis of the close-ended responses. The numeric codes attached to pre-noted responses of the close-ended questions were arranged and displayed through a frequency distribution for each variable. As for the income variable, the mid-point of each income bracket selected by a respondent was taken as an average singular reference for conversion to the equivalent Australian currency. For respondents who earned more than 100,000 (in the currency of their country of residence), 100,000 was taken as the reference¹³.

The responses to the two demographic questions were manually arranged into common categories. Response categories concerning the respondents' highest level of education were developed, however the Australian Standard Classification of Occupations (1997) was used for categorising the respondents' current occupation to ensure accurate socio-economic analysis. Subsequently, these categorised responses were assigned numeric codes and frequencies.

Limitations

The primary limitation is that the study was conducted at an overseas location thus creating time and budget constraints, and resulting in a restricted sample size.

Delimitations

A delimitation exists within this research that restricts the results to a specific but

focussed discussion. Poynter (1993, 62) identified delimitations to be "...restrictions placed on the study to make it doable". This investigation was conducted at only one location, that is, the *Hobbiton Movie Set*, where participation in film-induced tourism was apparent.

Results and Discussion:

Results from the interviewer-completed questionnaires will be discussed in two parts. First, the demographic details of the respondents are presented. Following this, information elicited from the close-ended and open-ended questions within the research instrument are revealed in tandem with the non-demographic research objectives outlined in the Introduction.

Demographic Profile of Respondents

During the data collection phase, 46 individuals were approached and asked to participate in the interviewer-completed questionnaire. Of these, six were either deemed ineligible based on the screening questions or declined to contribute. Hence, 40 visitors qualified and participated in the study, conferring a valid response rate of 86.9 per cent.

Biographic Data

Table 1: Biographic data of respondents

Variable	Frequency	Percentage
Gender		
Male	21	52.5
Female	19	47.5
Age Group		
18 – 25	8	20.0
26 – 35	13	32.5
36 – 45	5	12.5
46 – 55	9	22.5
56 – 65	5	12.5
66 plus	0	0.0

Source: Authors

Table 1 shows that there was a relatively even gender spread within the sample, with 19 females and 21 males. However, the most frequently occurring respondent age groups were 26 to 35 (32.5%) and 46 to 55 (22.5%).

Socio-Economic Data

In line with the Method discussion, all average income levels of respondents are represented in Australian currency (AUS\$). An outline of the respondents' socio-economic data is shown in Table 2.

¹³ Two respondents (from Norway and Hong Kong respectively), earned more than 100,000 in the currency of their country of residence. However, due to the conversion to the equivalent Australian currency, their average income level was classified into the '< AUS\$20,000' bracket. Hence, it must be acknowledged that these two respondents *may* have earned more than AUS\$20,000 per annum.

Table 2: Socio-economic data of respondents

Variable	Frequency	Percentage
Highest Level of Education		
High School Certificate	7	17.5
Diploma	3	7.5
Bachelor's Degree (incomplete)	3	7.5
Bachelor's Degree (complete)	13	32.5
Post-Graduate Diploma/Honours	7	17.5
Master's Degree	5	12.5
PhD Degree	2	5.0
Current Occupation		
Manager/Supervisor	4	10.0
Professional		
Health	2	5.0
Social	2	5.0
Education	9	22.5
Other	4	10.0
Trade	4	10.0
Retired	2	5.0
Student	4	10.0
Unemployed	4	10.0
Housewife	2	5.0
Other	3	7.5
Current Economic Status		
In full-time paid work	27	67.5
In part-time paid work	1	2.5
Full-time home or child care	2	5.0
In full-time education	4	10.0
Retired	2	5.0
Unemployed or looking for paid employment	4	10.0
Other	0	0.0
Average Level of Personal Annual Income (AUS\$)		
< 20,000	13	32.5
≥ 20,000 and < 40,000	5	12.5
≥ 40,000 and < 60,000	2	5.0
≥ 60,000 and < 80,000	10	25.0
≥ 80,000 and < 100,000	3	7.5
≥ 100,000	7	17.5
Marital Status		
Single	18	45.0
Married	6	15.0
Married (with children)	14	35.0
Other	2	5.0

Source: Authors

Table 2 shows the range of occupations held by respondents, of which 27 (67.5%) were full-time positions. The respondents' marital status was essentially divided into the 'single' (45.0%) and 'married with children' (35.0%) categories. Also, most respondents

(67.5%) had attained a completed Bachelor Degree or higher, with respondents' average level of personal annual income being quite varied.

Geographic Data

Table 3: Geographic data of respondents

Country of Origin	Frequency	Percentage
North America		
United States of America	18	45.0
Canada	1	2.5
Europe		
United Kingdom	10	25.0
Republic of Ireland	1	2.5
The Netherlands	2	5.0
Germany	1	2.5
Norway	1	2.5
Asia		
Malaysia	1	2.5
Singapore	1	2.5
Hong Kong	1	2.5
Japan	1	2.5
Oceania		
Australia	1	2.5
New Zealand (further than 30km from Matamata)	1	2.5

Source: Authors

It is apparent from Table 3 that respondents originated mainly from the USA (45.0%) and the UK (25.0%). As it was the Northern Hemisphere's summer during the data collection period, it is contended that the practice of embarking on international travel during summer in these countries, especially the USA, contributed to the extent of their presence. This can be supported by the fact that respondents from other European countries and Canada were also present (15.0%), but scarcely and evenly spread. In addition, the sample consisted of only one Australian respondent (2.5%), suggesting that Australia's proximity to New Zealand did not outweigh the fact for potential travellers that both countries were experiencing winter.

Respondents' Point of Initial Knowledge of the LOTR Story

From the analysis of the open-ended responses regarding the above objective, two main themes emerged: *reading of Tolkien's novel* and *watching of the LOTR film*.

Reading of Tolkien's novel

When the respondents were questioned regarding their point of initial knowledge of the LOTR story, the *reading of Tolkien's novel* was the most prominent theme (40.0%). Predominantly, respondents referred to reading the novel as a child (30.0%).

Overall, most of the respondents who fell into the *reading of Tolkien's novel* category (37.5%) were from English speaking countries.

Watching of the LOTR film

The *watching of the LOTR film* was another response relating to the first research objective, with statements made by nine respondents (22.5%) and often mentioning Tolkien's novel (15.0%).

Yeah...a friend of mine once mentioned that she was reading the book, but when I saw how big it was I said 'No thanks'...so, it would be through the movie.

Of the nine respondents in the *watching of the LOTR film* category, two thirds (15.0%) were between the ages of 18 and 35, indicating that *watching of the LOTR film* may have been more popular with the younger respondents.

Respondents' Awareness of Other LOTR Screened Locations

Analysis of the close-ended dichotomous responses showed that more than half the sample (57.5%) said 'yes', they were aware of other LOTR screened locations.

A total of six respondents (15.0%) mentioned that 'Mordor' in LOTR, filmed at Mount Ruapehu in New Zealand's North Island, was the other screened location that they were aware of, resulting in 'Mordor' being the best known LOTR screened location amongst the sample. The next best known LOTR screened location was the Queenstown region in the South Island (12.5%), where many scenes including the 'Ford of Bruinen' and 'Dimrill Dale', were shot.

Key Motivational Findings

Analysis of the open-ended responses regarding the motivational objectives resulted in the emergence of four main themes: *iconic attractions within LOTR*, *learning*, *novelty* and *Tolkien: the LOTR author*. From the first theme, several sub-themes were identified.

Iconic attractions within LOTR

When respondents were questioned about their reasons for embarking on travel to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*, a substantial group (40.0%) made statements relating to *iconic attractions within LOTR*. As iconic film attractions can take different forms (Riley et al., 1998) the analysis of these findings have been segregated into a further three sub-themes.

The natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'

The desire to visit the *Hobbiton Movie Set* to experience *the natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'* was a clear theme. Almost half of the respondents (17.5%) mentioned reasons pertaining to *iconic attractions within LOTR*. Also, this motivational theme was always placed into the context of *LOTR's* portrayal of *the natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'*.

Well, that's the most beautiful part of the film... in The Shire at the beginning ...I love the green hillsides, lots of trees, livestock grazing...that was definitely the reason.

The Hobbiton Movie Set

Another reason related to the respondents' eagerness to experience specific aspects of the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. This motivational factor relates to Riley et al.'s (1998) contention that visitors to screened locations seek to identify with tangible evidence of a film's content and was apparent in statements by five respondents (12.5%).

I am looking forward to what I really can see from the film... to see some of the real location.

The fantasy theme of LOTR

The third sub-category that emerged was the *fantasy theme of LOTR*. This theme was evident in four respondents' (10.0%) statements, indicating identification with either characters within *LOTR*, or the plot.

Hmmm...well, I really want to see The Shire and I'd love to meet Bilbo and Gandalf...I'd love to go in one of the Hobbit holes...like immersing yourself in the scene from the movie and

hopefully get a sense that there could be Hobbits around.

In this instance, each of the four respondents had watched *LOTR* but also stated that their initial point of knowledge of the *LOTR* story was the *reading of Tolkien's novel*.

Learning

The desire to visit for reasons of *learning* was another motivational theme that emerged. The concept of learning is generally believed to constitute "...an enduring change in behaviour, or in the capacity to behave in a given fashion, which results from practice or other forms of experience" (Shuell 1986, 412). It can also be distinctly separated into either cognitive or affective learning domains, cognitive essentially relating to the acquisition of factual information, while affective refers to the development of values, attitudes and behaviour (Bloom, 1956). In this study it was found that six respondents (15.0%) were motivated to learn in a cognitive manner. This was due to the respondents' reference to their *learning* motive as a personal exploration into the insights of the making of *LOTR*, and more specifically the creation of the *Hobbiton Movie Set*.

I'm just intrigued...about the whole setup...I'd like to know how they actually made and then filmed the holes in the hills and like...how Peter Jackson managed to find this place...I've just always been fascinated by that.

Interestingly, every respondent who mentioned *learning* as a motivating factor was involved in a full-time occupation, but occupations varied between the individuals, suggesting that learning may not be limited to any given profession.

Novelty

While not as strong as the previously discussed motivations, *novelty* was still apparent in three (7.5%) of the respondents' statements. The notion of novelty refers to a sensory pleasure received from interacting with "...a stimulus that has a scarce amount of time with an object, environment or people and less recent exposure to itself" (Lee & Crompton 1992, 733). For this research, this 'stimulus' can relate to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*, as it is a screened location of a very recent box-office film (Whiting, 2003). An association can also be formed between this explanation of novelty and Dann's (1977) suggestion of ego-

enhancement. The respondents in this case were motivated by *novelty* in both the senses described.

Hmmm...I've flown all this way to come to New Zealand for a chance to actually come to one of the sets of...possibly one of the biggest films ever made...knowing that it's pretty much still intact...and I'd love to go back to the UK and say that I've been to 'Hobbiton'.

All three respondents who sought *novelty* when visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set* were single, within the 26 to 35 age group and earned an income of less than AUS\$40,000. Interestingly, this resemblance relates to Bello and Etzel's (1985) empirically accepted hypotheses that vacationers taking novel trips have similar personal demographics.

Tolkien: LOTR Author

Another theme that surfaced regarding respondents' motivations for visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set* was *Tolkien: the LOTR author*. This theme referred to respondents who not only possessed a level of interest into Tolkien's novel, but had developed it into a motivational force. This theme was characterised by the respondents' desire to compare personal visualisations of '*Hobbiton*' from reading Tolkien's novel to the actual movie set, while simultaneously considering its depiction on film. Accordingly, *Tolkien: the LOTR author* theme was evident in the statements made by three respondents (7.5%).

I very much like LOTR and the book itself is enough...but then when you're sitting in the film...I go with my perceptions of what I think 'Hobbiton' should look like and obviously the film shows that ...whereas, if I come here myself, I can look at the set and see whether I agree with it as I imagined it to look like from the book... well, I'm a great fan of Tolkien.

It is clear that the key motivational findings may be related to Iso-Ahola's (1982) personal *seeking* dimension. This is because the motives concerned an individual respondent's desire for, and pursuance of personal rewards such as either tangible or intangible *iconic attractions within LOTR* and Tolkien's novel, *learning* or *novelty*.

Further Motivational Themes

Investigation of the results found that other reasons for visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set* were also present. These motivations were classified into two themes: *satisfying children's LOTR interest* and *accessibility of Matamata*.

Satisfying Children's LOTR Interest

The desire for *satisfying children's LOTR interest* was a further theme within the responses, with results indicating that seven respondents (17.5%) expressed this desire.

The majority of this group of respondents (12.5%) were females who earned an income of less than AUS\$40,000. It is argued that the *satisfying children's LOTR interest* factor can be related to Iso-Ahola's (1982) *seeking* dimension as the respondents (or parents) may be *seeking* for, and finally may attain an intrinsic sense of happiness (or personal reward) through the process of satisfying their children.

Accessibility of Matamata

The *accessibility of Matamata* was the second further motivational theme. This was identified through the respondents mentioning Matamata's proximity to Auckland and Rotorua. The ease of access to Matamata was therefore identified as forming part of five respondents' (12.5%) motivations for visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set*.

This theme can also be related to Iso-Ahola's (1982) *seeking* dimension as visitors may have regarded the *accessibility of Matamata* as a means by which they could enhance their travel itinerary. Therefore, it is proposed that these respondents may have been *seeking* to maximise their personal rewards by visiting the accessible *Hobbiton Movie Set*.

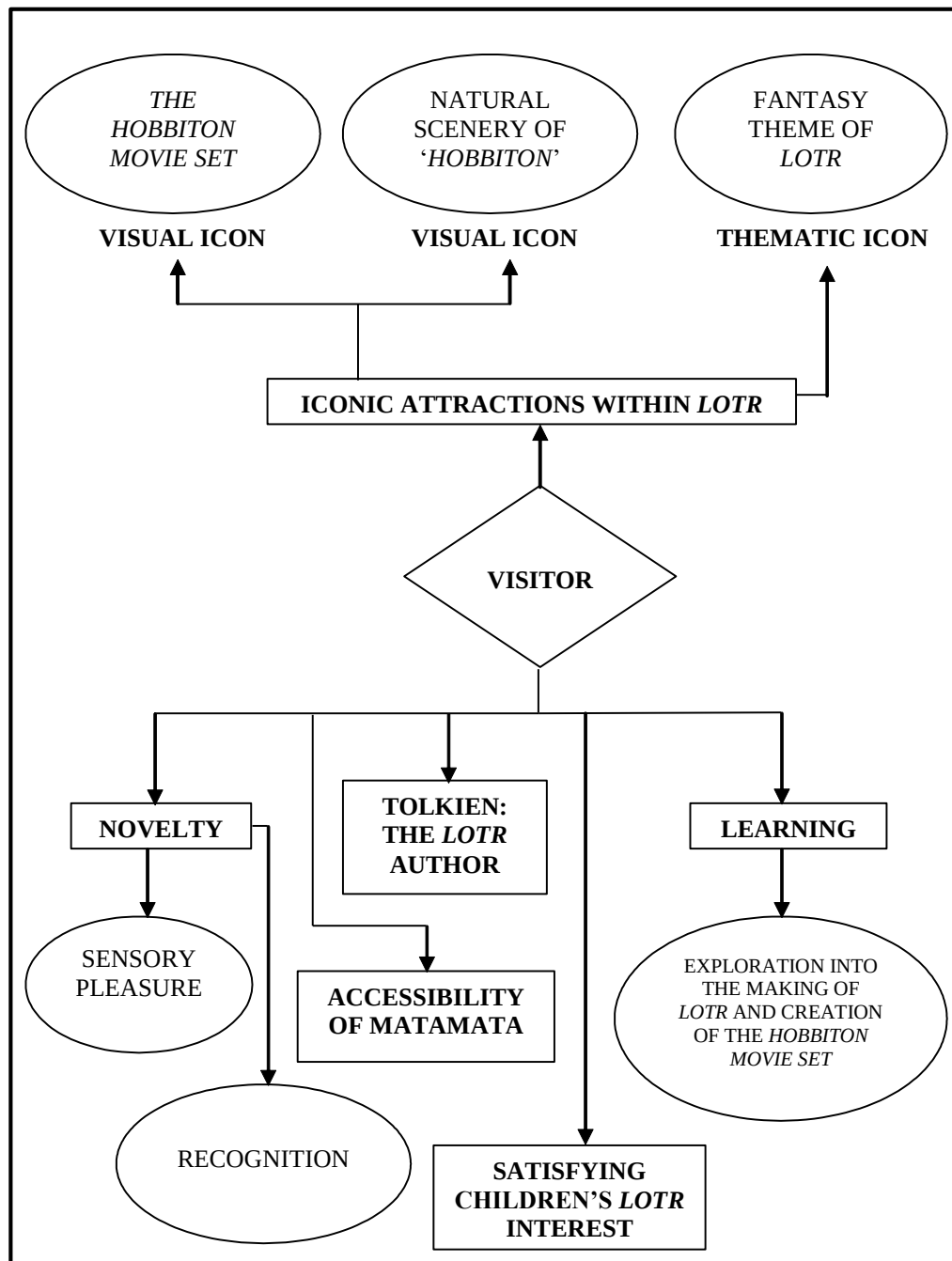
Although these two further themes were more evident amongst responses (30.0%) than the previously discussed factors of *learning* (15.0%) and *novelty* (7.5%), the motivations of visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* still inclined toward the *iconic attractions within LOTR* (40.0%). Also, the motivational discussions suggested that the expressed respondent desires related more to the *seeking* dimension rather than the *escaping* dimension of Iso-Ahola's (1982) model.

Conclusions and Recommendations

Throughout this research, several reasons for visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set* were highlighted. Consequently, a model was developed to schematically represent these findings.

Figure 2 shows, through the utilisation of full-bodied arrows, that each visitor was motivated by a single factor. A substantial group of respondents (40.0%) indicated that

the reason for their visit concerned either visual or thematic *iconic attractions within LOTR*. Within this theme, a desire to experience the *natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'* was the most popular motive. However, the visual iconic attraction of the *Hobbiton Movie Set* and a specific interest in the *fantasy theme of LOTR* were also evident reasons for visiting the film site.



Source: Authors

Figure 2: A Model of Visitor Motivations to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* as featured in *LOTR*

The *learning* theme, which related to cognitive learning, constituted as a motivation for several respondents within the sample (15.0%). These respondents connected their desire to learn with a reason to visit in order to explore insights into the making of *LOTR* and the creation of the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. While the *novelty* theme was not as apparent as the aforementioned factors (7.5%), it is also worth noting. This is due to the respondents' identification of their reason for visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set* as not only a sensory pleasure, but also seeking a sense of recognition upon return to their country of origin. Another motivational theme was *Tolkien: the LOTR author*, which pertained to respondents who had developed their interest in Tolkien's novel into a driving force for visiting the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. However, this theme was not as evident (7.5%) as factors such as *the natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'* (17.5%).

The desire for *satisfying children's LOTR interest* and the *accessibility of Matamata* were two further themes within the responses. Although these factors represented motivations for a substantial number of respondents (30.0%), the primary reasons were still inclined toward *iconic attractions within LOTR* (40.0%).

It was also concluded that the identified reasons for travel to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* were aligned with the personal *seeking* dimension of Iso-Ahola's (1982) model of tourism motivation. This was because they were described as individual desires or rewarding experiences by the respondents. Further, the presence of the *iconic attractions within LOTR* theme confirms the proposal in the Literature Review regarding a motivational connection between Iso-Ahola's (1982) personal *seeking* dimension and Riley et al.'s (1998) concept of iconic film attractions.

Implications for Management

The results identified in this research relate to one particular *LOTR* screened location.

Of the motivational themes, only the three most common factors will be discussed in terms of their implications for management. They are: *iconic attractions within LOTR* (40.0%), *learning* (15.0%) and *satisfying children's LOTR interest* (17.5%). These findings should be recognised by

management in order to work towards further satisfying their consumers.

First, the *natural scenery of 'Hobbiton'* and *the Hobbiton Movie Set* themes indicate the importance of a regular maintenance for the environment and physical remains of the set. This may involve site authorities further liaising with New Line Cinema (legal owners of the set structure) in order to attain formal approvals allowing up-keep of the set. The indication of *the fantasy theme of LOTR* as a motivating *iconic attraction within LOTR* implies that management could contemplate the introduction of additional activities for visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* such as occasional night tours of the screened location to facilitate another representation of the set as featured in *LOTR*.

Second, identification of the *learning* theme suggests that management should continue conducting their informative guided tours. However, management could acquire new facts pertaining to the significance of the *Hobbiton Movie Set* and develop a data base for guides.

Third, the *satisfying children's LOTR interest* theme suggests that management at the film site could organize features for younger visitors such guides dressing up as '*Hobbits*' or other *LOTR* related characters.

Further Research

This investigation is the first empirical study designed to research the motivations of visitors to the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. Therefore, further studies may come from an investigation into the comparison of visitor motivations to the *Hobbiton Movie Set* to those of visitors to one or more film sites. This could entail initial qualitative research, where longer in-depth interviews with a small sample from each film site are conducted. The primary intention of these interviews would be gain additional rich data to form the bases for constructing hypotheses to be investigated using quantitative methodology.

A further study could also be undertaken regarding visitor expectations, experiences and satisfaction levels. This could involve the formulation of several research hypotheses and a quantitative methodology where surveys are administered to a large sample before, during and after the visitor experience. Results of statistical tests could highlight the quality of the *Hobbiton Movie*

Set tour experience, identifying further implications for film site management.

Essentially, this investigation attempted to provide insights into the motivations and demographic characteristics of tourists who visited the *Hobbiton Movie Set*. Although the research objectives were met, it is believed that further studies must be conducted to confirm the applicability of the conclusions to other film sites and *LOTR* screened locations.

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Working Papers

From Erewhon to Edoras - Tourism and Myths in New Zealand

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This paper presents a case study of the Rangitata Valley, Canterbury, where literary and film tourists meet in the high country of the Southern Alps of New Zealand. Both tourism forms rely upon myths which have been and are still being created to promote these tourist destinations as unique. World-wide there are many examples for destinations with mythical image qualities. For example, the quest for Shangri-La has led thousands of tourists into the Himalayan region. Interestingly enough this particular myth is of quite recent origin; it was initiated by the book "Lost Horizon" by James Hilton (1933) and later reinforced by the movie by Frank Capra (1937). Similar to this, the Erewhon-myth and the Edoras myth present important case studies for mythical tourism in New Zealand.

English writer and shepherd Samuel Butler returned to England in 1872 after living in New Zealand for five years and published his tale of the Utopian society "Erewhon". The book became a best-seller and established a new myth that endures until today. Within weeks of publication a specific tourism to the high-country of Canterbury begun that brought domestic and overseas tourists to locations described by Butler. This early literary tourism was facilitated by the fact that Butler interwove existing geographical and botanical features with purely mythical ideas of a Utopian society hidden in the mountains. And while the tourists sought the farmed high country scenery described in the book, they also visited the property and the homestead of the author.

A hundred years later this early literary tourism faces a challenge by an unlikely rival. Two of the one hundred and fifty sets of the "Lord of the Rings"-movies were set in the Rangitata valley: the fortress of Helm's Deep and the town of Edoras, with the latter attracting special attention from the media and locals since its construction in 1999. Despite early pledges to leave the Edoras set with its elaborate cottages, stables and hall intact, the set was finally

disassembled. And yet both locations are now attracting film tourists, with Edoras itself being one of the favourite locations of the Lord of the Rings-movies to visit.

What are the characteristics of these special-interest tourism forms? Both support the claim that tourists are seekers of myths and challenge the notion that tourists seek authenticity in their experience. It is interesting to note that both myths used existing physical features to heighten the reality aspects of their telling. Both tales incorporated already existing images: Erewhon referred to an old legend that a lost tribe may live hidden in the mountains while Lord of the Rings capitalised on the green and adventurous image that had been created for the destination New Zealand.

What will happen now? Both myths are already used to distinguish the Canterbury high country as a unique place in the increasingly competitive destination market. It will be interesting to monitor how far the place identity will be altered eventually.

Keywords: literary tourism, film tourism, myth making, place promotion, uniqueness, Erewhon, Lord of the Rings

Tourism and Media in Nepal (Video)

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Humorous Sites: An Exploration of Tourism at Comedic TV and Film Locations

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Recent research has shown that tourists are interested in visiting the locations featured on their favourite TV shows and films (see, for example, Beeton, 2001; Busby and Klug, 2001; and, Grihault, 2003). However, there has been little research on comedic TV and film locations and, the associated role of humour and tourist behaviour.

The impact of humour in society has been studied for generations in such disciplines as medicine (Fry 1992), social psychology (Mahony, Burroughs and Lippman 2002), philosophy (Critchley 2002), advertising (Cline, Altsech, and Kellaris 2003) and, management (Barsoux 1993). Humour has been considered in the realm of hospitality (Ball and Johnson 2000) and in leisure settings (Katovich, 1993; Stebbins, 1996), but it would appear that no study has specifically examined the relationship between humour and tourism.

The principal objective of this paper, therefore, was to begin the process of addressing this gap in the literature by conceptualising humour and the tourist experience during the three phases of the tourist experience, i.e., before travel, during travel and after travel. During the travel phase the tourist attends comedy festivals and events, and/or visits other “humorous places” such as sites featured on comedic TV shows and movies. An illustrative example of a humour related tourism product is the City of New York endorsed *Kramer’s Reality Tours*. The tour has been operating since 1996 and features many sites made famous on the TV sitcom *Sienfeld*.

Figure 1 (over page) conceptualises the link between humour and tourism in terms of travel motivations, experiences, satisfaction levels, and potential for repeat visits. The recognition of humour in the tourist

experience has implications for destination managers, particularly in relation to the management of these “humorous places”.

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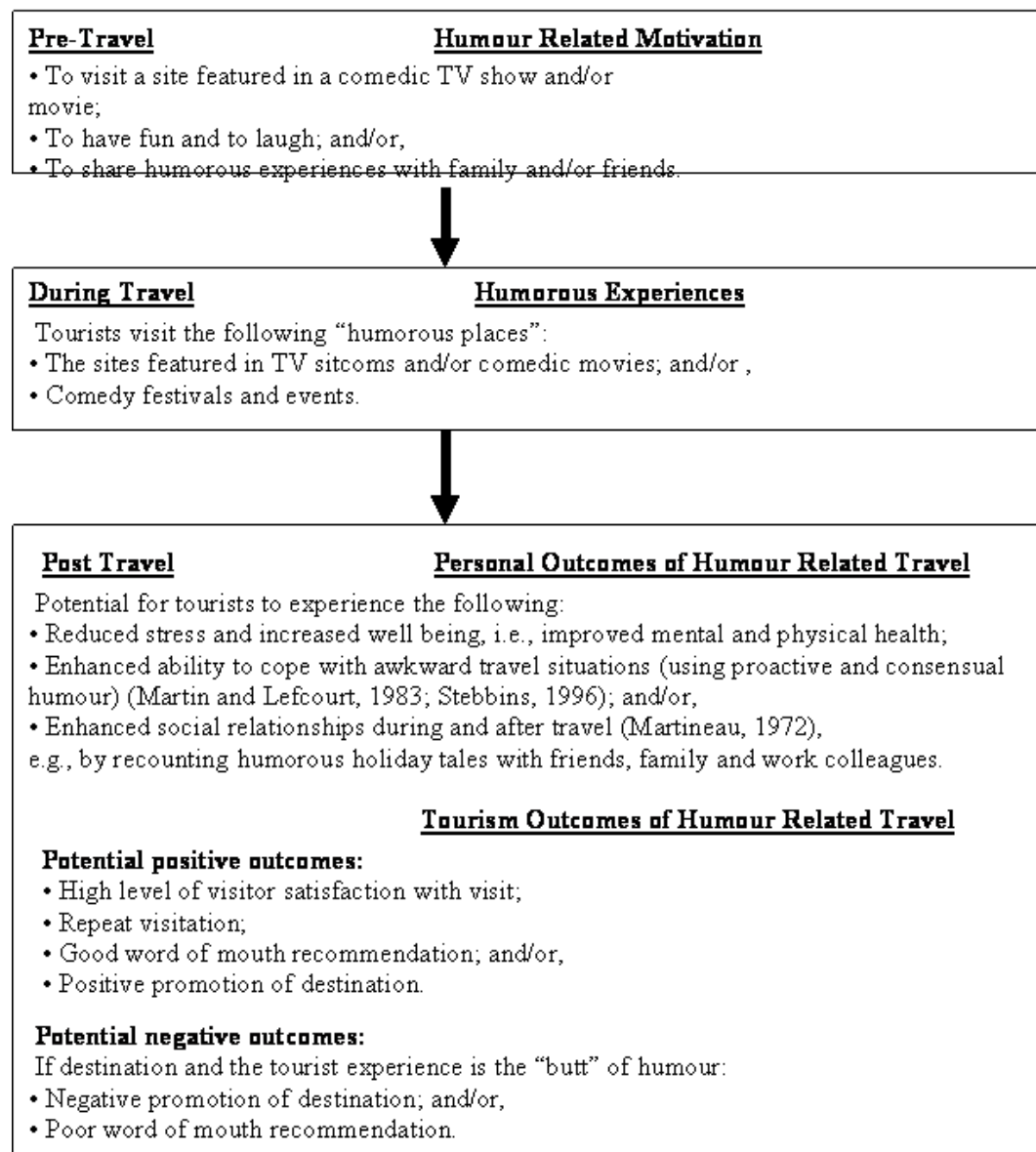


Figure 1: Humour and the Tourist Experience

From Dead Heart to Red Heart: Developing the Destination Image of the Australian Outback

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The Australian Outback projects a destination image which is unique and attractive to tourists. While this destination image is promoted by various destination marketing organisations, it was initially established by a range of media, including books, magazines, art and film. Though crucial to the development of destination image, such *organic* media stand outside of the control of destination marketing organisations and the tourism industry. This paper examines the development of the Outback's destination image through three sources. These are the books *Australia Unlimited* (1918) and *I saw a strange land* (1950) and the film *Jedda* (1955).

Establishing Identity: Collaborative Methodologies in Film and Tourism

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This paper reports some thinking on a project that examines the representation of locations in tourism marketing, and in specific film traditions. Our research specifically looks at Sydney, Shanghai and Hong Kong: major cities on the Western Pacific Rim and each at the centre of distinctive film traditions. A central question is whether these forms of cultural production converge or compete in identifying *the city*. More generally the notions of place representation in various media (print, electronic or film) may show how the practical requirements and aesthetics of commerce and art combine or otherwise in conveying a sense of the location in the public mind, and conveying a characteristic identity that differentiates the place for commercial or artistic purposes. In this paper we highlight ways of approaching this question, within two distinct academic traditions, and assess how and whether the conceptual filters of academic theory and discipline inform one another with a particular focus on method.

The marketing concepts of *branding* give one access to how a location identifies itself, its position in its market, its authentic and underlying substance and its aspirational goals. For consumers of cities, such as tourists particularly, but also investors and migrants, a location's brand, (and its encapsulation in a logo, slogan or list of values and attributes) ideally conveys messages about what the city *is*, and would be found to be if visited or lived in. This representation of the city assumes a physical reality, an entity with an essentially uncontested geographic and historic character, and an emergent personality that stems from the people of that city constructed with their culture, values, customs, memory and collective sense of

self. In the product view of a city these can be elicited, identified, accurately described and substantiated by evidence. The view is a realist one, uncritically operating with a business focus in the "real world". Methods, (such as the repertory grid and conceptual mapping of various kinds) exist to establish, record and represent all the required information that describes how a location is constructed for its perceivers.

The discipline of film theory brings other qualities and conceptual tools, and does not necessarily accept the restrictions implied by the above. A city is imagined, by tourists, investors and migrants, and imaginations are realised by filmmakers. The imagination may be nostalgic, aspirational or of everyday life, with varying degrees of substantiability by the "real" city, yet, just as Monet's impressionist paintings convey sensual qualities of locations not evident in photographs, less literal aspects of mood and feeling may be suggested by filmic sensibilities. This in turn can convey powerful messages to potential consumers of the actual city, not necessarily with a conscious tourism marketing focus. Using, for example, categories from film analysis, these can be discerned.

Our research aims to address these issues by using a range of methods from each tradition in reifying this cross-disciplinary problematic. Indeed when the very conceptualisation vies between modern and postmodern ontologies, among physically real, socially constructed and subjectively imagined subject matter, and interpreted with quite possibly opposed aesthetics and directions of understanding (cf. the abstract qualities of Monet's later work with photorealism), there would be implications for how we investigate tourism and media beyond the specific study reported here.

Painting (A Picture Of) Australia: Creative Literature as a Surrogate Tourist Guide

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Without media portrayals, Australia is a blank canvas. Visitors, domestic and international, need the help of media to paint a picture for them. In times past, grand tourists deconstructed cultural landscapes through 'non-tourist practices' such as literature and art. In painting their picture of Australia, the creative arts have viewed the world through a romantic gaze. The romantic era in which this gaze was born, demonstrates the ability of the creative arts to inspire tangible connections with intangible, imagined and aesthetically pleasing worlds.

In a world suffocating with information; guidebooks, travel programs and brochures organise the complexities into accessible and manageable segments. The objective nature of tourism-related media however stifles the imagination, and structures the experience at the expense of deeper understanding. The more sophisticated new tourists are self directed and in search of authentic experiences. Creative literature provides the means for these tourists to interpret cultural landscapes, blending their own imaginations with the creative interpretations of the artist.

This paper explores the ways in which art and creative literature collaborate with tourists in painting a sense of place. To achieve this, the paper provides examples of contemporary Australian art and literature to present contrasting images of Australia. In presenting its images of the country, the tourism industry focuses on positive images that induce the romantic tourist gaze. 'Non-tourist practices' such as literature and art however, are not required to paint pleasant pictures of Australia. Artists have permission to paint a more honest picture because their art is not produced to serve the needs of the tourist industry. In their quest for authenticity the new, sophisticated

tourists are able to paint a more authentic image of Australia through the works of its creative artists.

Using the Media to Re-Invent the 'Secrets' Image of South Australia

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South Australia has many well-kept secrets – pristine nature, great festivals, superb food and wine and an artistic 'sense of difference'. It doesn't have the icons so favoured by international visitors – the Rock, the Reef – and it doesn't have the high profile of Sydney, the Olympic city with its idyllic natural harbour, bridge and opera house.

The majority of its attractions are remarkably accessible. The Barossa and Adelaide Hills wine regions and the mighty Murray River are within an hour's drive of Adelaide. The untouched wilderness of Kangaroo Island and the starry skies of the Outback are also just hours away.

A significant amount (80%) of tourism in South Australia is from the domestic market. But extensive research, showed the key markets of Sydney and Melbourne didn't know what South Australia had to offer – and this was the major factor preventing growth in domestic tourism. Potential holidaymakers had few negative perceptions about the State; rather they were inhibited by a lack of information.

In 1998, the South Australian Tourism Commission developed the 'Best Kept Secrets' an innovative marketing strategy to promote authentic experiences and position South Australia as a compelling holiday destination. It involved extensive use of the media - cinema, magazine and print advertising and the nation's largest direct mail tourism campaign. It derived much of its impact from the use of hero vision and images.

It has been a remarkably successful campaign, with a return of A\$64 million on the original marketing investment of A\$9 million. 'Secrets' has successfully

established South Australia as a compelling holiday destination. And the camera was all-important in portraying that 'secret' image.

Key words: secrets, marketing, media, cinema, South Australia

Promoting Tourism through Popular Music

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Music has had an impact on tourism in many ways. It can have an impact on a town or city. For example, those who enjoy classical music might go to Vienna, take in a Mozart concert and be photographed beside a statue of Strauss in Vienna's Stadtpark. It can have an impact on a space, such as Bethel Field, where the 1969 Woodstock concert was held. It can have an impact on where a performer lived and is buried such as with Elvis Presley and Graceland in Memphis, Tennessee. Consider the impact of an album cover, such as the Beatles' Abbey Road which inspires tourists to cross the road mimicking the album cover picture. Specifically, favourite songs may inspire devotees to visit a place identified in a song --such as Morocco in Al Stewart's Year of the Cat-- or re-enacting behaviour from a favourite song (such as crossing Waterloo bridge as "Terry and Julie" did in the Kinks' Waterloo Sunset). These examples are from a time before the popularity of video clips and the presence of MTV, which began in 1981, MTV-2 in 1996 and VH-1 in 1998. They were therefore based on the listener's interpretation and imagination, much like the images formed when reading. However, since then video clips have been able to enhance a strong visual connection between a song and a place.

Incorporate the concept that businesses in small towns in the UK were advised to invest heavily in their local English football league teams since there was evidence to suggest that there was a significant correlation between the success of the team and the prosperity of the town, and that the former caused the latter.

Therefore, if a town/place wants to benefit from tourism and increased cash-flow, the local industry ought to commission the writing of at least one quality pop song which has a link to that town, to be performed by a "name act". The town/place should also feature in the video clip. This should not be just an advertisement, which may be easily dismissed by the public, but a genuine pop song, which, if good enough on

its own merit would warrant being on the music charts and therefore on the playlists of most music stations and on TV video clips both in the home country as well as overseas. Perhaps a TV show could be developed, calling itself Idle Pop, to target songs featuring tourist destinations.

If all this sounds a little far-fetched, artificial and contrived, consider what is happening in the music industry with television "reality shows" manufacturing pop groups and performers. Furthermore, remember the concept of product placement which is becoming stronger in the movie and television industry. For example, Pepsi products were embedded in many movies including "Back to the Future" and "Austin Powers", and back in 1963 Coca Cola provided one of the earliest examples when a plane was flown through a Coke Billboard in "It's a Mad, Mad, Mad, Mad World".

Tourism as a Medium for Projecting National Identity: Some Reflections on the “Selling Australia” Television Series

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In his seminal text on tourism planning, Gunn (1982) classified the elements of destination image into organic images (views present within the wider community) and induced images (those deliberately propagated by those with a vested interest in stimulating tourism activity). Gunn's classification has provided a useful insight into the influence exerted by destination authorities and its limitations. It may be concluded that induced images lend themselves to transmission by media (print or electronic). Though they are less directly influenced by destination authorities the longevity of organic images is nevertheless dependent on transmission via a medium of some kind (book, atlas, guide book or narrative). It is less clear how images of national identity may be communicated through the medium of tourism and what sort of influence that these images may have.

In the first episode of the four part television series “Selling Australia”, overseas journalists explain their views of Australia as a place to live and to visit. These views are then mediated by the narrator, prominent Australian actor Sigrid Thornton. The journalists make a range of observations about Australia's identity and character and these are in turn compared and contrasted with views expressed by Australians including Australian journalists. In this episode tourism is not a primary focus but remains a background influence. The second episode of the series (“The Brand”) focuses on the promotional activities undertaken by the destination authorities over time, including a wider exploration of the part played by national identity (including a vignette on the role of Paul Hogan in successive campaigns). As well as an actor, Thornton may be viewed as an embodiment of public broadcasting, and her role as a narrator for the series creates an ambiguous

genre located somewhere between film and documentary, but incorporating key elements of Australia's tourism branding.

The four parts of the series are as follows. 1. The Games (the Sydney 2000 Olympics), 2. The Brand (how the Australian tourism authorities are attempting to portray the destination), 3. Tourist Town (observations of Cairns as a destination frequented by international and particularly by Japanese tourists) and 4. The Red Heart (tourist encounters with Aborigines in Central Australia). Collectively the four episodes examine the “Golden Triangle” of tourism – The Reef, the Rock and the Opera House – as settings for the exploration of Australian identity.

The series displays the multiple functions played by “media” in forming and communicating destination images and identities. These are shown interacting with the images generated by the Australian Tourist Commission associated with the staging of the Olympic Games. Through the course of the series, journalists reflect about issues of national identity. The “Games” episode highlights the frustration and disappointment of some international journalists covering the Olympics when they failed to uncover the hoped for “conflict” between the indigenous community and the Australian authorities. This highlights the limited influence that the destination has over the views of international journalists with their preconceived notions.

Broadcast on Australian public television in 2001, the series is an interesting precursor to the recently launched Commonwealth Government *Tourism White Paper* which has subsequently given rise to the establishment of the revised *Brand Australia*. The new campaign has attempted to stretch the established tourism destination imagery by incorporating insights into the national character. This approach has featured observations about Australia by poets, sporting figures and other embodiments of Australian life. The campaign has signalled a desire by government to project a sense of national identity and the choice of tourism as a medium for this. In response key source markets have shown a reluctance to embrace the subtler presentations of the Australian character, reflective for example of a lack of cricketering heroes amongst American consumers. As a result of lukewarm

consumer response, Tourism Australia has signalled a modest return to more established iconography such as wildlife and national landmarks. This may indicate that source market preferences have greater influence over induced imagery than deliberate projections of national identity by destinations wishing to determine how they will be viewed by the rest of the world.

News Media's Influence on the Youth Market's Perceptions of Adventure Tourism

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Much of the literature on the impact of news media representation of adventure activity accidents on the travel decisions of young people indicates that the media has a powerful, negative affect. However, young people are also seen as risk-takers, so it stands to reason that they may be affected positively by increased perceptions of risk. In an effort to further illuminate these conflicting issues, an exploratory study of the youth travel market's perceptions of adventure activities was undertaken.

University students between 18 and 34 years old were surveyed in terms of their attitudes and perceptions of the risks associated with adventure activities in relation to any news reports they recall. A series of in-depth interviews with leading adventure tourism operators were undertaken in order to ascertain the actual situation.

Findings indicate two separate influences that media reports have had. While they increase perceptions of danger that discourages some from participating in the activity, others certainly indicate an increased interest in future participation.

Designing Leisure/Space: The Presentation and Performance of New Modes of Local Leisure and Tourist Activities in Nineteen Sixties and Seventies New Zealand

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This paper is concerned with the sociological significance of tourism destination marketing consumed by local audiences in New Zealand in the nineteen sixties and seventies. Examples of visual publicity produced by and for the Tourist Hotel Corporation of New Zealand in these decades are analysed. Produced for print media this material draws on photographic, illustrative and typographic visual languages. Semiotic and rhetorical analysis is employed to examine the ways these texts construct local places, subjectivities and experiences.

Visual communication design employed in tourism destination marketing consumed by local audiences provides a valuable source of visual evidence, which documents the ways in which changing global patterns of leisure, travel and consumption have impacted on local geographic and economic contexts and subjectivities. This paper investigates and advances relationships between the visual histories, tropes, myths, narratives and iconic codes which inform the visual content of the material examined; and the political and economic imperatives that have set production agenda and contributed to social constructions of place and subjectivities.

Recent work in the sociology of tourism has argued that the tourist experience is now fundamentally performative. This marked shift has been attributed to factors which include the changing global order, the growth of the mass tourism industry and global destination marketing, and the subsequent lack of differentiation between the visual experiences tourist destinations offer. (Bell & Lyall, 2002; Coleman & Crang, 2002; Crouch & Lubben, 2003;

Dann, 2002; Edensor, 2000; Jamal & Hill, 2002; Urry, 2003)

Drawing on the historical visual evidence discussed, the paper argues that performativity within the tourism experience in the local context of New Zealand is not a recent shift. The tourist performances encouraged by local destination marketing from this time period contributed to a heightened local cultural investment in the significance of the landscape and local sense of place. The local consumption of tourist hotels and destinations contributed to the advance of infrastructural developments and grooming of the iconic sites of New Zealand's international tourist map. The publicity material functioned as an image space in which global modes of leisure and consumption were re-presented to the local audience.

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Indian Media and Its Role in Inbound and Outbound Tourism Promotion and Development

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Media is playing an important role in the growth, development and promotion by creating a better awareness and understanding to cater the needs and requirements of domestic and international tourist. As we know that every traveller is a 'potential' tourist, it how depends upon the campaign of professionals (media professionals and Tourism experts) of the industry to tap this potential and convert the 'potential' into the 'actual' clients (tourist).

In a country like India the travel journalists, media experts on travel, tourism and hospitality, leading and branded newspapers mainly published from Indian cities, attractive and popular magazines, renowned reporters and electronics media's are always highlighting the clients about the places of tourist interest, tourism, tourist season (peak and lean), image, scope of shopping, resources, hospitalities, peoples, culture and heritage to cater the needs of prospective and actual tourist.

In this paper an attempt has been made to explore the role of Indian media in the creation of the three significant stage of tourist, traveller and excursionists psychology and behaviours from a marketing management perspective.

Stage 1: Role of media to create positive and negative image about the tourist destination.

This stage may be treated as the 'pre-primary' or 'pre-visit' stage of the visitor experience. Destination can influence this process through communication campaign and information provisions. In this stage the tourist will be in a very good mental condition because he has collected information and necessary details about the 'Dream Destination' or 'Dream Site' or the package of the tour operator or travel agent.

The future tourist will try to encounter with the destination by the help of following item:

- i. Experienced traveller, who already visited the destination
- ii. Report published by travel journalist about the details of the destination in prestigious newspaper.
- iii. Guide books, periodicals and magazines
- iv. Photography of a renowned photographer
- v. Brochures, pamphlets, maps published by tour operator and travel agents, National Tourism organisations.
- vi. Internet and electronics mail and television programmes.

Tourist has to present at the place of consumption to consume the tourism product or service. The tourism products which satisfy the leisure, pleasure or business or any other needs at places other than the tourist own place of his/her residence. The Tajmahal of Agra, the Kandareo Mahadeo temple of Khajuraho, the natural beauty of Shimla only can be seen by the process of media projection (print visual and electronics)

Stage 2: Final selection of the tourist site /destination and make a plan to visit the site or to purchase the package and the presence of tourist in the destination

Finally the tourist are reaching in a particular site or destination. The condition of the transportation, the condition of road, rail, ship, ferry, flight, terminus (depending upon the mode of transportation used by tourist), behaviour of the employee in various sector, physical feature, psychological impact of sign posting, parking places, entry and exist points, landscaping, the beautification of the building on the way, street furniture and the condition of litter- all tastes being taken by the tourist during the journey periods.

Process of welcome and greetings obviously create a good impression about the host community and sometimes the warm welcome may relax the visitor in different way. The stay stage should be authentic. In stay stage authenticity may be a big issue and factor.

Tourist and with the interaction with the host, collection information from information centres at the destination (though tourist have received and collected information prior to their arrival) and finally the direct contact with the site, shopping at the site, participating in events and all other

activity including participating in sightseeing and the physical presence of tourist, sometime tourist also claim that they have 'explored' a specific 'product' or 'service'.

Stage 3: To make a match between the actual attraction of the site and the 'image' built by the media (print, visual and electronics).

A satisfied tourist is the asset of the Industry and he will try to create a sizable number of position prospective clients and sometime they (tourist) will be repeat visitor (customers-loyal).

But dissatisfied tourist will spread the negative word of mouth and this campaign will destroy the image, concept and idea of the site or country.

Using the Media to Re-Invent the ‘Secrets’ Image of South Australia

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Abstract

As a tourist destination South Australia has many attractions (eg nature, festivals, food and wine and a ‘sense of difference’), but it doesn’t have the icons so favoured by international visitors – the Rock, the Reef – and it doesn’t have the high profile of Sydney, the Olympic city with its idyllic natural harbour, bridge and opera house.

The majority of its attractions are easily accessible. The Barossa and Adelaide Hills wine regions and the Murray River are within an hour’s drive of Adelaide. The natural wilderness of Kangaroo Island and the expanses of the Outback are also just hours away.

Most tourism (80%) in South Australia is from the domestic market, but extensive research showed the key markets of Sydney and Melbourne didn’t know what South Australia had to offer – and this was the major factor preventing growth in domestic tourism. Potential holidaymakers had few negative perceptions about the State; rather they were inhibited by a lack of information.

In 1998, the South Australian Tourism Commission developed the ‘Best Kept Secrets’, a marketing strategy which promoted authentic experiences and positioned South Australia as a compelling holiday destination. It involved extensive use of the media - cinema, magazine and print advertising and the nation’s largest direct mail tourism campaign. It derived much of its impact from the use of iconic vision and images.

It has been a particularly successful campaign, with a return of \$64 million on the original marketing investment of \$9 million. ‘Secrets’ has successfully established South Australia as a compelling holiday destination. And the camera was all-important in portraying that ‘secret’ image.

Key words: secrets, marketing, media, cinema, South Australia

Introduction

South Australia is vast in area, nearly four times the size of the United Kingdom, but the majority of its attractions are easily accessible. The Barossa and Adelaide Hills wine regions and the Murray River are within an hour’s drive of Adelaide. The natural wilderness of Kangaroo Island and the expanses of the Outback are also just hours away.

The State is home to 1.4 million residents who mostly live in the southern coastal region and the capital city of Adelaide (ABS 2002). Despite the South Australian Tourism Commission’s *SA Brand Health Monitor* (2002) confirming that South Australia is the State most closely associated with wine and food, festivals and events and arts and entertainment, the State still has some well-kept secrets, including nature, festivals, food and wine and a ‘sense of difference’. It doesn’t have the icons favoured by international visitors – the Rock, the Reef – and it doesn’t have the high profile of

Sydney, the Olympic city with its idyllic natural harbour, bridge and opera house.

Role of Media in Tourism

The challenge for any marketing manager is not only to raise awareness of their product (or destination), but also to attract the attention of the potential client (or visitor) in the first place, and then to hold it for long enough to get across the message that the place is worth visiting. Urry (2002) argues for the fundamentally visual nature of tourism experiences. He suggests that it is the image, or the ‘tourist gaze’ that provides some structure to the visitor experience, and the images that are part of the experience are what establishes the ‘difference’ of the place from elsewhere. Others argue that the concept of the tourist gaze does not accurately capture the moving, mobile or fleeting character of the difference in the context of the ‘other’. It focuses on the tourist whilst at rest, rather than when walking or looking out from a train or car window (Larsen 2001).

Photography has been essential to the development of contemporary tourism. Osborne (2000) suggests that they are not separate processes, but that each derives from and enhances the other, creating an 'ensemble'. He talks about the 'ultimate inseparability of photography from tourism's general culture and economy', and Taylor (1994) shows that photography has been essential to the development of tourism. Urry (2003) also argues that 'photography gives shape to travel ... and turns sites into sights, and have constructed what is worth going to sightsee, and what images and memories should be brought back', demonstrating that images are an important part of both destination marketing and the visitor experience.

It is this use of photography and visual imagery that has formed the basis for the 'Secrets' campaign that has positioned, and re-positioned, South Australia as a tourism destination.

Other strategies that have been utilised as part of this campaign include a comprehensive understanding of who the State's visitors are, what they want and how the environmental features and landscapes, both natural and cultural, are interpreted

once they are here.

Tourism Means Business

Tourism is an important industry for South Australia, accounting for \$3.4 billion in spending and 10% of the State's economic growth in 2001 (Economic Research Consultants, 2002). Tourism, directly and indirectly, contributes to the employment of more than 44,000 people with job growth at 5.5 times the rate of all job growth in the State (Brian Dermott and Associates, 2002). South Australia attracted 1.9 million interstate visitors and nine million interstate visitor nights in the 12 months to June 2002 (see figure 1). Victoria and New South Wales are the State's biggest interstate markets, providing 43% and 29% of the State's interstate visitor nights respectively. A range of factors influence people's decisions to travel, including time, disposable income, business, special interest attractions and availability of appropriate destinations and attractions. This study looks at the role that the media played in increasing visitor numbers, specifically from the domestic market, to South Australia, with particular reference to the *Secrets* campaign.

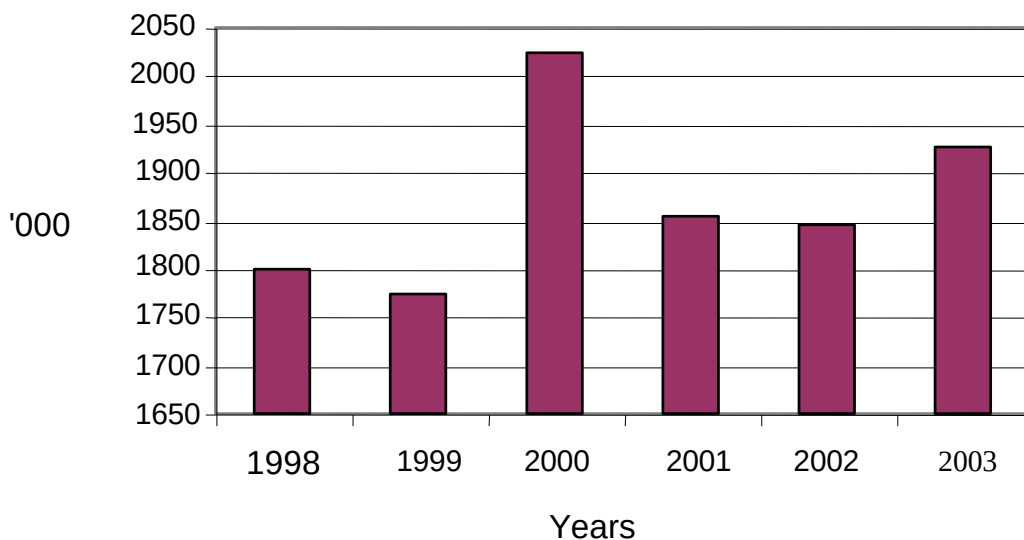


Figure 1: Interstate Visitor Numbers to South Australia 1998 – 2003

Tourism Image

The South Australian Tourism Commission developed the "*Tourism Means Business 1996 – 2001 Strategic Plan*" (1996) after extensive research, analysis and community consultation. It provided the foundation for the development of a large, integrated domestic tourism campaign specifically

designed to reinvent the image of South Australia.

The plan included a detailed analysis of the State's competitive advantages, an in-depth review of marketing strategies and target markets and a series of objectives, including the need to:

- Establish a strong market position with a distinctive brand; and
- Strengthen South Australia's appeal as a destination.

The South Australian Tourism Commission (SATC) *Secrets* campaign was developed in 1998 to specifically address the lack of awareness about the State in the key interstate markets of New South Wales and Victoria, where more than 90% of respondents agreed with the Statement: "I'm unsure if South Australia has a host of hidden treasures it can offer tourists, but if so, I'd like to know about them" (Marketing Insights 1997). Consumers on the eastern seaboard not only had little knowledge about the State as a tourism destination, they also thought "there was not enough to see and do".

A State Government economic strategy study (Little 1992) concluded that, compared with other States, South Australia's tourism market share was relatively small because:

- The State did not have the attributes required to be a leading tourism destination;
- South Australia suffered from a lack of awareness among the potential visitors; and
- Its location was relatively isolated, making access both time-consuming and expensive.

Internal SATC research (1994a) showed that while South Australia was unlikely to be a mass tourism destination, it could position itself successfully as a specialty destination, based on its inherent natural and cultural strengths. This same research showed that the secondary market inevitably had no strong images of the State apart from Adelaide and the Barossa.

Marketing for Change (SATC 1994b) went further: "The main reason South Australia is not considered as a destination is that many people have absolutely no images or impressions of it. There are no foundations in their headspace on which to build to attract them ... while this situation is less than desirable it should be noted that 'vacant' is better than rejected."

The Creation of an Eidetic Identity

The proposed solution to this problem of lack of awareness was to establish an eidetic identity for the State and more particularly Adelaide. "The capital, in most people's minds, in these and previous studies, dominates the thoughts and visions of the

State, if not as a venue in itself, then as a base from which to explore and experiment" (Kelly et al 1990).

An eidetic identity is one that consists of a vivid and persistent type of imagery or memory that is usually established in childhood. Some of the world's strongest eidetic identities include built forms such as the Statue of Liberty as a symbol of New York, the Eiffel Tower for Paris and the Opera House for Sydney.

The strategic implications of not having an eidetic image (SATC 1994c) were that:

- South Australia is not positioned in the minds of the travel market as any kind of tourism destination.
- South Australia has established very few clear images or associations, no separate identity or story and suffers from a total lack of awareness of its history and historic places; in addition the overall experience it offers is not understood or able to be articulated even by those who 'loved' it.
- South Australia's tourism promotion would be strengthened if there were a recognizable and credible image, or images, which could be readily brought to mind.

South Australia as a destination, though, is the road less travelled. International visitors to the State are usually repeat visitors to Australia who are seeking an authentic experience (SATC 2002b). The marketing challenge has been how to depict the range of authentic holiday experiences without an icon or single image that immediately conjures up South Australia.

Photography and tourism are inextricably linked, as described by Gregory (1999) in the example of tourism in the late nineteenth-century in Egypt. In a process referred to as Kodakisation: "Egypt became scripted as a place of constructed visibility, with multiple, enframed theatrical scenes set up for the edification, entertainment and visual consumption of 'European' visitors".

The Marketing Challenge

The marketing challenge was, using a limited advertising budget, to put South Australia on the holiday shopping list of consumers who knew little about the State's tourism experiences. To maximise the impact of the campaign and gain a competitive advantage, the SATC had to focus on differentiating its tourism experiences and use innovative

communication, media and distribution channels. The selection of iconic images to represent the State's tourism product and experiences played a significant role in the success of the campaign.

Additional market research (Sweeney and Associates 1992) concluded that successful travel destinations would be those that recognised the importance of exploration and discovery as motivations for domestic travel, and could emotionalise their hidden secrets.

The *Secrets* brand was developed by the SATC in conjunction with advertising agency *kwp!* and drew on a variety of research studies including the *Taking Tourism to 2000 SATC Marketing Plan* (1994c), which identified that travellers were interested in authentic experiences and the key attributes of South Australia, namely nature, festivals, food and wine. The *Secrets* brand was the marketing response to the interest of potential holidaymakers in exploration and discovery. The brand also implied a sense of mystery, intrigue and an undiscovered holiday destination.

Developing the Brand

Before *Secrets*, the SATC had predominately adopted mass-media advertising, using television for branding and print for tactical product offers and holiday brochure fulfillment. Analysis showed that, due to the nature of the campaigns and the relatively small advertising budget, they did little to shift the awareness or perceptions of South Australia as a holiday destination. Some of the images selected to represent the State and its capital of Adelaide, also failed to capture the spirit of the place and held little appeal to would-be holidaymakers. In some instances, the campaign slogans, themes and images used could have represented any number of tourist destinations.

For example, previous campaigns for South Australia, developed in the 1990's, used the slogans "Out of the Ordinary" and "Come to Your Senses", both of which could be negatively construed. Indeed, the "Come to Your Senses" slogan was intended to be used nationally and internationally until the translation in Japanese turned out to be, "Don't be Stupid".

Additionally, images selected for the "Out of the Ordinary" campaign featured a rotunda from the Victorian era on the banks of the Torrens River in the heart of Adelaide. An

image selected for the "Come to Your Senses" campaign featured two people in a city restaurant. These images could have been taken anywhere in the world.

Competitor analysis showed that other Australian State tourism organisations were making bold statements about their destinations and using dynamic images and music. In contrast, the "Out of Ordinary" and "Come to Your Senses" campaigns developed for South Australia were deliberately restrained, refined and quiet. The rationale behind these campaigns was to stand out in a crowded advertising market by being significantly different (SATC 1994a). Importantly, the campaigns did contain some images that were distinctly South Australian, including shots of the Murray River and the coastline of Kangaroo Island. They were also the first to promote a holiday experience that was intrinsically linked to the destination and most likely to appeal to the target markets. However, in addition to the deficits of the campaigns outlined above, advertising budgets were relatively small. The marketing strategies relied heavily on television advertising which didn't have the required frequency or longevity to have a lasting impact on South Australia's brand position in the loud and crowded advertising markets of Sydney and Melbourne.

An evaluation of the "Come to Your Senses" research (Kelly et al 1990) quoted in South Australia's Tourism Image and Positioning: An Analysis of the Research findings, 1986-1993 campaign, concluded that the danger for South Australia in a competitive environment was that it would be swamped and forgotten. While the "Senses" campaign started promisingly it was not supported with enough time or media weight (Di Marzio, 1995).

The images (moving and still) selected for *Secrets* built on the strengths of the previous campaigns. They captured the attractions and experiences of the State, including the vineyards of the Barossa, Remarkable Rocks and Seal Bay on Kangaroo Island and the Flinders Ranges in the Outback, described as Australia's last frontier (SATC 1994b). One of the significant differences in the 1998 *Secrets* campaign is that it featured people interacting in, and with, the landscape. It also had the media weight to create a momentum that helped to change the State's image.

In developing the campaign, a thorough analysis of previous work and research was

conducted. *Taking Tourism to 2000* (SATC 1994c) stated that it would be a poor strategy for South Australia to compete head to head with the power or commodity brands of Queensland and New South Wales, because it lacked the high profile “landmarks” of these brands.

This research suggested that it would be an equally poor strategy for the State to compete on the basis that it has a bit of everything or has it all, and recommended that to compete successfully in tourism, South Australia had to move from the fringe brand position to become a specialty brand. A specialty brand is the market’s first choice for a particular type of holiday based on clearly defined benefits, or a core benefit proposition that a destination consistently delivers better than other destinations.

Matching the Holiday Benefits to SA Tourism Product

The Experiential Tourist

Experiential tourists want to discover new places and learn something of value as part of their travelling (McKercher and du Cros 2002). They are attracted to places that are significant, important and of special interest. They want an experience that shows them an authentic sense of place (Boorstin 1964).

Over the past 10 years the Australian Tourist Commission has developed a marketing campaign aimed at branding Australia, using iconic images and film footage to illustrate the arts, culture and environmental assets of the country. Over a five-year period between 1994 and 1998, it mounted a campaign that had a different special interest focus each year. For example 1994 was the year to *Discover the Great Australian Outdoors*, and 1996 was the year to *Experience the Festivals of Oz* (Australian Tourist Commission 1993 - 1998). Each film sequence created an ‘ensemble’ (Osborne 2000). Each showed the experiential tourist collecting memories and images (Taylor 1994) to be taken home. The campaigns positioned Australia as an experiential destination, with activities suitable for people from a range of age groups and cultural backgrounds.

Travellers’ Tales (AFTA 1993) identified that people select a destination on the basis of the perceived benefit it offers, with those benefits including:

- **Change** – seeing or doing something different from home

- **Escape** – getting away from the humdrum of the daily routine
- **Relaxation** – opportunity to unwind and be oneself
- **Indulgence** – being waited on and pampered
- **Learning** – understanding different places and cultures
- **Adventure** – doing things that are exciting, daring and challenging
- **Socialising** – meeting people and making new contacts and friends
- **Experience** – feeling of belonging to a “club” of experienced travellers

It was important that South Australia’s marketing position met the needs of the market in a way that acknowledged the inherent strengths of the State’s tourism product, identified as food, wine, festivals and an unspoilt natural environment with an emphasis on ecotourism and soft adventure (SATC 1997). To achieve the advertising industry’s Holy Grail of “cut through”, and successfully reposition the State’s image, a compelling brand and innovative communication strategy was required.

Developing the New Brand by Telling the Secrets

The 1998 *Secrets* campaign changed the focus and promoted authentic experiences that positioned South Australia as a compelling holiday destination. It involved extensive use of cinema, magazine and print advertising and the nation’s largest direct mail tourism campaign. It was a strategic marketing campaign that derived much of its impact from the use of iconic vision and images.

The SATC invested in a series of images – print and film – that were distinctively South Australian and reinforced all that was surprising about the State. Extensive research was conducted into the types of holiday experiences sought by our markets, plus the media they watched and read.

Cinema advertising (as opposed to television) and direct mail were selected as the primary means of communicating, because South Australia needed stronger branding and better positioning; television was an expensive and fleeting medium; and the State was competing in a crowded advertising market and against more powerful brands with greater media budgets. South Australia also needed an innovative mechanism to communicate to the market and differentiate its tourism product.

Research (SATC 1994b) showed the campaign had to simultaneously develop a stronger brand and identity and improve the knowledge of the State to overcome the perception that there was not enough to see or do.

Cinema v Television

Cinema was selected over television as a primary communications channel for three reasons:

- It was a highly emotional medium that enabled an evocative story to be told in 90 seconds as opposed to 30 or 60;
- The target markets were heavy cinema users; and
- The relatively low cost of cinema meant the campaign could run for a full 12 months, as opposed to six weeks on television, in the key markets of Melbourne and Sydney.

Two new cinema commercials featuring iconic images of South Australia's tourism attractions and set to the music of Van Morrison's *Days Like This* emotionalised the State's tourism product.

Strategic media buying also enabled the SATC to obtain an exclusivity agreement, precluding all other State tourism organisations from advertising on cinema, which effectively meant that South Australia owned the medium in the tourism category. The cinema "call to action" was a website and free call telephone number which encouraged consumers to obtain the *Book of Best Kept Secrets*.

Direct Marketing

Another aspect of the marketing campaign was the direct mail distribution of a high-quality, magazine-style motivational brochure, the *Book of Best Kept Secrets*, which was delivered to more than 1.4 million households in Victoria, New South Wales, the Australian Capital Territory and South Australia.

It was one of the largest direct mail campaigns ever conducted in Australia. The quality and size of the 148-page publication, along with the volume of books distributed had a major impact on the market's awareness of South Australia as a holiday destination. Unlike most other tourism collateral it had a black cover which also helped to generate interest in the publication, and it became known as 'The Black Book'. This single piece of collateral helped differentiate the State and delivered a great

deal of information about a range of iconic holiday experiences.

Role of Interpretation in Tourism and Marketing

The *Secrets* campaign aimed to interpret the attractions and destinations of South Australia in a way that appealed to the target market. The campaign told some of the stories of the State, interpreting the culture, landscape and people to demonstrate what South Australia and its lifestyle had to offer. Tilden (1977) recognised that interpretation of sites and attractions was integral to people's understanding of places, and hence to the experience of visitors. Interpretation, based on information, presents a range of materials and aims to stimulate, inspire, and tell a story that captures the imagination of the visitor.

The marketing materials used in the *Secrets* campaign have become the educators, with the ability to influence views, thoughts and actions (Tilden 1977), and provide information in an enjoyable and stimulating format to encourage visitation.

The campaign focused on events, people and places that could be directly associated with South Australia. Some of the images were better known, particularly among certain potential client groups, such as the Adelaide Oval (sports tourists) or Kangaroo Island (ecotourists). This decision is in line with the State emphasis on cultural or heritage tourism on people, places and artefacts (Leader-Elliott 1996), and with a nature-based focus for ecotourists.

The campaign took many different forms; those that were well designed attracted attention and those that were well written sustained interest. Information booklets, like the first edition *Book of Best Kept Secrets* and subsequent regional area books were appealing and presented in an entertaining manner. This, according to Ham, (1992) almost guarantees client attention. Introductions written for all the booklets foreshadowed what was available in the State, providing readers with an overview and 'setting the scene' (Ham 1992), another key factor in the principles of interpretation. Colour and appealing images are particularly effective in attracting attention. Text and content have the potential to engage interest, especially when it is unexpected, secret or even controversial. The covers of the regional guides portrayed the place, which

established interest and conveyed relevance to the reader (Snooks and Co 2002).

The on-going *Secrets* campaign complements the South Australian Tourism Plan 2003-2008 (2002b), particularly Objective 1.7: Celebrate the State's art and culture and Objective 1.8: Tell the Story of the State's history and heritage. The Adelaide City Council's City Arts and Living Culture Strategy 2003-2007 (2003) similarly supports the philosophies of the campaign.

Distribution

Distribution of the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* was highly targeted, using sophisticated socio-economic demographic mapping. The comprehensive direct mail campaign targeted consumers in key markets who most wanted to travel to South Australia (Roy Morgan, 1994). The values segments identified included: visible achievers, socially aware and traditional family life (Dickman 1997). People in these categories have a high propensity to read magazines/catalogues and the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* provided a vehicle to brand and convey greater knowledge of SA at the same time. Significantly it provided information and the vehicle for conversion. It was backed by a major web-site initiative (also high target market use) and followed by a specific call to action.

A substantial national print and magazine advertising campaign backed up the cinema and direct mail activities, and used the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* as the primary fulfilment vehicle.

Secrets of Campaign Results

Topline

The *Secrets* campaign has proved an overwhelming success, with SATC tracking research showing that it has attracted an additional 93,000 people from Victoria and New South Wales alone in the first four years (see Figure 1) and has generated \$64 million for the State's tourism economy (SATC 2001).

Book of Best Kept Secrets

Qualitative research undertaken on behalf of the SATC (Roy Morgan, 1999), including focus group consultation, conducted as part of the evaluation of *Book of Best Kept Secrets*, showed that people's reaction and use was consistent and striking – they usually looked at it immediately and kept it in a prominent place (Roy Morgan, 1999). It

was also not uncommon for them to share the publication outside of their households. Some people in the focus groups had already booked a holiday and, more importantly, others who had been to South Australia before planned to go again as the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* had shown them new holiday experiences they did not know about. The catalogues were retained for up to 12 months and used as a reference. Roy Morgan (1999) also noted that “the findings that so many keep the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* for reference and research, and the examples of sharing it or passing it on, indicate that this campaign is very different to the usual tourism campaign”. Most significantly, the research concluded that, the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* had been very successful in giving people a new view or image of South Australia and Adelaide – it moved people to reconsider South Australia as a tourist destination.

In 2000, the Australian Marketing Institute (AMI) awarded the *Secrets* campaign the “Tourism and Leisure Campaign of the Year”. The AMI National Awards for Marketing Excellence recognises vision, strategy, commitment, achievement and excellence. One of the hallmarks of the campaign was that it focused on images of the events, people and places that were directly associated with South Australia.

The *Secrets* campaign has evolved in the past four years, but has always featured catalogues and direct mail that is designed to attract attention. It is also well written – often by journalists and travel writers – to sustain interest. The material was informative (like the first black *Book of Best Kept Secrets* and subsequent regional guides) and presented in an appealing and entertaining manner.

Other evidence relating to the success of the *Secrets* campaign includes data from the SATC's Tourism Index Survey, in which tourism business operators are surveyed each quarter and asked what impact they feel the campaign has had on their business. This Index has indicated that *Secrets* has had a positive impact on their business performance, increasing from 22% at the September quarter 1999, to 43% at the September quarter 2001 survey. Operator's comments also suggested that the *Secret's* campaign has substantially improved word of mouth advertising for South Australia within interstate markets.

Another significant marketing outcome of the campaign is the development of a database of customers with a stated preference to holiday in South Australia. In the first four years of the campaign, more than 45,000 customers have been registered on the database. The subsequent *Drive Secrets* campaign, introduced in November 2002, dramatically increased the number of people prepared to provide their names, address, and holiday preference details to a database (SATC 2002a).

The real success of the *Secrets* campaign, however, has been a significant increase in the number of visitors to the State. Interstate holiday visitor numbers to the State have grown by 17% while the numbers of locals holidaying at home has grown by 25% since 1996 (Roy Morgan 1999).

Repositing the Brand

In November 2002, the SATC launched a fresh and compelling message targeted at a rich source of visitors nationally – that is, people who have a preference for a South Australian holiday and spend more time (more than three nights) and money (more than \$2,500) than other visitors. These people have a preference for planning their drive and fly/drive holidays, and have expressed preferences for the State's key attributes. There are 270,000 of these people living in Sydney, Melbourne and Adelaide alone and last year they spent a collective \$1.5 billion on holidays in Australia. The SATC (2002b) refers to them as "most profitable prospects" or MPP's, people who on average spend more on holidays than do other visitors (SATC 2002b). Seventy per cent of South Australia's most profitable prospects are from NSW and Victoria.

National research shows that touring holiday styles account for 41% of Australia's domestic holiday spend almost double any other specific holiday type (Brian Dermott and Associates 2002). In South Australia, touring holiday types account for more than 52% of domestic holiday spend, attracting 358,000 interstate touring visitors each year who stay, on average, seven nights.

The \$5 million *Unwinding Roads of South Australia* campaign aims to position South Australia as the nation's premier drive touring destination. By building on the four-year *Secrets* branding strategy, it continues to underpin the tourism positioning of the State to the national marketplace. Featuring

new cinema, print and pay television advertising components, the reinvigorated *Secrets* campaign aims to inspire those people most likely to take a drive or fly/drive holiday in South Australia. It also includes the most comprehensive *Secrets* book ever produced – a 152-page drive and fly/drive touring guide, the *Unwinding Roads of South Australia*, designed specifically for the target market.

Creative Execution

The creative execution of the campaign, developed by the SATC Creative Unit in conjunction with Adelaide advertising agency *kwp!*, aims to recapture the romance of the road by recognising the needs, desires and behaviours of couples that constitute the core target market.

The campaign underlines the advantages of being away from everyday urban pressures, having time to think and communicate with your partner, setting your own pace and itinerary and discovering the secrets of both South Australia and each other.

The use of cinema and pay TV create strong audio and visual mediums, which enable the SATC to stimulate the target audience emotionally through music and images.

The music selected to accompany the ads was specifically designed to rekindle the thoughts and feelings of the target market when they were young. *Groovin* by the Young Rascals and *Dock of the Bay* by Otis Redding were chosen because of the mood and tone that they set.

Because cinema and pay TV commercials delivered such an emotional message, it was crucial that the print and magazine component of the campaign didn't simply show nice pictures of South Australia, but powerfully reinforced the emotional connection with the audience. The print and magazine advertising components also had to reflect the romance of the road. While the SATC has a significant visual library, with more than 30,000 images, they are typically of the picture postcard type. They don't predominantly feature people and when they do, they don't depict the couple as having an emotional or romantic involvement. New images were needed that reflected the aims of the campaign.

The Photographer's Brief

While many photographers were capable of capturing South Australia's landscapes, it was more challenging to find one able to capture people emotionally within a

landscape, and interacting with one another naturally.

As the images would be critical in positioning South Australia as a premier drive destination, the selection of an appropriate photographer was crucial. The brief to the photographer, Tim Hixon, was to shoot a couple interacting – almost candidly – within the South Australian landscape, with their relationship, and the romance of the road, paramount.

Hixon used a special ‘plastic lensing’ effect to add intrigue to the images, giving them a darkened cameo effect around the edges which reinforced the mystery, intrigue and undiscovered aspects of South Australia as a holiday destination. Hixon’s style, tone and execution complemented the campaign.

Five key journeys are featured in *The Unwinding Roads of South Australia*, covering a mix of coastal, winery, Outback, river and Adelaide metropolitan images. A series of 12 print and magazine advertising concepts was developed using stock images to give the photographer a strong sense of the type of images required, long before the actual film shoot was conducted.

The selection of actors used to portray the couple was also important, if the target market were to identify with them. The couple selected for the week-long shoot were married, which meant they had a natural chemistry.

Campaign Execution

At 152 pages, *The Unwinding Roads of South Australia* is both the newest and largest *Secrets* publication. Detailing five iconic journeys to and through South Australia and 18 self-drive routes from Adelaide, the full colour glossy publication included suggested routes, maps, accommodation and information on attractions. Again, travel writers wrote the text and the images used focused on iconic South Australian tourism experiences.

Two new cinema commercials promoting the campaign were shown on 195 cinema screens in Sydney, Melbourne and Adelaide. They also screened nationally through selected channels on Pay TV networks Foxtel and Austar. A comprehensive magazine and print advertising campaign included more than 30 titles with a focus on travel, wine, Outback, ecotourism and motoring.

More than 110,000 *Drive* books were sent to existing and potential members of the

SATC’s *Secrets* database during the launch phase. A further 500,000 promotional direct mail fliers promoting the free publication to consumers in key postcodes in New South Wales, Victoria, Canberra and South Australia were sent in November 2002. A new website drive.southaustralia.com dedicated to the new campaign is accessible through www.southaustralia.com.

Drive Campaign Results

Early response to the campaign indicates that 79% of all requests for the new *Secrets Drive* publication are from potential interstate visitors and over 27% of the response is through the www.drive.southaustralia.com website (SATC internal research 2003).

More than 178,300 books have been distributed in a four-month period with an estimated 79.7% of these books being sent to interstate consumers – a ratio that is in line with the distribution of the most profitable prospects target market, which is approximately 80% interstate and 20% intrastate. An additional 30,758 consumer records have been added to the SATC *Secrets* database, which represents an increase of 51% in four months of campaign activity.

Direct Mail Teaser

Total specific response to the direct mail teaser is estimated at 26,350 from a total of 500,000 pieces sent to targeted postcodes of Sydney, Melbourne, Adelaide, Canberra and regional NSW and Victoria. This is a response rate of 5.3%, a good result considering the following:

- Industry benchmarks for this campaign style (distribution to postcodes via unaddressed letterbox delivery) is usually within the 2-3% range;
- It is the SATC’s best response rate to direct marketing in a campaign, surpassing the 4.7% achieved with the March 2001 *Secrets* campaign; and
- All of the “drive market” customers on the SATC’s database received a copy of the *Secrets* book in the initial distribution of 110,000 copies, which means that these additional inquiries are from new customers.

The response method has also changed when compared to past campaigns, with the difference being the use of the web. Online response to the latest campaign is almost four times greater than that of previous campaigns. This is due to a significant effort

to promote www.drive.southaustralia.com linked to southaustralia.com as a preferred method of ordering the book. The reasons for this increased push toward the web include: increased brand experience, greater cost effectiveness and increasing importance in the Internet as a media tool (see Figure 2 below).

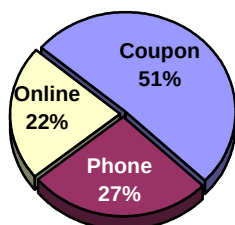


Figure 2: Levels of response to the Unwinding Roads of South Australia campaign.

Response by State has also significantly changed compared with previous campaigns. An increase of more than 258% has been achieved in New South Wales. This campaign specifically re-directed resources and collateral from the South East Queensland market towards New South Wales - the home State of South Australia's largest MPP target market (see Figure 3). A response share of 69% from the interstate market is relatively steady compared to previous campaigns.

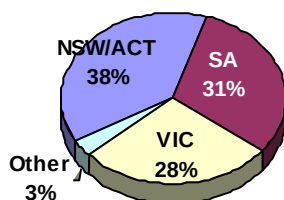


Figure 3: State Levels of response to the Unwinding Roads of South Australia campaign

Advertising and Media

Reports from the *Secrets* call centre suggest that an estimated 8,606 responses were generated from advertising and editorial placed during the campaign launch. This positive response illustrates the ability of advertising to both build brand and stimulate response, given the right creative executions.

Online Activity

The online response to this campaign has exceeded previous results. The www.drive.southaustralia.com website has received 18,146 visits since its November

launch from over 10,600 visitors. Key outcomes from the website statistics include:

- 9346 requests for the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* online – 88% of all visitors;
- 2474 downloaded maps – 23% of all visitors; and
- An estimated 68% of all visitors to this website were from the interstate market, 19% more than the www.southaustralia.com master site.

The SATC's database of customers wishing to travel to South Australia for a holiday is now more than 90,000. The new *Drive* campaign is creating a relationship with them.

Much of this success is attributed to the new image of South Australia. Despite the overwhelming success of the *Secrets* campaign to date, the SATC and advertising agency *kwp!* are reviewing the *Secrets* domestic tourism brand. The primary purpose of the review is to ensure that the campaign remains relevant to consumers, that the images and style accurately depicts the State's range of holiday experiences and continues to deliver increases in visitor numbers, nights and yield.

Conclusion

Marketing the *Secrets* of South Australia with pictures of iconic experiences – moving and still – in a specifically designed cinema, direct mail ad print campaign has repositioned the image of the State with the target market. The campaign built on the knowledge that domestic visitors to the State enjoyed the experience, but there was clearly a lack of both product and experience knowledge amongst much of the target market. The *Secrets* marketing and promotion, particularly with the *Book of Best Kept Secrets* and the customised cinema advertising, succeeded on meeting the needs of the key interstate markets, including New South Wales and Victoria, with a specific focus on the most profitable prospects. The '*Black Book*' has become almost a collectors item.

The results to date of the new *Secrets Drive* campaign have been impressive and reinforce the Government's decision to invest in domestic tourism marketing and the re-invention of a compelling image for South Australia. By more accurately targeting the domestic market, South Australia has the potential to increase both visitation and economic impact.

International events like September 11, the attack on Australians in Bali, the war in Iraq and the outbreak of SARS, have had a devastating impact on tourism globally. The strongest tourism trend since these events is for travellers to increasingly holiday at home (SATC 2004). The State's domestic marketing push with an emphasis on self-drive is perfectly timed and our reputation as the *Secret* destination, with compelling images and experiences, may prove to be a very real advantage.

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